

THE UNIVERSITY OF CHICAGO

MAX WEBER'S THEORY OF CHARISMA AND THE CATHOLIC CHARISMATIC
RENEWAL: AN EXAMINATION OF FIT LEADING TO
A PROPOSED COMPLIMENTARINESS WITH MIRCEA ELIADE'S
PHENOMENOLOGY OF RELIGION

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BY
GUY FRICANO

CHICAGO, ILLINOIS

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Chapter 1: On the History of Charisma in the Catholic Charismatic Renewal (CCR)

Manuscript Overview.

This project represents an examination of the nature of charisma within a global religious movement, the Catholic Charismatic Renewal (CCR), using the most significant social scientific theory of charisma, that of Max Weber (2003; 1968a; 1968b), to frame informants' experiences and provide links between the experiential and the historical development of the power structure of the Roman Catholic Church. In turn, the resulting data will be used to propose an unprecedented development of Weber's construct for future research.

The manuscript is divided into four chapters. The first chapter will present a description of the CCR's development using social science, the writings of participants, historical and religious documents. The second chapter presents data on the fundamental nature of charisma based upon in-depth ethnographic study in the Chicago metropolitan area, and to a lesser extent, Rome. The third chapter presents data on the fundamental nature of charisma, but from person-centered interviews of ten key informants who also helped to generate ethnographic data of the second chapter. The final chapter introduces Weber's theory of charismatic leadership in detail, discusses the theoretical implications of the previous three chapters, analyzes the strengths and limitations of Weber's construct, and finally, argues for a development of that construct based upon the data of this study.

This chapter begins with the mythical account of the Pentecost, after which the praxis, theology, history, and experience of the CCR's religiosity shall be examined.

The Mythical Origin of Pentecost.

¹And when the day of Pentecost was fully come, they were all with one accord in one place. ²And suddenly there came a sound from heaven as of a rushing mighty wind, and it filled all the house where they were sitting. ³And there appeared unto them cloven tongues like as of fire, and it sat upon each of them. ⁴And they were all filled with the Holy Ghost, and began to speak with other tongues, as the Spirit gave them utterance. (King James, Acts 2: 1-4)

This is the biblical account of the Pentecost. The people in this story were apostles, the inner-circle followers of Jesus of Nazareth, who had gathered to celebrate Shavuot in conspicuous absence from their recently executed charismatic leader. The gathering to commemorate harvest is portrayed in biblical legend as inflected with the sacrifice the apostles would teach as the purpose of Christ's existence. The unexpected arrival of the Holy Spirit as a rushing wind sanctifies them in place of their leader, and marks the origin of the Christian Church as an institution before the apostles would spread the teachings from Judea as far as Britain to the North, Egypt to the South, Portugal to the West, and India to the East.

Pentecostals are modern Christians who believe they can share in the same personal relationship with Jesus and pneumatic sanctification as did the apostles thousands of years ago (Cox, 1994; Rea, 1972; Williams, 1980; 1972; 1971, Broderick, 1987b). The transformative event that indicates pneumatic sanctification, and therefore religious conversion, for modern Pentecostals has become known as *Baptism in the Holy Spirit* (Stott, 1964; Bruner, 1970; Hoekema, 1972). In their highly enthusiastic approach to worship the manifestation of charismatic power is indicated by enacted gifts of the Holy Spirit ("spiritual gifts") including wisdom, knowledge, faith, healing, miracles,

prophecy, discernment of spirits, speaking in tongues (glossolalia), and interpretation of tongues (Williams, 1980). These ritual enactments are based upon a list of nine spiritual gifts listed in biblical text (1 Corinthians 12:4-14). Pentecostals further liken themselves to the Apostles by claiming to enter into a personal relationship with Christ with elements of love, resentment, trust, betrayal, and at the very worst moments the feeling of being alone. The subjective sense of closeness with Christ is facilitated through emotionally charged group worship that simultaneously builds social connections. The prospect of having a direct experience with divinity has proven immensely popular, and with over 523,000,000 affiliated church members worldwide, Pentecostalism is the fastest spreading movement of any global religion (Thingpen, 2002; Cox 1994).

In the vast history of Christianity there have been previous movements emphasizing charismatic manifestations associated with the Pentecost, but they waxed and waned as fringe movements within mainline Churches... and sometimes were aggressively suppressed. However, modern Pentecostalism did not begin in a mainline church, but with the Apostolic Faith Mission at 312 Azusa Street in Los Angeles. The year was 1906, and many residents of the city were newcomers influenced by a local restorationist zeitgeist that had spawned several new religious movements idealizing a return to the spiritual life described in the biblical New Testament. Unlike similar movements in the old world, in Los Angeles there were no institutional Churches with the social leverage required for effective suppression. The explosion of conversion activity around the Apostolic Faith Mission became known as the Azusa Street Revival,

and has since become recognized as the birthplace of classical Pentecostalism, also called the “first wave” of the Pentecostal movement (Robeck Jr., 2002).

For over five decades the movement spread rapidly, drawing converts unfulfilled in their stagnating mainline churches. Some converts would leave their churches reluctantly, and only because it was necessary to worship as a Pentecostal. Beginning in the 1950's there were growing numbers who were “pre-charismatic”, meaning that they were mainline church members practicing Pentecostal worship in an exploratory fashion. Unlike earlier converts they were increasingly adamant about retaining their religious identity. In 1959 an Episcopalian couple experienced Baptism in the Holy Spirit at a Pentecostal church in Monterey Park, CA, but instead of remaining in that church they returned to worship in a Pentecostal fashion with their fellow Episcopalian parishioners. Many among the congregation, including the pastors, eventually converted in the sense that they were ritually enacting Pentecostalism's charismatic gifts and spirit baptism, but they retained their Episcopalian theology and identity. This was the birth of the Charismatic Renewal, whereby Pentecostal rituals of worship began to cross over into mainstream protestant churches, including Presbyterianism, Lutheranism, and Methodism (Cox, 1994; Spittler, 1976). The pentecostalization of mainstream Christians who would remain in their original churches became known as the “second wave” of Pentecostalism. Similar stirrings among conversion-prone Catholics in North and South America were suppressed until the explosion of the Catholic Charismatic Renewal in 1967. This chapter will explain how the crossover into Catholicism occurred and why it happened when it did. The CCR emerged at the intersection of several phenomena:

Pentecostalism, the charismatic renewal, the Catholic Church, the Second Vatican Council, and an “official” Catholic-Pentecostal dialogue mandated by the council (Hocken, 2002; Karkkainen, 2000; Suenens, 1974; Bord & Falkner, 1983; Fichter, 1975; Cordes, 1997; O’Connor, 1971; Martin, 1994).

Max Weber’s theory of charisma (discussed more thoroughly in the final chapter) is intended to explain how perceived divine authority can be abstracted from an individual leader (such as Jesus of Nazareth) and transformed to legitimate a dominant social institution (such as the Roman Catholic Church). To apply the theory here, it will be necessary to consider participants’ knowledge of the historical antecedents of the movement. Naturally, a variety of opinions have been encountered over the five years of ethnographic fieldwork from which some of these data derive. However, almost all participants hinge the legitimacy of their movement upon two beliefs about its origins: that the CCR began with an event called the Duquesne weekend, and that the CCR’s legitimacy is rooted in the Second Vatican Council. These events will be described more completely in the next section, followed by other historical facts less well known to the typical adherent but nonetheless indispensable in the attempt to judge fit between Weber’s theory of charisma and the dynamics of the CCR as they actually occur.

Emic Histories of the CCR.

The Catholic Charismatic Renewal is an international Pentecostal movement within the Roman Catholic Church that began with a group of about twenty Christians at Duquesne University in February, 1967, including non-Catholic Pentecostals, Catholic laity, and at least one Catholic priest (McGuire, 1982; O’Connor, 1971). Attendees

claimed to have manifested spiritual gifts including glossolalia, prophecy, the discernment of spirits, and powers of faith healing (Csordas 1990a; 1990b; 2002; for a description of representative exorcistic practices, see Cuneo, 2001). Catholic attendees would actively spread the Pentecostal influence to their Catholic parishes across the USA. Since then, the movement has grown to involve up to 1,000,000 American Catholics, with up to 39,000,000 others throughout Europe, Latin America, Australia, Africa, India, and Oceania (Thingpen, 2002). While visiting the CCR's institutional headquarters in Rome, I learned there is even a prayer group in Antarctica.

As the CCR permeated the vastness of the Catholic world, it has come to encompass many local histories. Its history in Latin America, for example, is more closely related to a religious economy and, accordingly, is sometimes understood by adherents in terms of different origin myths as the ones about to be presented here (see Chestnut, 2003). For the purpose of developing Weber's theory of charisma, however, the two most important beliefs on the supposed origin of the CCR in America and the turbulent process of its acceptance by the hierarchy in Rome, to be described in the following two sections.

Widespread belief in the CCR's legitimacy being based upon a movement of the Holy Spirit (and not of social forces, a dichotomy to be explored further in the following three chapters) supports the use of Weber's theory, as his position was that social order is accepted as legitimate based on its perceived representation of transcendent order. From a Weberian perspective, this is the key principle being affirmed in the following section on beliefs about the American origins of the CCR. The second history to be

presented, that of the Vatican and its dialogue with Pentecostal leaders, will show that this legitimacy of social order depends upon the institutionalization of charismatic power, something that was achieved masterfully by the hierarchy through a process Weber would have anticipated based on his designation of legalism as one such process: a dialogue between Catholic Church and certain carefully chosen Pentecostal figures that would result in the creation of joint church documents eventually function as currency for the CCR's legitimacy within the Catholic Church.

American Origins.

Csordas (1997) divides the history of the CCR into six periods. The first period was prior to the famed Duquesne retreat of 1967. It was characterized by growing interest of Catholic individuals in Pentecostalism, which at that time was practiced only in certain non-Catholic churches. Protestant Pentecostals were convinced their way of worshipping was inherently incompatible with the Catholic Church, and as a result, many Catholics were successfully converted to these Pentecostal-friendly denominations.

The second period (1967-70) began with the Duquesne retreat. Until this point, Pentecostal activity was strictly endemic to certain Protestant and nondenominational churches. This retreat marked the beginning of Pentecostalism's first widespread acceptance among Catholics. Shortly after the Duquesne retreat, Pentecostal orientation spread among Catholics in several American regions, particularly in Indiana, Michigan, and New England. These Catholics often worshipped alongside Protestants in a loosely organized network of prayer groups connected primarily through personal

associations. Protestant Pentecostals tended to play the most prominent roles in group leadership.

The third period (1970-75) was characterized by formalization of charismatic rituals and religious language. This was the time when the movement first took on the name of the Charismatic Renewal. As more Catholics occupied leadership in the movement, a debate was already underway in Rome about how this American movement should be regarded. As will be explained in the next section on the CCR's Roman history, this debate was resolved in favor of the Charismatic Renewal, with Pope Paul VI offering his blessing to the movement at its international conference in Rome, 1975. This period also saw the formation of the first 'covenant communities' in South Bend, Indiana, and Ann Arbor, Michigan- clusters of charismatics who communed in the attempt to live a more Christian existence by "insulating" themselves from the corrupting influences of secular society.

In the fourth period (1975-80), apocalyptic fervor spread through the movement. Many covenant communities came to see themselves as living a lifestyle that would be necessary for survival in the grim circumstances that lay ahead. These communities began to push for a reconceptualization of the prayer meeting as a necessary, intermediate step into formal charismatic communities. Other charismatics felt that the prayer group system satisfied their religious needs, and had no intention of living in a covenant community. Differences in belief regarding in-group membership requirements led to leadership struggles in the most prominent communities. The Charismatic Renewal's success beyond the United States was also becoming clearly recognized,

particularly in Central America, the Philippines, and Australia. The result of all this was decentralization of the unofficial leadership that had begun to crystallize through the pooled resources of American covenant communities.

In the fifth period (the early to late 1980's), schisms occurred within several notable covenant communities. In some cases, the conflicts involved leadership succession. In other cases, they were ideological clashes between those who wished to preserve the apocalyptic orientation versus those who wanted to move in a more decentralized, prayer group direction. Opposing factions scrambled to evangelize new converts, their own lax members, and sometimes the lax members of other charismatic factions. In this state of top-down authority disarray, the movement was re-energized by bottom-up Protestant influences.

In the sixth period (the late 1980's to the present), several charismatic communes have come to see themselves as a movement that is distinct from the Charismatic Renewal. Within the Renewal, Catholic identity became re-emphasized, with the boundaries between charismatic and non-charismatic Catholics becoming obscured; many who were previously active in charismatic prayer groups became more involved with other, non-charismatic Church activities, and many non-charismatics have begun to flock to the healing masses of charismatic priests. Along with this reorientation toward the Catholic mainstream came a greater degree of formal leadership (and supervision) from the hierarchy of the Church (Csordas, 1997). In terms of Weber's theory, it would appear that the hierarchy's attempts to institutionalize the charisma that once functioned as the experiential focus of the movement was largely successful.

Emic Belief about the Origin of the CCR: The Duquesne Retreat as a New Pentecost.

Among Catholic Charismatics, the most uncontested belief about the CCR's origins is that it began according to the mysterious spontaneity of the Holy Spirit moving upon the attendees of the Duquesne weekend in 1965. The parallel between this narrative and the biblical account of Pentecost were conspicuous, implying for modern worshippers a sanctification through establishing an identical experience as that of the Apostles. Implicit in this just-so story is the belief that the success of the Duquesne weekend necessarily precludes human calculation as an antecedent by virtue of the divine consequent of the CCR's rapid growth into a global movement. This in turn is based upon more fundamental cosmological presumptions among CCR adherents, such that the human will is always suspect when the action of the Holy Spirit is stifled, whereas prosperity is attributable to the Spirit's action... despite the imperfect cooperation, if not outright interference, of human will toward this divinely inspired end. These points will be developed further in the following chapters of this thesis.

A closely related belief is that the highly personalized and unmediated experience of divinity characterizing Pentecostalism has scriptural origins in the biblical portrayal of the Pentecost. As is typical of Pentecostals in any denomination, most CCR adherents I encountered in fieldwork presume that scriptural evidence implies historical reality- an assumption about the nature of revelation that, as will be shown by the end of this chapter, was *not* upheld at the Second Vatican council.

As Weber's theory of charisma predicts the transmission of authority to occur from charismatic individuals to rituals and institutions, adherents' narratives on the

CCR's historical origins flow into explanations of legitimacy within the Catholic religion. When questioned persistently, adherents bristle but remain steadfast that its legitimacy is rooted in documents produced in the Second Vatican Council (see Flannery, 1975), from the Papacy (see McDonnell, 1989), and from nationally organized Ecumenical bodies including the United States Conference of Catholic Bishops (see RCC USA, 1975; McDonnell, 1980). As opposed to the apparent legitimacy gleaned from a literal interpretation of the famed biblical account of Pentecost, adherents are typically unfamiliar with the Church documents that legitimate the movement. Nor do they aim for such understanding; CCR religiosity is characterized by a pursuit of (what they term) "a child's faith" (including emotional intimacy) over historical insight (or revelation in any intellectualized form) that will also be elaborated in subsequent chapters.

Hierarchical Institutionalization of Charisma: The CCR's Roman History.

The history of the CCR does not begin with Pentecostalism being welcomed warmly into the Catholic Church by the Roman hierarchy. Most viewed the movement with suspicion. The charismatic manifestations and personal experience of divinity associated with it were seen by many as fundamentally individualistic, and therefore irreconcilable with the sacrament-mediated spirituality of Catholicism. The emotional intensity of charismatic worship also was believed irreconcilable with the contemplative tradition of Catholicism.

During the Second Vatican Council ("Vatican II"), the struggle over Pentecostalism's legitimacy in the Church would involve some of the most powerful hierarchical figures. Beginning in 1963 (four years prior to the Duquesne Pentecost in

the USA), Ernesto Cardinal Ruffini of Palermo was among the most powerful opponents of Pentecostalism, which he regarded as an imitation of a unique spiritual event (the descent of the Holy Spirit at the Pentecost) whose sole purpose was to mark the sanctification of the Church following the death of Christ. He argued that demonstrations of charisma did not play a significant role in the lives of ordinary, modern Christians. In essence, this was a highly stylized appeal to the perception of charismatics as freaks whose illegitimate spirituality was based upon a literalist misinterpretation of scripture. Leo-Joseph Cardinal Suenens of Brussels was the most powerful proponent for the movement. In response to the concerns voiced by Ruffini, Suenens argued that the demonstration of charismatic gifts was crucial for the growth of the Catholic Church's ecclesial body. In essence, this was a highly stylized allusion to the CCR's undeniable success at intra-faith conversion: throughout the world, millions who were nominally Catholic were again becoming actively involved as a result of their commitment to the CCR (Waldstein, 1995). By the conclusion of the Second Vatican Council (December 8, 1965), the CCR's proponents were in position to tie its legitimacy to several of the 16 official documents drafted via the council, most notably the dogmatic constitution on the church, which stated that the Holy Spirit manifests charismatic gifts for the purpose of renewing and upbuilding the church (Broderick, 1987a). Essentially, this acknowledged the spiritually Catholic nature of CCR, but further linked its legitimacy to success at conversion. On 10 October 1973, Pope Paul VI addressed the first International Leader's Conference of the CCR, giving the movement its first official blessing from the Holy See (see RCC International, 1973b). Pope John Paul II has gone even further to

support the CCR (ICCRS, 2003a; 2003b). There are no indications that Benedict XVI will reverse this position.

The predication of the CCR's legitimacy upon principles affirmed in the Second Vatican Council profoundly impacted the subsequent development of the movement within the Catholic Church. Where Pentecostalism traditionally emphasizes a personal relationship with God, the CCR began to weave this relationship into the older and broader Catholic conception of the interrelationship between God, the individual, and the unified Christian community (i.e., the Church) (McDonnell 1973; 1975; 1976; 1978; 1991; see also RCC International, 1973a; 1974; 1978a; 1978b; 1979a; 1979b) . The outwardly-strange ways of charismatic worship remain above reproach as long as their beliefs do not stray from the doctrinal convictions of the church. While it normally has been presumed in Charismatic tradition that experience of the charismatic gifts links one to divinity, the manner in which it would link the worshipper to the institution of the Catholic Church remained less clear. However, the CCR's status within the Church has since transformed from a fringe movement of oddball fundamentalists into a core of the most serious-minded and highly involved laity. Where it was once begrudgingly granted acceptance by conservatives, it has since emerged as an influential conservative exponent in its own right. It was once a movement that tested the flexibility of the Church, but has since become recognized by Rome as based upon sound, mainstream Catholic theology (Cordes, 1985; Suenens, 1984). As Max Weber predicted, this was possible only after a sustained process of institutionalization, through which the charismatic power believed manifested in Pentecostal worship was appropriated by

Vatican authorities to bolster the legitimacy of the Catholic Church as an institution. The specifics about how this occurred will be explained in the remaining sections of this chapter.

Etic Considerations on the Genesis of the CCR.

With a more broad historical perspective on the true inner workings of the Church power structure before, during, and since the Second Vatican Council a less apologetic consideration of the CCR's origins becomes possible. A more detailed examination of the reformation that swept through the church hierarchy must highlight other facts that when considered concurrently will suggest that the movement's origins were not as pneumatically spontaneous (that is, they did result simply from the divine and completely non-human agency of the Holy Spirit) as adherents tend to believe. It will be shown that the supposedly spirit-led Duquesne retreat happened in an acceptable place at the right time, that is, in fulfillment of key principles designated as defining Catholicism in the nascence immediately following the Second Vatican Council (see Sammon, 2001).

Operant Models of Authority in the First and Second Vatican Councils: Petrine and Apostolic Succession.

And I also say to you that you are Peter, and upon this rock I will build my church, and the gates of the netherworld will not prevail against it. I will give you the keys of the kingdom of heaven; whatever you bind on earth will be bound in heaven, and whatever you loose on earth will be loosed in heaven. (Matthew 16:18; see also John 21:15–16)

The biblical account of Jesus appointing the apostle Peter as the “rock” of the Church is interpreted in Catholicism as designation for leadership succession over the Church (that is, over the whole of Christ's followers). The Catholic view is that Peter's appointed

role, to function as vicar of the original master, was discrete from his own personhood, and that the need for such a leader would outlast him. This sacred role is known as the *Holy See* (entomologically related to “seat,” as in a position of power represented by a throne). The mortal man who represents the Holy See is Pope. The origins of *Petrine authority* are traced from the modern Pope through thousands of years of leadership succession to the first leadership designation by Jesus, the spiritual leader of all Christians. The evolution of the Holy See into an office completely abstracted Christ, Peter, and all other successors represents a key premise of Weber’s theory. This, along with the processes through which sacred authority claimed through charismatic experience became controlled through the institutionalization of the CCR, further support the appropriateness of Weber’s theory for conceptualization of the data in this study.

The biblical account of Pentecost represents a claim that the apostles (the inner-circle followers of Christ) were sanctified by transcendent order (i.e., the will of God and the action of the Holy Spirit), a claim that, from the perspective of Weber’s theory, is necessary to legitimate the domination of Church leadership collective. Together they are believed to have received the Holy Spirit, bestowing upon them the same divine agency that the bible describes descending upon Jesus when he was baptized by John, and by extension, the same authority he bestowed upon Peter in Matthew 16:18 and John 21:15-16. The authority manifested in the leadership collective is that of *apostolic succession*, although since Vatican II it has become more fashionably termed “collegiality” (Caporale 1964; Wilde, 2004; Volgrimler, 1967-1969; Hastings, 1991).

From the Catholic viewpoint, it continues to be represented most fully by Council of Bishops assembled for theological or pastoral purposes. This collective authority is independent from Petrine authority, yet indistinguishable in terms of its proximal source of the Holy Spirit. Therefore, in Catholicism it has traditionally been believed that the power of the Bishops' collective should balance and compliment that of the Pope.

Roman Catholicism was Roman before it became global. Its cultural, historical, and spiritual foundations in the Roman Civilization continue to manifest in the ongoing efforts to balance the Petrine and Apostolic models of authority within a single leadership schema. As Vicar of Christ, the position of Pope is structurally analogous to the pre-Christian concept of Caesar, who was regarded according to civic religion as a virtual God on Earth. Apostolic succession is analogous to the Senatorial authority of the pre-Christian Roman republic. To understand the significance of Vatican II it is necessary to understand how Vatican I affected the pre-Christian balance between these models of authority within Catholicism's Roman tradition.

Vatican I

Like nearly all of the nineteen previous ecumenical councils (gatherings of Bishops), in December 1869 Vatican I commenced in the face of crisis (Ellis, 1962). The Catholic bishops convened in reaction to the perceived menace of modernism and its applications of reason and empirical evidence to debunk articles of faith. Ten years prior, Charles Darwin (1859) published "On the Origin of Species by Means of Natural Selection", and the subsequent advance of scientific knowledge was resulting in Christian creation myths losing credibility even among the uneducated (Kurtz, 1983;

Hennesey, 1963). The emergence of nation-states created rivalries between Catholic peoples that could no longer be reconciled within a framework of Catholic fraternity, and unmanageable through means of Holy See diplomacy.

The general consensus of the 774 convened Bishops was that modernism should be condemned and the Catholic Church's beliefs should be re-confirmed (Kurtz, 1986; Lyng & Kurtz, 1985). A minority consisting primarily of Italian and Spanish bishops believed the solution was to centralize Papal authority for purposes of clarifying correct from incorrect doctrine, reigning in Catholic dissidents and condemning ideological threats outside of the Catholic faith. Their proposition was to reify the ancient principle of Petrine succession into an ecumenical decree of Papal infallibility. A second minority, composed mainly of French, German, Austrian, and Hungarian bishops, opposed the decree because it was inconsistent with the traditional balance between Petrine and Apostolic models of authority. A third group, the majority, leaned toward increased centralization of Papal power but was ambivalent about a decree placing Papal authority so clearly above their own. Most of those open minded about a decree of Papal infallibility assumed it would be complimented by a decree affirming the infallibility of Bishops as a sacred collective.

One issue was separated from the other and each was dealt with separately. The question of Papal infallibility was addressed first, and it sparked fierce debate between the two extremist minorities. The ambivalent majority seemed to be more alarmed by inaction before the modernist threat than by the potential problems with over-centralizing Papal authority. It appeared as if the bishop's college would vote in favor of

the proposition as a dogmatic constitution, a particularly weighty decree classification. In protest, the anti-Papal minority left the council en-masse before the vote could be administered. In their absence the decree on Papal infallibility was ratified with only two dissenting votes. In a face saving maneuver, Pius IX indefinitely called off the council in October 1870 due to the Franco-Prussian war breaking out four months prior. This conflict would pit ethnic groups represented by the anti-Papal minority against one another, resulting in the deaths of one quarter-million soldiers and over one half-million civilians, and leaving in its wake a continental power imbalance that Church diplomacy could not rectify and inter-Catholic hatred it could not appease. As the rise of the nation-state was one threat to which the Catholic Church hierarchy intended to react, this war represented a disaster that Vatican failed to avert. (Pottmeyer, 1989). The warfare between peoples represented by Bishops comprising the multi-ethnic bloc that was unable to affirm the infallibility of Apostolic authority left an analogous power imbalance within the structure of the Catholic Church leadership, effectively leaving the proponents of Papal infallibility unchecked.

Two of the primary accomplishments of Vatican I were dogmatic constitutions: One was *Dei Filius*, which affirmed reason as valid only in accordance with faith. The second was *Pastor Aeternus*, which declared the Papacy's pastoral and teaching authority as infallible (Butler, 1962). With the anti-Papal minority opting out of the council, the networks necessary to ratify another decree on ecumenical infallibility could not be established, and Papal infallibility emerged from the council virtually unqualified. When a Caesar of the pre-Christian Roman Republic dissolved the power of the senate

or arranged its power so that it derived from his own, the Republic became an Empire, and this is how Vatican I upset the ancient balance of power within the Roman Catholic Church (Pottmeyer, 1998).

The highly centralized Papal authority would siphon influence toward another collective that would threaten to eclipse that of the Bishops assemblies: The Roman Curia. Unlike the majority of bishops, the curialists tended to be Cardinals (men selected by a Pope for leadership), and they derived their authority from their service to the Papacy. The Curia's bureaucratic structure formed according to administrative needs of the Holy See (Reese, 1998). In time, it grew powerful in its own right. The *Holy Office* was the most politically dangerous component of the Curial structure. It was feared for charges of heresy, decrees of excommunication, its association with the Spanish Inquisition and myriad other atrocities against Jews, Muslims, atheists, Catholic dissidents, or anyone deemed threatening to the Papacy's role as undisputed arbiter of transcendent order. After Vatican I the Curia again began to enforce papal authority in ways that increasingly undermined the apostolic authority of the Bishops. Mounting resentment between these collectives would lead to future conflict between Bishops' seeking to restore their apostolic authority and curialists seeking to preserve their power by defending Papal supremacy. The confrontation began 92 years later and is remembered as the Second Vatican Council (Wilde, 2004; Pottmeyer, 1998; McBrien, 1989).

Vatican II

Unlike most of the previous twenty ecumenical councils, Vatican II was not called because of immanent threat, but rather to bring the Catholic Church up-to-date following a century of staggering world conflict. Between the Vatican I and Vatican II there were 16 wars in Europe alone, including World Wars I and II, the most devastating in all history. After the conclusion of WW II there was a new sense among Church leaders that the world was changing rapidly and the prospect of hunkering down in defensive self-isolation (essentially what was attempted in Vatican I) seemed an ill-conceived strategy, particularly in the wake of the suffering that reached so much of the Catholic world. In the effort to reconcile with each other, peoples came to attribute the bloodshed to conflicts not to real differences between cultures and ethnicities, but instead between leadership personalities, and that the results became catastrophic because of over-centralized geopolitical authority. People weary from the carnage demanded targets of scorn and found them in figures like Hitler, Mussolini, Hirohito, and Stalin.

Within the Roman Catholic Church similar disgust was being felt toward the unilateral leadership approaches of Pius XI (1922-29) and Pius XII (1939-58) resulting in the infamous *Reichskonkordat* with Hitler and the Lateran treaty with Mussolini, the latter agreement forming the Vatican city-state and re-establishing the Pope as a geopolitical monarch. Many blamed both Popes for these negotiations; previous to his ascension as Pius XII, Cardinal Eugenio Pacelli was the diplomat that negotiated the concordats with the dictators on behalf of Pius XI. Pius XII also explicitly invoked Papal infallibility in defining *ex-cathedra* the Assumption of Mary as Roman Catholic dogma, a

commitment that did not accurately represent the views of millions of Catholics but nonetheless has proven divisive with other Christians ever since. The Bishops' assemblies were consulted on none of these matters. In the decades following World War II, increasing numbers of Catholic Bishops regarded Papal supremacy as a tedious, if not ominous, anachronism. Critics found little evidence a hyper-centralized Papal authority was functioning effectively in the rapidly changing world of that time, and hopes for its practicality in the foreseeable future were dissipating. Despite growing resentment, cardinals and bishops alike were surprised when Pope John XXIII (1958-1963) announced in 1959 that another ecumenical council would be held (McBrien, 1989; Caporale, 1964).

After a period of bureaucratic preparation, the council began in October 1962 with over one thousand bishops gathered in St. Peter's Basilica, Vatican City. The most dramatic of the Council's four sessions was the first. McBrien (1989) summed up its proceedings in terms of five primary events. The first was the commencement statement of John XXIII to the assembled Bishops on October 11, 1962. He encouraged the creation of documents that would reflect modern thought, that disagreements should be handled with mercy rather than condemnation, and prayed the council would be "a new Pentecost". His statement called for a 180-degree reversal from the approach, tone, and content of Vatican I. Two days later, when curialists attempted to ratify their pre-designated schema for ten commissions to create documents affirming Church structure and theology as it was, prominent liberals led by Cardinals Lienart of Lille and Frings of Cologne successfully argued its rejection. This was the beginning of the shift

of power away from the curia in favor of the assembled Bishops. On October 22 a debate about changes in liturgy galvanized the council into the camps of progressives and conservatives. Cardinal Ottaviani, who functioned as Prefect of the feared Holy Office, made charges that the council was being taken over by “revolutionaries.” When he attempted to continue his rant after the allotted speaking time his microphone was turned off, prompting applause from the assembly. On November 14, the curial schema for doctrinal understanding of revelation as founded upon dual sources (scripture and tradition) was opposed by 60% of the assembly, which was not enough to completely remove it from consideration. John XXIII intervened directly and ordered the document removed from the floor and placed its amendment as the responsibility of a committee he decided would be co-chaired by Cardinal Ottaviani, the foremost conservative, and Cardinal Bea, a powerful progressive curialist who functioned as president of the Vatican’s Secretariat for Promoting Christian Unity. Placement of the document in a committee co-chaired by ideological foes effectively isolated it in bureaucratic gridlock, and on December 4 the progressive Cardinal Suenens of Belgium successfully called for a complete re-drafting of the document. The Bishops proceeded to write documents they would eventually ratify. By the end of the first session in December 1962, the Bishops had effectively neutralized the curial minority within the legislative process (Sullivan, 2002).

John XXIII died in June 1963 without ordering the council to reconvene. In the hands of the next pope was left the decision to allow the progressive tendencies manifesting in the council to proceed, to stop the change where it was by declaring the

council concluded, or to leave the matter for a successor to resolve. The next Pope was Paul VI, who was sympathetic to the progressive cause. He promptly ordered the council to reconvene in September 1963.

Having established control of all aspects of document creation and ratification, the Bishops proceeded to directly attack the power of the Curia, beginning with the Holy Office. With the creative support of his young theological assistant Joseph Ratzinger, Cardinal Frings argued to the council that the despotic style of the Holy Office had become a source of scandal for the entire church. He demanded reforms of its procedures, including transparency with deliberations against theologians and greater tolerance for diversity of thought within the Church. His accusations and demands were met by loud applause by the normally subdued assembly of Cardinals and Bishops. By the conclusion of Vatican II, their reform of the Holy Office was so thorough that they renamed it *The Congregation for the Doctrine of the Faith*. The rationale behind the name change was to move the curial organism away from its historical legacy of persecuting heretics, and toward a new focus on promotion of “correct” Catholic religion. Decades after the council, in 1981 Joseph Ratzinger was appointed prefect of the congregation his mentor brought under control, and would develop a reputation of fear and respect surpassing that of Ottaviani, eventually leading to his ascension in 2005 as Pope Benedict XVI (Allen, 2005).

Vatican II: Summary.

The second Vatican council was characterized by a struggle to re-balance two traditionally coexisting models of authority within the Roman Catholic Church: Petrine

and Apostolic succession. The self-described defenders of the Papacy set out to protect the doctrine of papal infallibility against the self-described supporters of collegiality, who successfully re-established that when Bishops gather they share the same infallibility as does the Pope. The outcome of Vatican II was a successful effort to re-assert horizontal authority into a Church that had become overly vertical following the premature ending of Vatican I with its unqualified doctrine of papal infallibility (Sullivan, 2002).

To consider the affirmation of collegiality as merely a flattening or decentralization of Papal authority would be to underestimate the complexity of its implications for the Post-Vatican II power structure. The Pope was considered every bit as infallible as before... what was re-established was the complementary view that the Church as a whole is sanctified, and that holiness does not simply emanate from the top of its organizational structure, sacred and unique as the Petrine office still was regarded to be.

The praxis characterizing the CCR must therefore be understood as a ritual enactment of the Pentecost, the biblical event legitimating the collective, Apostolic authority re-asserted in Vatican II. This movement would have been threatening to pre-Vatican II Catholicism because it circumscribed the Petrine authority for a direct experience of divinity. To the pro-collegiality elites that inherited the hierarchical power structure following Vatican II, there could hardly be a more fitting display of triumph than ritualized commemoration of the origin myth of apostolic authority.

Vatican II Documents of particular relevance to the CCR.

Between October 1962 and December 1965, 16 official documents were produced by the council, of which four are particularly relevant to the subsequent development of the CCR: *Lumen Gentium*, *Dei Verbum*, *Dignitatus Humanae*, and *Unitatis Redintegratio* (Miller, 1966; Caporale, 1964; Volgrimler, 1967-1969).

The Dogmatic Constitution on the Church, *Lumen Gentium*, asserts that the Church of Christ subsists in the Catholic Church, but elements of truth are also found outside its charismatic structure. It interprets “Church” in the broadest sense as “people of God”, including the laity. On the hierarchical structure of the Roman Catholic Church, it states that the Bishops’ Episcopal authority *is not* derived from the Papacy. To vitalize their collective authority it establishes a Synod gathering among Bishops every three years in an organizational scheme largely beyond the control of the curia (see Flannery, 1996).

The Dogmatic Constitution on Divine Revelation, *Dei Verbum*, refuted the view that revelation comes from the dual sources of scripture and tradition. Instead, a single source is proclaimed: Gospel, or the word of God. However, the Word is not simply text or even scripture, but also the faith and life of the church, which is a living repository in which valid understanding of revelation has grown over the centuries. It points to the need for the Bible to be interpreted properly in terms of the faith of the living church, and emphasizes the legitimacy of modernist *methods* of Biblical scholarship for the purpose of exegesis (see Flannery, 1996).

The Declaration on Religious Freedom, *Dignitatus Humanae*, was the one most influenced by American bishops. It states that in the name of human dignity, no person in any place should be forced to act against their religious beliefs, nor should they be prevented from exercising such beliefs. It defines an authentic act of Christian faith as a free response to God. It calls for tolerance even in lands dominated by one faith, and includes a vague reference to past breaches of religious tolerance on the part of Roman Catholics (see Flannery, 1996).

The Decree on Ecumenism, *Unitatis Redintegratio*, maintains that the Roman Catholic Church is the inheritor of the unity of the original church, and that it is the fullest expression of Christian salvific grace. However, it recognizes sacred action in other Christian communities that lead to holiness and salvation. It states that schism among Christians begs repentance, reconciliation, and action for rectification including a pronouncement that the Roman Catholic Church will participate in the interdenominational ecumenical movement. This mandate has been answered by the Vatican initiating inter-denominational dialogues with numerous Christian bodies and traditions (see Flannery, 1996). The dialogue most relevant to the CCR is that between the Catholicism, the world's most widespread religion, and classical Pentecostalism, the world's fastest growing (Thigpen, 2002; Cox, 1994; Spittler, 1976).

Motivations Driving the Catholic-Pentecostal Dialogue

The dialogue came at a time when Catholicism and Pentecostalism had their own peculiar needs and compulsions, and asymmetry between them would shape the dialogue's development. Pentecostals had seen the twentieth century bring theological

schism to the extent that a new movement, the so-called “charismatic renewal,” appeared to be evolving as a separate faith-style within the mainline churches. To remain true to their ecumenical self-image they would attempt to remain united with Catholic Charismatics, and to do so on a global level would necessitate dialogue with the Catholic hierarchy. After the changes that had come from Vatican II it became increasingly difficult for Pentecostals to justify their refusal to communicate; not only was Catholicism the largest and arguably oldest Church, it had overtly affirmed so many of the themes that Pentecostals believed characterized their own faith (see Miller, 1966).

From the Catholic perspective, the dialogue was a response to the Vatican II document *Unitatis Redintegratio*, which mandated theological re-unification among Christians. A fact that seemed lost upon some Pentecostals was that *Lumen Gentium*’s claim of the power structure as legitimated by the Holy Spirit (i.e., “charismatic”) implies that theological unity is inseparable from structural integrity.

Aside from this mandate the Catholic Church had other pressing needs for dialogue. As John Cardinal Willebrands of the Vatican’s Secretariat for Promoting Christian Unity stated in 1969, Pentecostalism could not be ignored further because it was the world’s fastest growing religious movement, and that most Latin American Christians who left Catholicism had converted as Pentecostals. He identified an inherent difficulty with Roman Catholicism’s hierarchy attempting dialogue with a movement like Pentecostalism that has no corresponding leadership structure. The solution eventually

reached by the Catholics would be to locate the next best thing- a high profile individual who presents himself as a credible representative of the movement.

They found such a man in David Du Plessis. Born on February 7, 1905 near Cape Town, South Africa, he was raised in a strict, white Pentecostal home. His religious conversion began at age 12, after being moved by the joyousness of black Pentecostal converts. His father was a lay preacher, and the interaction necessary for missionary work with black South Africans was justifiable primarily through the Christian principle of ecumenism, whereby Christians of all backgrounds are believed united in common faith. By age 13 he had been water baptized, symbolizing acceptance of Christianity. Shortly afterward he experienced baptism in the Holy Spirit for the first time. In his late teens he defied the anti-intellectual grain of Pentecostal culture to study at Ladybrand and Bloemfontein colleges, even at the cost of estrangement from his father. In 1936 he was moved by a prophecy from a well known Pentecostal pastor that he would give witness to the remotest parts of the world, but only if he remained obedient to the Lord. That same year he was elected as general secretary in the Apostolic Faith Mission of South Africa, the region's most prominent Pentecostal church. The effectiveness of his leadership garnered international renown, but he resigned in 1947 to become organizing secretary for the Pentecostal World Conference. This position, which he held until 1958, was ideal for building the international Pentecostal contacts necessary for his eventual ecumenical pursuits. He also began to develop enemies who suspected him of plotting to unite all Pentecostals in an international order. During this period he moved through a succession of academic seminary appointments until the

early 1950's, when he became involved with the international World Council of Churches. At the WCC he came in contact with prominent non-Pentecostals who shared a common desire for ecumenism. Among them he became known as "Mr. Pentecost", a title that would irritate other Pentecostals who viewed his approach to ecumenism as fraternizing with the enemy (Spittler 2002; Du Plessis 1970; 1977; 1986). When he offered his blessing to Pentecostalism's crossover into the mainline churches that became the Charismatic Renewal, he further alienated those detractors. As a glory-seeking, establishment-loving, internationally recognized Pentecostal leader with an inclination for ecumenism, David "Mr. Pentecost" Du Plessis was the Pentecostal celebrity needed by the Vatican hierarchy to establish the dialogue needed to create documents providing parameters for the CCR's legitimacy within the Roman Catholic Church.

Prehistory of the Dialogue

Although the international dialogue between the Catholic Church and some Classical Pentecostals formally began in 1970, its prehistory began almost a decade earlier, approximately one year prior to the commencement of Vatican II, with the encounter of two key personalities: David J. Du Plessis, the Pentecostal leader internationally known for his ecumenical ministry, and Augustin Cardinal Bea, President of the Secretariat for Promoting Christian Unity (SPCU), a curial entity that until that time had been regarded suspiciously by many non-Catholics for engaging their ideas only insofar as to fulfill its scarcely hidden agenda of bringing them back into the Catholic Church. On a visit to Rome in 1961, Du Plessis contacted Bea to arrange a

visit, which was granted. Their encounter concluded with Bea offering Du Plessis a chance to attend Vatican II as an observer, a prestige never offered to a non-Catholic prior to that council. Although Du Plessis would have no power to shape council documents, the offer was a profound symbol of the Church's new commitment to inclusion. Observers were eventually invited not only from other denominations but from certain non-Christian religions. It was a curious reversal from the Vatican's role as a permanent observer in the U.N.; representatives from all over the world were being chosen to witness the making of Vatican history (Roebeck, Jr., & Sandidge, 2002).

After attending Vatican II Du Plessis' status as an ecumenist was unparalleled in the Pentecostal world and he became recognized within Catholic circles as a prime candidate for ecumenical dialogue. Catholicism extended its networks toward other Christian groups in the wake of Vatican II, even participating in the World Council of Churches, which it had once boycotted. Accordingly, his network of personal contacts within Catholicism became more elaborate. At the fourth annual gathering of the WCC he came in contact with Killian McDonnell, a young Benedictine theologian with ties to the Vatican. They struck a lifelong friendship that would invigorate the ongoing development of the dialogue, each going on to play principle roles representing their respective traditions. Du Plessis would become the single most influential Pentecostal associated with the ecumenical effort, while McDonnell would become the most influential theologian in the effort to convince Catholic intellectuals and power-brokers of the theological legitimacy of charismatic Christianity (Spittler, 2002; Du Plessis 1970; 1977; 1986).

In 1969 Ray Bringham, an ecumenically oriented Pentecostal and friend of Du Plessis, visited Rome to meet with John Cardinal Willibrands for informal discussion on the plausibility of dialogue between Catholicism and Pentecostalism. It is known that he communicated with Du Plessis about their conversations, which were tentatively positive. The first overt communications of the dialogue came in 1970. Cardinal Willebrands' previously cited message on the impossibility of further ignoring the Pentecostal problem came to the attention of Du Plessis, who then contacted him directly to speak about it. Judging by the bluntness of his words and the medium in which they were printed (the *Information Service* of the Secretariat for Promoting Christian Unity), the message was likely intended for consumption of hierarchical insiders, particularly curialists and bishops concerned with ecumenism. Although Du Plessis was an outsider to the Catholic Church, his familiarity with the ecumenical impulses of Vatican II, and many of its key personalities, necessitated a response from Willebrands. That response exercised the maximum caution possible without defying the Vatican II ecumenical mandate: Willebrands agreed to a single meeting, the sole purpose of which would be to determine if more meetings would be feasible. They met in June 1970 and mutually decided upon one more meeting to decide whether there should be further meetings (Roebeck, Jr., & Sandidge, 2002).

They met for the second preliminary meeting in June 1971 and this time it stretched into two days of talks. Three important decisions were made on this occasion. First, it was formally agreed to proceed with an official Catholic-Pentecostal dialogue. Secondly, it was decided that a steering committee would determine topics for

discussion. The committee would be comprised of two teams of six to eight persons, one side Catholic and the other an assortment of Pentecostals, Charismatics (non-Catholic), and neo-charismatics. Finally, it was decided that the dialogue would consist across five groups of meetings, each lasting approximately five years, with adequate time in between for intellectual production and response. In true curial fashion, they decided that before proceeding they should have one more preliminary meeting (Roebeck, Jr., & Sandidge, 2002).

In October 1971 they met and decided upon moderators for each side: David Du Plessis for the Pentecostal team and Killian McDonnell representing the Catholics. They decided that each panel would be comprised of representatives known and respected within their own traditions. David Du Plessis would select the Pentecostal participants. All participants would jointly publish an account of agreement after each of the five meetings, with each member allowed to add his or her own personal reaction (even the articulation of dissent) to the account. They clarified that the accounts of agreement would not be considered as official dogma of either tradition and would not be binding toward action of any kind. They identified the purpose of the dialogue as exploring the mystery of a unified Christian spirituality through common witness, and after unanimous Pentecostal insistence the Catholics agreed never to discuss the issue of structural integrity among Christians (see SPCU-Vatican, 1972a).

The First Quinquennium: 1972 – 1976

The first round of talks began at the height of the CCR's existence in terms of converts, and the emotional intensity of their worship style. The need for Catholicism to

come to terms with its charismatics would have profound ramifications for its ability to counter the efforts of Pentecostals and Charismatics from continuing to convert Catholics in their traditional strongholds of Latin America and Europe. Although the hierarchy does not normally consider North America as Catholic territory, conversion losses on that continent were nonetheless worrisome.

The desire to distinguish their charismatics from non-Catholic Pentecostals led the Catholic hierarchy to focus upon Baptism of the Holy Spirit: what it is, what it means, and where it came from (McDonnell & Bittlinger, 1972; McDonnell 1996; 1995a; 1995b; see also McDonnell, 1991). This issue had previously been divisive between Pentecostals and non-Catholic charismatics (the former emphasizing a sudden peak-experience accompanied by glossolalia and followed by a qualitative change in status as an 'insider', the latter emphasizing its nature as a process of ongoing conversion and de-emphasizing the role of glossolalia as proof of conversion). Given the academic sophistication of the Catholic participants, it was likely understood that the Pentecostal team would be unable to reach consensus on this issue. Within the Catholic tradition, however, the ancient practice of Spirit Baptism had been thoroughly analyzed and a higher level of consensus on its forms and meanings had long been reached. While the Pentecostal team bickered with each other, the Catholic team drew them further into a well elaborated philosophy of the Spirit, citing scholarly research on the historicity of Spirit Baptism in the early church and tracing the theological legitimacy of its connection to the charismatic structure of the Church itself as a mystical body that has risen to vindicate the murdered body of Christ in fulfillment of his resurrection. This linking of

Spirit Baptism to Church structure portrayed apostolic succession, one of the two primary axes of legitimacy the Catholic tradition, as being fulfilled by the College of Catholic Bishops. This did not sit well with the Pentecostals because they considered themselves the inheritors of apostolic succession by virtue of their personal experience of divinity in Spirit Baptism (Spittler, 1996; Bennett & Bennett, 1994; Hoekema, 1972; Rea, 1972; Stott, 1964; Williams, 1972). An historical account tracing apostolic succession into the College of Catholic Bishops was further menacing to the Pentecostals because they were accustomed to considering themselves better Christians for not being part of the Catholic structure. The presentations were almost pointing to a spiritual mandate of structural union. Some Pentecostals believed the Catholics were close to violating the agreement to avoid talk of structural integrity, and others felt they had already proceeded too far down a process designed to the Catholic tradition's advantage (McDonnell, 1995a). To make matters worse, the Catholics were using critical methods of historical analysis that Pentecostals traditionally condemned as 'modernist' (see SPCU et al., 1976). Divided theologically and unequipped philosophically and methodologically to mount a cohesive counter-position, the Pentecostals bumbled as the Catholics identified concise connections between the charismatic nature of the Catholic Church's structure and the charismatic sanctification of the sacraments they administer, identifying them as facets of ancient Christianity that wound up in the hands of the present-day Catholic Church, genuine relics of the faith that Pentecostals had believed they didn't need to be authentic Christians (Sandige, 1985; McDonnell, 1978; 1976; 1973).

Both teams agreed that although Spirit-filled religion has sociological and psychological components, these do not exhaust the influence of the Holy Spirit, nor should the Holy Spirit be conceived in these terms. The Pentecostals' primary achievement of the first round was Catholic agreement on the scriptural basis of 'life in the spirit', but this was not a substantial breakthrough. Although it was nominally affirmative to the classical Pentecostal experience of divinity, it was more so to the ongoing conversion characterized by the Charismatic movement that had crossed over into Catholicism as the CCR (SPCU-Vatican 1972b; 1973; 1974; 1975; 1976).

By the end of the first round in 1976, the dialogue's credibility was suffering in Pentecostal circles, and this threatened the substance of their status as celebrities, which the Roman hierarchy would need to co-legitimize the CCR as Pentecostal and Catholic. The bickering showed that classical Pentecostals and Charismatics (mainline church members who have adopted Pentecostal worship praxis in addition to their traditional Sunday mass) were not theologically united. This was a truth that some in both categories preferred to dispatch with denial, and discrediting the dialogue served that end. However, criticism of the dialogue also was based upon other, more concerns about the representative legitimacy of the Pentecostal panel, since they had been chosen as the friends and associates of David Du Plessis, who in turn appeared chosen by the Vatican. Catholic orchestration of the dialogue beginning with their courting of Du Plessis eroded his team's credibility in the eyes of less ecumenical Pentecostals. Frustration also was growing within his panel, eventually resulting in challenges to his leadership that would influence the following round of dialogue.

The Second Quinquennium: 1977 – 1982

This period saw repeated departures and new appointments on the Pentecostal panel, although Du Plessis, the most widely renowned figure, remained. Charismatics and neo-Pentecostals were jettisoned from the ranks, and replaced with classical Pentecostals with views more similar to Du Plessis'. This was justified as offering classical Pentecostals from branches other than that of Du Plessis an opportunity to dialogue with the Catholic Church. It also had the effect of homogenizing the Pentecostals' reactions to the issues under discussion, beginning with an emphasis on experience as legitimating Spirit Baptism as a right of Christian initiation. The Catholic team welcomed the changes, as they afforded dialogue with a more extreme form of Pentecostalism, offering an 'ideal type' that was better suited to the Catholics' need to compare and ultimately differentiate a Catholic theology for the CCR.

The Pentecostals did want Charismatics to remain involved with the dialogue, but they wanted them to be Catholic Charismatics, and they wanted them on the Catholic team (McDonnell, 1995b). They felt the Catholic Charismatics would relate to their positions more personally, and the CCR was seen by them as evidence of Catholic openness to the Holy Spirit more convincing than the documents of Vatican II. The idea of Pentecostals choosing the Catholic team was flatly rejected; the Catholics were concerned primarily with long term acceptance of the legitimacy of a Charismatic theology within Catholic circles, and to involve persons of the CCR in the process of document production would risk the dialogue's credibility even in the eyes of progressive Catholic theologians. Beyond this preoccupation with internal credibility, the

Catholics were concerned about with whom a Catholic Charismatic would more closely relate. The prospect of including them seemed like an unnecessary risk to the Catholic team. As McDonnell (1995b) explained in the refusal to allow Catholic Charismatics to participate, “We are not entering into dialogue with ourselves.” To emphasize its legitimacy being rooted strictly within a Catholic rubric, the CCR would be allowed no unique representation in the dialogue (Roebeck, Jr., & Sandidge, 2002; see also Gomez, 2002).

McDonnell’s official position of ‘moderator’ came to involve moderation between the hierarchy and the Pentecostals as much as between the Catholic panel members. Du Plessis also was a moderator, but his leadership was contingent upon his ecumenical celebrity. As expectations grew of these individuals, they responded with idiosyncratic contributions to the dialogue process. Du Plessis introduced the concept of “Pentecostal observer” into the dialogue process. Up to six Pentecostal persons would be invited to observe the dialogue without speaking or contributing, with the sole purpose of learning from the experience. This was inescapably reminiscent of the opportunity of observing Vatican II offered to him by Cardinal Bea, who went on to demonstrate considerable influence in the council. Although he was internationally renowned, the fact that he retained open friendships with Catholics like McDonnell and remained so intimately involved in dialogue with Rome led many less ecumenically oriented Pentecostals to doubt where his true loyalties lie, and whether he had lost touch with his classical Pentecostal roots. Du Plessis’ proposal of the observer role seemed to confirm his critics’ fears that he remained star struck by his experience as a

Vatican II observer, implying that he was an unfitting representative of classical Pentecostalism. Although he differed from the Catholics with regard to their elevated status of Mary as a Virgin and mediator between Christians and God, he did assent that Mary's role in salvation history was 'unique'. The international Pentecostal press had a field day with this minimalist statement, in some cases suggesting to millions of Pentecostal consumers that Du Plessis had accepted the Virgin Mary on their behalf. Alarmist literature abounded, galvanizing Pentecostals against him and the dialogue (Roebeck, Jr., & Sandige, 2002).

The schism spilled into the ranks of the Pentecostal panel, and interpersonal clashes resulted in the banishment of Jerry Sandige (another widely known Pentecostal figure critical of DuPlessis' leadership) from the dialogue in Rome, under threat of losing his position as pastor in his church. He returned to the United States and retained involvement with the dialogue at least at the official level, but was no longer present during discussions in Rome. Because he could not interact face-to-face with the other participants, his influence in the dialogue waned. The neutralization of Sandige's influence further blackened the reputation of the dialogue among classical Pentecostals; He was arguably their panel's strongest theologian, and because his doctoral dissertation analyzed the first and part of the second quinquennia, he was keenly aware of the style and intentions of the Catholics. Sandige continued to openly criticize Du Plessis' mishandling of the dialogue on the grounds that he had allowed it to become too intellectualized, too critical, too historical, too philosophical, and essentially, too Catholic (Sandige, 1985; Roebeck, Jr., & Sandidge, 2002). The critical methods

embraced in Catholicism were being treated as if they superseded the Pentecostal oral testimony as legitimate proof of position (McDonnell, 1995b).

Killian McDonnell, on the other hand, was superbly qualified as Catholic moderator. His doctoral work focused on the theology of John Calvin (see McDonnell, 1967). He was familiar with Protestant theology. He was well-trained at bringing non-Catholic ideas into historical, philosophical and cultural contexts for apologetic debate. He therefore understood the strengths and weaknesses of Pentecostalism quite well, and he reciprocated Du Plessis' establishment of the "Pentecostal observer" with the proposal of "hard questions" to get the dialogue moving forward. While the Pentecostal team was in disarray and suffering brain-drain with the absence of Sandige, they were not ready for hard questions, and McDonnell had two millennia of philosophical tradition to bear upon this vulnerability. The Pentecostals sole defense of experience as proof of religious conversion couldn't even reconcile with their own oral testimonies that some who have experienced Baptism of the Holy Spirit have gone on to behave in very un-Christian ways. Sandige recalled how one white South African was beaten by another white South African police officer for defending the rights of blacks, despite both having experienced spirit baptism (Sandige, 1985; Roebeck, Jr. & Sandige, 2002).

By the end of the quinquennium the Catholics were able to marshal the argument of faith over experience by engaging each topic individually. First the Catholics agreed wholeheartedly with the Pentecostals about the importance of faith. Afterwards, Pentecostals varied on the extent to which experience trumps faith, whereas the Catholics were unified that legitimate experience leads to faith. Essentially the two sides

agreed on faith and disagreed on experience, resulting in a final report document that, when taken in its entirety, portrays the apparent superiority of faith that the Catholic side wanted all along. Yet it was believed by the Roman hierarchy that for many Catholic Charismatics (as with classical Pentecostals), experience weighed heavier than the reason of their faith (see SPCU 1982; McDonnell 1995b; Bruner, 1970; Rea, 1972; Gomez, 2002; Cordes, 1997). The challenge for the Catholic panel was to affirm the importance of experience only enough to provide a segue for Catholic Charismatics deeper into traditional Catholic faith content.

The Catholics also presented on the critical role of tradition as something that not only links modern Christians to Christ via Petrine and Apostolic succession, but also as a context from which scriptural revelation emanates. This elicited unified argument from the Pentecostals, who traditionally have embraced the idea that scripture means exactly what it seems to mean, but they offered little counterargument to justify their position. At the end of the second quinquennium the Pentecostals demonstrated difficulty in engaging the Catholics on almost all of the sixteen topics, with Mary as the most significant exception (see SPCU, 1982).

At that time, to proceed further may have pushed the Pentecostal team so far into ineptitude that it would have destroyed the dialogue's remaining credibility for both sides. After the round's conclusion, it was agreed that time was needed for reflection and contemplation of future directions in dialogue. The Pentecostals would need time to stabilize their camp before further progress could occur. However, in 1983 David Du Plessis was diagnosed with cancer and his health declined significantly (Spittler, 2002).

Although he remained an emeritus member of the dialogue, his involvement became increasingly tangential until his death in 1987. The time period that might have been used to rebuild the Pentecostal panel from the ground up now became centered on a crisis of leadership succession among followers whose internal bickering had already resulted in high-profile departures from the ranks. Instability among the Pentecostals was a factor prompting both sides to wait three years after the conclusion of the second quinquennium before the third would be authorized (Karkkainen, 2000; Hollenweger, 1986; Roebeck, Jr., & Sandige, 2002).

The Third Quinquennium: 1985 – 1989

The Catholics responded to the Pentecostals' leadership succession with Killian McDonnell's voluntary resignation as moderator of their side. The Catholics waited for the next Pentecostal moderator to be appointed before choosing his Catholic counterpart.

After considerable internal debate, the position once held by David Du Plessis was taken over by his younger brother, Justus Du Plessis. This decision further damaged the credibility of the dialogue throughout the Pentecostal world. Already seen by many as Babylonian by virtue of its Roman-ness, their panel appeared to be assuming dynastic qualities (Alexander, 2002). Despite the alarmist reactions to the appointment, the panel's selection of Justus proved to be a wise one. He was previously renowned as pastor of the Apostolic Faith Mission of South Africa, a politically powerful church with a congregation over one half million. He did not share his brother's reputation for eccentricity or narcissism. His status within Pentecostal circles was built

upon service to other Pentecostals, who saw him as influential in securing them greater cultural acceptance in South Africa. He also had years of ecumenical experience serving on the Pentecostal panel of the dialogue. Finally, the fact that he was David's younger brother brought a sense of continuity to the mission the panel had been assembled to accomplish.

Justus was able to secure the involvement of several leaders of Pentecostal organizations other than his own, increasing their credibility as a representative council. He addressed the problem of brain-drain resulting from the Sandige fiasco by involving several participants with the educational training needed to grapple with Catholic theology (Alexander, 2002).

The Catholic side had responded to the departure of David Du Plessis with their departure of Killian McDonnell, but the appointment of Justus left the Catholics wondering how they could best reciprocate. Eventually they asked McDonnell to be reinstated as moderator, opting to extend the continuity of their own panel. With the enhanced theological sophistication of the new Pentecostal panel, it would have been a risky time to proceed without the most important Catholic theologian of the dialogue (Roebeck, Jr., & Sandige, 2002).

Several of the resulting papers focused on issues of koinonia, a biblical notion of spiritual communion through intimate participation (Hertling, 1972). The topic was important to the dialogue because it has been used to describe the uniqueness of the relationship of the Apostles to Christ, (the authority that has been staked by Pentecostal laity, and after Vatican II by the Catholic Bishops assemblies), as well as the spiritual

communion of the early Christian Church (again, something that both panels intended to stake as their inheritance). The concept was key because it intersected both traditions at the source of their respective claims to Christ's charismatic authority; Pentecostals held intimacy with Christ as the spiritual standard, while Catholics believed their institution was the inheritor of apostolic authority. Theological discussion between these groups inevitably reflected on the relocated ecumenical purpose of the dialogue (see PCPCU et al., 1989). The Pentecostals were pleased to see direct study of the scripture affirming their spiritual interpretation of the term, particularly in the New Testament, which their tradition emphasizes (Karkkainen, 2001). As the quinquennium continued to unfold, however, the Catholic side presented papers linking the spiritual koinonia to the sacraments, communion of saints, and baptism. The link with sacramental baptism was shrewd, as Pentecostal emphasis on experience leads them to deny its validity on the grounds that an infant cannot experientially register the event. Having already contributed to documents that appeared to place faith over experience as the more secure source of spiritual knowledge, the Pentecostals again found themselves having been led down path ending in unavoidable agreement with Rome.

The Fourth Quinquennium (1990-1997):

Under the even-handed leadership style of Justus Du Plessis, the influence of Jerry Sandige was less hindered bureaucratically. The topical foci of the fourth round were influenced most profoundly by Sandige, who insisted upon discussion of evangelization, proselytism, and common witness (Alexander, 2002; Roebeck, Jr., & Sandige, 2002).

Sandige was one of the earliest Pentecostal panel members to be concerned about the hyper-Catholicity that had developed in the dialogue, and his desire to redirect the discussions to the real reasons for the dialogue was grounded in the Pentecostal emphasis on the here-and-now. The discussion was re-directed from problems of the ancient past, which the Pentecostals knew little about, to problems of the present (see PCPCU et al., 1999). In this regard, the pertinent facts driving the dialogue were that Pentecostalism was the world's fastest growing religious movement and Catholicism was the largest and perhaps the oldest Christian denomination, and that the CCR, representing their crossover, meant that dialogue could be prolonged no further.

From the Pentecostal perspective, the dialogue was occurring because their relationship had typically been devoid of spiritual communion through intimate participation eschewed in the biblical New Testament, and because of current clashes tensions over proselytism, which has typically been Pentecostal evangelization of free converts in traditionally Catholic regions. However, in the dialogue the term 'proselytism,' came to denote forced conversion, and was raised by the Pentecostal panel as a charge that the Catholics had to defend or condemn. (The Pentecostals, on the other hand, had never achieved the leverage in any single society required to abuse such power, and therefore saw their tradition as innocent in that regard). Although the tide of evangelization was clearly in the Pentecostals' favor, particularly in Latin America (Chestnut, 2003), the most rapidly spreading Pentecostal churches were virulently anti-Catholic and had condemned the dialogue from the beginning. This condemnation generalized even to individual Pentecostal panelists who became increasingly regarded

by others in their tradition as selling out their spirituality in their interactions with Rome. From the view of those Pentecostals, the justification for dialogue with Catholics consisted in the common spiritual values affirmed to before the world at Vatican II.

The Pentecostals in dialogue knew they were eroding their personal reputations in the effort to build bridges with the Catholic Church, and were facing a crisis of legitimacy within their own tradition. Their renewed emphasis upon the spiritual mandate for common witness implicit in *koinonia* was a key to securing more credibility in the eyes of Pentecostals, especially those who had opposed the dialogue from the beginning (Karkkainen, 2001). A second development enhancing credibility was the Catholic panel's affirmation that religious freedom has been denied to Pentecostals in Catholic regions (see PCPCU et al, 1999). These achievements made it appear to some Pentecostals as if they had established superior theological leverage in the creation of the documents from this round.

The Fifth Quinquennium: 1998 - 2003

The final round was devoted to discussion of Christian initiation. Much like the topics of the fourth round, the Pentecostal panel presumed that initiation would draw attention to the reality that theirs was the most rapidly spreading religious movement in the world. If the Pentecostals could force them, documents reflecting Catholic defensive posturing to the imminent pentecostalization of Christianity would recast the first three final reports, which were Catholic-dominated, in terms of the last two, which could be in the Pentecostals' favor. A hypothetical history proceeding from the sophistry of

Catholicism to the irrefutable truth of Pentecostal experience mirrored their aspirations for the whole of Christianity.

However, Killian McDonnell seized the final round as an opportunity to showcase his scholarly work, co-authored by George Montague, on Baptism of the Holy Spirit as it functioned as a normative rite of initiation in the first eight centuries of the Christian era (see McDonnell & Montague, 1991). While the topic was nominally affirmative of Pentecostal accounts of peak religious experiences, exegesis of its spiritual legitimacy placed it in sociocultural and historical contexts that are alien to the Pentecostal hermeneutics of spiritual experience in the present day (see also McDonnell, 1972). McDonnell and Montague (1991) further linked baptism of the Holy Spirit to sacramental baptism of the Roman Catholic religion. Classical Pentecostals usually believe that prospect of salvation through sacraments monopolized by Rome is heretical. Despite the fact that the Pentecostals of the final round were more highly educated than those of the second quinquennium, this book pushed spirit baptism farther into Catholic tradition than their theological expertise was able to reach. The meticulous documentation of experiences Pentecostals typically believe they revived from apostolic times actually stretched hundreds of years into Catholic history, portraying the phenomenon at the core of Pentecostalism as a facet of authentic Catholicism. In terms of legitimating the religiosity of the CCR, the key implication was that one can experience spirit baptism in the present day and be authentically Catholic. The Pentecostal panelists were unequipped to meet this encroachment upon the self-evident legitimacy of their

immediate experience, and the round ended without substantial response from the Pentecostal side. The final report has not as yet been published.

This prompts a question of why the Pentecostal panel members didn't drop out of the dialogue sooner. First, it must be remembered that there was indeed problematic attrition on the Pentecostal panel related to disagreement over the dialogue's progress. An example was David Du Plessis' neutralization of Jerry Sandige for his critical views. However, panel members invested considerable time and effort into completion of a dialogue that had never previously been attempted. Furthermore, persons within and between panels formed personal relationships (such as those between Killian McDonnell, David Du Plessis, his son Justus Du Plessis, and Jerry Sandige), that provided the dialogue impetus to move forward even when theological differences alone would have made continuation seem futile.

Summing up the Dialogue:

Killian McDonnell (1995b) summed up the dialogue around five issues: the hermeneutical moment, infant and believers' baptism, baptism in the Holy Spirit, the church as koinonia, and Mary. The disagreements over Mary, which ranged from historical to doctrinal in nature, were highly emotional. Although both sides acknowledged her unique role in salvation history and that her elevated status is derived from her relationship to Christ, there was little evidence that more agreement could be established in the future. As with most Protestants, the Virgin Mary would remain to Pentecostals a divisive symbol associated with Roman Catholic identity. Baptism was even more intensely debated. The Catholic practice of infant baptism was

disputed by Pentecostals on the basis of their emphasis upon experience as validation for conversion. Although they de-emphasized the value of experience, the Catholic side acknowledged a degree of legitimacy to baptism as practiced by Pentecostals.

Both sides acknowledged they shared a certain, albeit imperfect *koinonia*, and what that meant was carefully scrutinized. Discussion of *koinonia* highlighted the strengths of Catholicism and inconsistencies with classical Pentecostalism. The Catholic position emphasized continuity between structural unity and claim of representation as the universal church. The Pentecostal position seemed characterized by dissonance between their structural discontinuity from other Christians and their desire for continuity with the collective, sacred authority of the apostles by virtue of their intimate participation in the life of Christ (*koinonia*) (see PCPCU et al., 1989).

This manner of sanctification, Baptism of the Holy Spirit, was recognized as indicating in-group identity in both traditions, but the basis of its legitimacy was disputed. The Pentecostals emphasized experience as the criterion of validation, but when faced with “hard questions” they conceded that there were dangers to subjectivism. The Catholic side used historical-critical methods to analyze thirteen post-biblical texts in a scholarly argument for contextualization of spirit baptism in the ancient church. They embedded it deep within a sacred tradition that Pentecostals minimized and within an interconnected religious community from which the Pentecostals had insisted upon remaining structurally discontinuous. The most important accomplishment here was the scholarly demonstration that the direct experience of Spirit Baptism has foundation in the Catholic faith. For the eventual purpose of legitimizing the CCR, the key implication

is that Spirit Baptism *can be* authentically Catholic (McDonnell 1995b; 1976; 1975; 1973; 1972; McDonnell & Montague, 1991).

The hermeneutical tradition of Pentecostalism was expressed through their argument in favor of pneumatic epistemology (that is, human understanding through the agency of the Holy Spirit, amounting to what from a social scientific view might be a “just-so” epistemology). The Catholic position affirmed the Holy Spirit was needed to interpret scripture but argued that the tradition of the church was the living repository of the Spirit’s insight into the true meaning of the sacred texts. The Catholic position was that highly trained exegetes of the magisterium were needed to properly interpret scripture (McDonnell, 1995b).

The appearance of Catholicism getting the better end of the dialogue was not lost upon the Pentecostal world. Even some Pentecostal participants have suggested the affair was tilted against them from the beginning. Peter Hocken has claimed that the Catholic format of dialogue helped to generate documents that cast Pentecostalism in Catholic terms. Jerry Sandige expressed frustration with highly critical and legalistic methods that he believed favored the Catholic influence upon the final documents. He charged that traditionally Pentecostal means of validation including oral testimony, narrative theology, song, and demonstration of charismatic gifts were de-emphasized in favor of intellectual and discursive approaches mastered by the Catholic exegetes. During the fourth phase, McDonnell admitted that more could have been done to accommodate for Pentecostal approaches, but argued that the charge of “tilting” isn’t true (McDonnell, 1995a). In his rebuttal he cites as evidence the narrative approach to

salvific history in the Vatican II document *Dei Verbum*, a reaction that one might argue demonstrates the legalistic approach at the heart of Pentecostal objections. Years after publishing this response, McDonnell would advance his critical-historical study on Spirit Baptism in the early church as a topic of discussion in the final quinquennium, arguably demonstrating intention of maintaining Catholic control over the dialogue, the resulting documents, and by extension, the basis for the CCR's legitimacy as a Catholic movement.

Less than one half century after Vatican II began, few remember which Pope ordered its commencement, and fewer the personalities involved with the Roman Catholic – Pentecostal dialogue. While the dialogue involved high profile persons within two traditionally antagonistic traditions, memories of their persons have already begun to fade and what will be remembered (at least within Catholicism, where the CCR's legitimacy now depends) will be the documents they co-constructed. These documents show that the Catholic panelists were able to bring their Pentecostal counterparts to a far greater extent of theological agreement than most other Pentecostal laity believed acceptable.

Although the documents are seen in both traditions as proof of impressive ecumenical efforts, these traditions do not treat documents with equal reverence. They are not legally binding to anyone. However, in terms of applying Weber's theory of charisma to the development of the CCR, the fact that the final reports were co-published by the Vatican's Council for Christian Unity is crucial because it makes them credible source documents for the CCR's legitimacy within Catholic tradition.

Perhaps the Pentecostal emphasis upon immediate experience contributed to their underestimating the importance of documents in long term theological development. As the Pentecostal panelist and scholar Walter Hollenwegger (1986) noted, Pentecostalism represents a pre-literary approach to divinity, as opposed to the highly literary style of the Roman Catholic tradition. Throughout the dialogue the Catholics were able to draw upon a highly elaborate tradition that evolved out of pre-literary thinking similar to that of the Pentecostals, whereas the Pentecostals had could hardly mount a position supported by more than personal experience. The Catholics appeared to be several steps ahead of the Pentecostal team's line of thinking, an understandable accomplishment given that the dialogue represented confrontation between pre-literary and literary traditions. In actuality, throughout the dialogue the Catholics simply stood their theological ground as predetermined in Vatican II. In response to Pentecostal emphases upon legitimacy of experience, they utilized well-elaborated segues from pre-literary to literary theological positions, leading up to the philosophies that were upheld by the dominant Catholic power bloc in Vatican II.

Throughout the dialogue this seemed lost upon the Pentecostal panel. It was as if they believed they might have convinced the Catholics of new beliefs. When the profoundly deterministic influence of Vatican II upon the dialogue is considered, it appears that any impression of extemporaneous theological exchange was unfounded. In fact, practically all of the dialogue's "developments" were first established in Vatican II documents: *Unitatis Redintegratio* ordered the Roman Catholic Church into dialogue and acknowledged holiness in other Christian traditions. *Lumen Gentium* stated that

Christian truth could be found outside the structure of the Catholic Church. It also insists that structure is *charismatic* in nature. It stated that apostolic authority (which is ritually enacted by classical Pentecostal laity, as well as Catholic laity in the CCR) is independent from papal authority. The conflict over revelation occurred because the Catholic side would not deviate from the Vatican II position of *Dei Verbum*, that the Roman Catholic Church is a living repository for thousands of years of divine knowledge, and that trained exegetes of the magisterium were needed to interpret the true word of God within the ancient scriptures. Although the Catholic admission that Pentecostals had been persecuted in Catholic regions appeared to be a breakthrough, nothing was stated beyond the vague reference to persecution of non-Catholics in *Dignitatus Humanae*. While this may have de-credited the dialogue's documents in the eyes of classical Pentecostals worldwide, those documents were able to legitimize the CCR within Catholicism precisely because they were scarcely more than re-iterations of Vatican II theology with augmented ecumenical credibility from co-authorship of notable Pentecostal personalities. Thus began a process prognosticated by Weber's theory of charisma (described in the final chapter), whereby the Catholic hierarchy would proceed to usurp charismatic power from individuals (Pentecostal notables and Catholic laity) into legalistic documents legitimizing the institution of the Roman Catholic Church.

Hierarchical Institutionalization of the CCR

Beginning in the early years of the dialogue, the CCR's evolution would reflect the final reports with theological developments distinctive from other denominational expressions of Pentecostalism. Because of its centrality in worship praxis, the most

significant theological development would be the nature of spiritual gifts, which all Pentecostals and CCR adherents alike believe to be manifestations of charismatic power that will serve as the foci of the following chapters presenting ethnographic and person-centered interview data. While classical Pentecostals have traditionally limited their spiritual gifts to those from a list in the biblical Pauline texts (including glossolalia, healing, wisdom, and discernment), the data of the following chapters will show that Catholic Charismatics use the concept more flexibly; Usage may pertain to mystical aspects of pre-Christian biblical figures or post-Biblical saints, or to personality aspects of modern lay persons that are used to serve the religious collective. In terms of Weber's theory of charisma, the latter usage is of primary importance here, as the prospect of self as locus of charismatic sanctification presents an implicit threat to the hierarchical attempts to institutionalize that same perceived power to protect its legitimacy before CCR adherents and approximately one billion other Catholic laity.

By the early 1970's it became clear that Baptism of the Holy Spirit had to be reconciled with the Roman sacramental framework. Unlike other Pentecostals who understand the experience as an external divine agent *descending upon* someone, the Catholic Charismatic is more likely to understand it as an *outpouring* of the Holy Spirit, which was placed within the person at the time of sacramental infant baptism. This is essentially an experiential expression of an implication of McDonnell's and Montague's (1991) *Christian Initiation: Baptism in the Holy Spirit*, that Pentecost represents a spiritual renewal rather than a new spirituality (Thigpen, 2002).

The subjugation of Pentecostal experience to Catholic theology has been achieved through Catholic hierarchical ability to manipulate the movement's leadership, which became possible through determination to institutionalize the CCR beginning in 1969, two years after the Duquesne weekend and over one year prior to the dialogue's beginnings. In that year the United States Conference of Catholic Bishops produced a document stating that the movement was in need of pastoral guidance. By 1974 a liaison committee had been created to interface with emerging leadership figures among the laity, particularly Ralph Martin and Stephen Clark, whose notoriety stretched back to their participation in the Duquesne Weekend. Bishop Joseph McKinney of Grand Rapids (a charismatic stronghold) was appointed "Episcopal advisor" to the newly formed service committee of lay leaders. One year later Bishops across the nation began appointing diocesan liaisons who were mostly priests who discouraged prayer groups in private settings and offered the parish as an alternative. This resulted in a clericalization of the movement, whereby priests subsumed many of the top leadership positions previously filled by the laity. The U.S. bishops established an "International Communications Office" (ICO) staffed by famous lay leaders including Stephen Clark and Ralph Martin (see ICCRS, 2008a).

Papal leadership established influence over the lower levels of institutionalized order through the involvement of Cardinal Suenens as early as 1973. Later in that year curial organizers held its first CCR leadership meeting... not in Notre Dame, where American laity had been filling the football field annually since 1968, but in Grottaferrata, Italy, just outside the diocese of Rome. It was at this location that Pope Paul VI was

able to meet a group of the most important American lay leaders. Photographs of the meeting show everyday folks with beaming eyes and bright smiles, obviously star struck by the pontiff. In 1975 Paul VI appointed Suenens in charge of pastoral leadership of the international movement. Suenens in turn appropriated the ICO office and its band of lay leadership (if they were willing to accept the “invitation”) from Ann Arbor, MI to Brussels, Belgium, where he could more easily oversee its day-to-day operations. In 1978 Ralph Martin was replaced as director. By 1981 the office was moved yet again, from Brussels to Rome. In that year it was renamed the International Catholic Charismatic Renewal Office (ICCRO), and again in 1993 as the ICCRS, with the “S” to emphasize its role as a service- (i.e., organization-) related structure. Suenens’ tight control over the movement through the ICCRS helped ensure continued theological fidelity to the Catholic magisterium, and in turn his close relationship with John Paul II, another Vatican II progressive, helped assure papal approval of the movement (ICCRS, 2008a). Although Benedict XVI has not formally addressed the movement, he was a theological consultant on some of the aforementioned church documents establishing the CCR’s Catholic legitimacy, and has made supportive statements in his previous position as Prefect for Congregation for the Doctrine of the Faith (ICCRS, 2008b).

Despite the Vatican hierarchy’s established control over charismatic worship in the parish and over the lay leadership of the ICCRS, the charisma of the CCR may not have been entirely institutionalized. In its efforts of routinization the Catholic hierarchy appears to have successfully de-emphasized the theological significance of collective religious experience (see Muhlen, 1975), but this prompts a social scientific question of

whether that has impacted the perceived importance of private experience for the individual follower beyond the institutionalized worship setting. In other words, the role of private experience beyond the prayer group in the personal legitimating of perceived charismatic power remains unclear. An answer to this question will be mounted based upon the following two chapters on spiritual gifts, which will outline a phenomenological inventory to explore meaning as it can be found in one CCR prayer group, the worship setting impacted most directly by processes Weber's theory identifies as bringing about institutionalization of sacred power, and which were described in this chapter. This effort will be structured in terms of comparison between ethnographic data from prayer-group settings (chapter 2) and detailed interviews conducted in non-worship settings (chapter 3). The data will show that meanings span over routines and rituals of charismatic worship, and extend into the realm of experience in ways unendorsed by the hierarchy. The communal experience of worship that has been approved by the Vatican will be explored, as will other more individualistic aspects of religiosity that remain hidden in the experiential realm from hierarchical scrutiny by norms of modesty and respect for privacy, and overt conformity to the rituals of the faith. In the fourth and final chapter, implications of these data will be used for a reflexive critique of Weber's theory of charisma as it pertains to divine authority in this religious movement.

Chapter 2: An Ethnographic Study of Charisma in the CCR.

Overview of the Ethnographic Approach.

The Catholic Charismatic prayer group upon which this chapter is based was located by the investigator largely by accident in 2000 after contacting the Archdiocese of Chicago to learn about exorcism as a modern alternative healing method and after several weeks of suspected bureaucratic runaround was informed the exorcist was not interested in initiating such a study. However, one person who I encountered during this process was an administrative leader of a charismatic prayer group, and the bad news that an exorcist was inaccessible was softened by an invitation to meet with this group. At the time I had no idea what Charismatic Catholicism was, and from curiosity accepted the offer. Subsequently I would visit numerous prayer groups in the Chicago metropolitan area and three in Rome, but would return to study that very first group for several reasons. Having been founded in 1976, it was the oldest group I had encountered. It was vibrant and its members attended consistently. They have known each other for years, in some cases for decades. Ethnically it was representative of what the CCR looks like in Chicago, with people of Irish, German, Italian, Eastern-European, Mexican, Puerto Rican, and Filipino descent. Like charismatics around the world, they were highly committed to mainstream religious practice before becoming involved in the movement (Westley, 1978). Like most charismatics in the Chicago metropolitan area, attendees tend to be middle class, and straddle the center of the political spectrum, but are decisively conservative on abortion, female priests, and divorce, in full compliance with Vatican positions on these issues. Their primary

deviation from Vatican politics is an overall support for *the war* following the attacks of 9-11 (Iraq and Afghanistan are seen as hotspots of a single war). Even those who believe the war is riddled with strategic error and economically-driven deceit voice outrage over the perceived stubbornness of the American political left to acknowledge that radical Islam presents a global threat to the Judeo-Christian West, to which almost all informants see this war as a tragic but necessary response. Like almost all groups, it has come to be nominated after its affiliated parish. Henceforth it will be referred to by the pseudonym 'St. Sebastian' group.

Like many groups, this one was sometimes attended by priests who would worship alongside the laity in addition to providing expert scriptural interpretation (exegesis) or occupying a central role in healing rituals to be described later in the chapter. Toward the end of my data collection in 2007, their role came to be seen by informants as evolving into oversight to assure the group does not deviate in practice or belief from that which is deemed orthodox by hierarchical authorities. While some informants welcomed this as necessary "structure," others resented it as an unnecessary intrusion into their affairs, while still others were careful to keep their opinions on the matter private.

Even aside from the prominence assumed by clergy, this group has become internally stratified with a core group of about 15 that was responsible for leadership and decision-making (ten of whom were recruited for person-centered interviews about charisma that will be presented in chapter 3). It was especially ideal to study the gamut of charismatic phenomena known as spiritual gifts, as this group was one of the few that

still practiced the gift prophecy in addition to that of healing (both of which shall be described in further detail by the end of this chapter). This group provided an ideal context to learn about how personalities, relationships, cultures, and traditions coalesce to constitute a religious and social microcosm. I have attended most of its weekly charismatic prayer meetings, numerous healing masses, and regional conferences between 2000 and 2006. Between 2003 and 2007 I attended meetings of the core group to study how charismatic gifts were invoked in its decision making processes.

Upon arriving at my first prayer meeting in November 2000, several from this core group approached me and introduced themselves. They had been told by the woman who invited me that I would be coming. They knew my name, my status as a doctoral student at the University of Chicago, and my interest in learning about the CCR. There were a few who heard I would be coming, but not much about who I actually was. Others seemed very surprised to see a new face, and I was queried about how I had learned about the group. Upon mentioning the name of the woman who invited me, tensions were eased and smiles appeared. Although it took time getting to know them better as individuals, I was welcomed from my first contact with the group.

This group also was the most enthusiastic to share their religious beliefs. Many adherents have gone out of their way to explain what they felt I might not understand, often offering information without my asking. Everyone I approached with a question attempted to answer it or directed me to someone they believed could. My desire to learn has always been reciprocated by their eagerness to tell about their faith and

themselves. As a result, data collection in this group has been less restrictive than any other I have encountered.

The ethnographic data presented in this chapter are mainly from field notes composed after the meetings, although on occasion notes would be taken in plain sight of informants. The content of these notes began with generalities, such as the procedural format of the prayer meetings (to be discussed shortly), and as fieldwork continued came to focus upon conversations with informants and other idiosyncratic occurrences. This paper will focus primarily upon information I have collected about “spiritual gifts,” also called “charismatic gifts,” “charisms,” or “charismata” interchangeably. These phenomena link experience with perceived divine authority as conceived in Weber’s (2003; 1968a; 1968b) theory of charisma.

Many of the data are derived from informal, face-to-face conversations with laypersons, religious (monks and nuns), and the ordained. Most of these conversations lasted for less than twenty minutes and were in the general vicinity of other charismatic adherents. Others took place over the phone, which some informants found more convenient and private. Additionally, ten in-depth interviews were audio recorded with persons identified as core members based on the longevity and extent of their involvement with the prayer group. An additional interview was recorded with a woman who no longer is involved with the CCR, and has never been involved with the prayer group described in this chapter. She contacted me through word of mouth to tell about the darker side of the movement, including a forced exorcism she experienced at the hands of a charismatic priest. Both the woman and the priest, who was among those

interviewed for this chapter, will be discussed in more detail at a later point when this chapter leads to a discussion on the forms of charismatic healing.

These ethnographic data are based upon direct observations of charismatic gifts and interactions with 'gifted' persons in the charismatic prayer meeting, where their praxis is overt. These meetings are held weekly, and are attended in addition to the Sunday Mass that is obligatory for all Catholics. Although charismatics understand Mass to be more important, the importance of the prayer meeting is derived from the same fundamental purpose: to worship God. It offers the best opportunity to display the charismatic gifts in a group setting where they are acceptable, as they would be suppressed during Sunday Mass.

Early in the CCR's history, prayer meetings usually took place in the homes of participants. As the movement became institutionalized, meetings were moved to locations under the direct control of Church authorities (Csordas, 1997). Like most prayer groups, the one presented here meets weekly. Their location is in a Catholic school classroom that is available "through the generosity of parish administrators," and because the meetings occur in the late afternoon when the school is not in use. Each meeting is approximately two hours, plus up to a half-hour of socialization before and after the meeting's formal procedures. Before the meeting begins, those who have volunteered to be on a service team arrive early to arrange the furniture to accommodate the attendees. Afterwards, the furniture is rearranged by all attendees for those who use it during the day. This space is a critical resource for the continuation of the group. Seemingly oblivious to the intention of institutionalization and control implicit

on hierarchical insistence upon meeting at a parish-based location, these charismatics stress how it is lent to them “on good faith.” They are careful to preserve this presumed gesture of good will by eliminating any possibility that the day employees (especially teachers) might complain of the state of the room. Cleaning after each meeting is therefore taken very seriously, and those who volunteer to do more than their fair share of this work are accorded status for their commitment.

Worship Praxis of the CCR:

Catholic Mass.

For Charismatic Catholics, there are three main types of formalized ritual: the standard Catholic mass, the healing mass, and the prayer group. Charismatic Catholics are highly committed to attending Sunday mass and do so with absolutely no overt display of charismatic gifts, and in the same fashion as non-charismatic Catholics. Their notion of charism is ubiquitous in the movement, being invoked to understand divinity, relationships between participants, the ability to pray, the opportunity to be prayed for, the promise of salvation, and the spiritual dynamics of standard Catholic mass. Even Jesus is spoken of as a gift; it is emphasized that the messianic title *Christ* shares the same etymological root as does *charism*, and that from a theological perspective they remain inseparable. Under this rubric they root their perceived legitimacy in the teachings of Vatican II, which invoke the idea of charism as a fundamental component of Christianity and the nature of the Catholic Church’s legitimacy as an institutional representation of the resurrected body of Christ. Given the centrality of charisma in CCR religiosity, those participants’ self-restriction of overt charisms in Sunday Mass is a

conciliatory gesture in light of the accurately-understood uneasiness of certain institutional authorities with the movement as a whole.

When the mass is performed in a context designated for charismatic worship, it is accompanied with glossolalia at the moment of transubstantiation, when the communion host is believed transformed into the body and blood of Christ. The fact that a charismatic gift would be tolerated at the ritualistic climax of mass is a profound symbol of the movement's acceptance by hierarchical authority.

The Prayer Group Meeting.

The charismatic prayer group is the setting designated for demonstrations of charisma. These self-organized groups typically range in number between 15 and 100 persons. The St. Sebastian group had a total membership of about 100 with an average weekly attendance of about 40. The persons in a group tend to be affiliated with the same church, such that a parish will have at the maximum one charismatic prayer group. These groups converge once per week in addition to the Sunday worship that is obligatory for all Catholics. The charismatic prayer meeting is not obligatory by any doctrinal standard, yet those who attend struggle to do so regularly. Most attendees I have encountered in the Chicago area have been participating for at least five years.

Attendees gather for up to 30 minutes to socialize before the meeting begins. While everyone can be summarily greeted, the limited time forces a choice about with whom to speak, facilitating social bonds of various degrees of intimacy. Although a prayer meeting appears spontaneous, it proceeds according to a protocol based upon a five-level liturgical conception of prayer consisting of adoration, petition, intercession,

thanksgiving, and praise. Adoration refers to self-awareness as a 'creature' before God, of being at the mercy of the salvific power that is believed to belong exclusively to the Almighty. In the prayer meeting, this is facilitated through the group singing approximately five songs of adoration led by one or two attendees who play acoustic guitar. These songs are short and simple folk melodies with lyrics about staple Christian themes, such as gratitude for God's love or the triumph of Christ's resurrection. The timbre is invariably optimistic, with a folksy, early 1960's feel. It is music that many elderly people find uplifting, but would repel potential converts younger in age. The songs are selected from a book of over 200, a copy of which is provided to all so that everyone may sing along. Most in this group have been involved with the CCR for years, and have committed these songs to memory.

Each song is followed by a short display of glossolalia, the most common and recognizable of the charismata. These segments last for about one minute, ending spontaneously as the group softens their praying and sputters into silence. The significance of this charism as it occurs in different contexts will be discussed throughout this chapter.

One person from the group will then give a 30 – 45 minute talk that will take one of two forms. A *teaching* is delivered in the voice of an informant, and is intended to affirm the theological convictions of the Catholic Church and the Charismatic Renewal. A *testimony* is a story about the role of God in one's own life told in the voice of a respondent (see Levy & Hollan, 1998). These narratives are about 30 minutes in length and require the speaker to share information about one's life history. Every meeting

features a talk from a different member of the group. Highly esteemed guests, such as priests, are occasionally invited to speak, but like the groups studied by McGuire (1977a; 1977b), the talks are delivered mostly by the most influential lay members of the group. This is primarily due to *eligibility* (whereby the most highly committed members are deemed qualified by the core group that ratifies the talk schedule), and *willingness* (whereby eligible members who wish to volunteer will have a chance to speak before the group). To speak before the group is perhaps the most prestigious position of the meeting. The sort of prestige varies according to the speech activity; speaking in the informant's voice is associated with a teaching role, whereas the respondent's voice situates one's life story as a model for spiritual development.

My observations are consistent with the findings of McGuire (1977a; 1977b) that those who are allowed to speak tend to be the most influential group members. She disagrees with Harrison's (1974a; 1974b) finding that glossolalia offers a symbol of abandonment, at least in the case of the CCR, and with Hine (1969; 1970), who considers glossolalia the major bridge-burning event (whereby non-members are alienated in a process that ultimately serves to facilitate conversion). She mobilizes her positions in an argument that testimony is a far more potent commitment mechanism through a comparison of the practices as symbols of involvement and abandonment; while both show involvement, the de-emphasis of glossolalia in the CCR has taken away its potency as a symbol of abandonment. Based upon my observations of St. Sebastian's and other groups I agree, and would add that testimony also offers the

speaker and listeners more sophisticated and personalized means of involvement than does glossolalia.

Testimony involves an autobiographical account reinterpreted into a charismatic conversion framework of ongoing revelation and relationship with God. Not only does this transform self through enhanced articulation of the role of the divine other, it also displays competence in re-interpreting self within the idealized relational approach to divinity before the group. As Westley (1978) has described, willingness to share oneself and knowing how to do according to charismatic norms is needed for prayer group cohesion. Core group members in my study are forthright about group influence being delegated to those who bring the group together through a process they call “edification.”

After the talk, a segment is devoted to thanking God for his blessings. People spontaneously testify before the group about something good they attribute to God. Charismatics recognize the greatness of God in many different things. The first things thanked for tend to be recoveries from serious illnesses or averted disasters. As this segment goes on, the occurrences that are appreciated before the group often become more lighthearted. By the end of this segment, thanks are offered for the simpler things in life that are often taken for granted, like a warm house in the cold winter or the blessing of a loving family. Corresponding with this shift from the life-preserving to the taken-for-granted mercies of God are spontaneous reactions from other charismatics that range from “Thank Jesus” for serious matters to laughing in approval over the

simple pleasures in life. Unfortunate events are never publicly attributed to God in this way.

The next part of the meeting is devoted to petitions to God. Spontaneously, people take turns voicing petitions to God for his intercession in their lives or the lives of others. At the conclusion of each request, the person who offered it says, 'For this I pray to the Lord,' to which the group replies in unison, 'Lord, hear our prayer.' Like in the thanksgiving segment, petitions begin with dire requests (e.g., favorable results from an upcoming biopsy) and eventually become less pressing, though not as mundane as some things for which charismatics may thank God. In practice if not in principle, there is a narrower margin of seriousness that is appropriate for a petition to God.

Charismatics petition God for daily bread, not daily cake; assistance in the struggle to pay medical bills is an appropriate request, but assistance in acquiring an extravagant wardrobe is not.

Following petitions is a period of silence that lasts no longer than ten minutes. The significance of silence remains contested between hierarchical authorities and many participating laity. In a book edited by Killian McDonnell, with the clear intent of clarifying the authority of the hierarchical magisterium, Herbert Muhlen (1975) describes this silence as a period for the listeners to "soak in" the teaching that has just been presented. While this may reflect a hierarchical preference for what its purpose ought to be, the laity describe a more active role: in the midst of the silence, they listen for inner thoughts and voices in an effort to discern their origin as natural or supernatural. If it is believed to be from the Holy Spirit and intended for the group, the lay person is said to

be morally obligated to speak it aloud, breaking the silence with a prophetic statement. The ability to distinguish between thoughts and voices of psychological and supernatural origins occurs through a charism called discernment, which will be addressed later in the chapter. In a typical Catholic Charismatic prayer group, the period of silence is the only acceptable moment for prophetic utterance to occur without being disruptive. Muhlen's decision not to mention the possibility of prophetic statement in his discussion of silence in the Charismatic prayer meeting protocol is indicative of hierarchical uneasiness with laity claiming to exercise this charismatic gift. He alludes to it only in a warning about spontaneous utterance that is not affirmed by the teachings of the church. The threat posed by prophecy to the authority of the magisterium will be discussed further at a later section in this chapter.

The next period is devoted to overt reflection of the evening's spiritual themes. This involves locating and reciting biblical passages that take on a deeper meaning in light of things that have been discussed in the meeting. After one passage is read, others locate passages that are similar in content or are tangentially related, in the latter case forming a chain of religiously inspired logic that eventually will come full circle back to the idea that served as the original point of departure. Through this process, the topic of is linked to other religious ideas, and the idiosyncratic aspects of a testimony are linked to abstract religious principles more easily applicable to the lives of other audience members.

The prayer meeting is formally concluded by all of the attendees forming a circle by holding hands and reciting the Lord's Prayer:

Our Father, who art in heaven, hallowed be thy name.
Thy kingdom come, thy will be done, on earth as it is in heaven.
Give us this day our daily bread, and forgive us our trespasses as we
forgive those who trespass against us.
And lead us not into temptation, but deliver us from evil. Amen.

At this point, a few will leave while many stay up to an hour longer to enjoy refreshments and socialization. This is the longest span of time members have the opportunity to share their lives with each other on an intimate level through face to face communication. Mutual concern and intimacy is expressed through asking about issues too personal to be mentioned during the petitioning segment. Because it affords an ethnographer the opportunity to speak with an informant while others are busy in their own conversations, some of the most interesting data have been collected during this period. As people talk, those who need God's intercession for a significant reason can meet privately with a group of charismatics who will petition divine will with a form of group prayer believed by some to be particularly efficacious. A more detailed description of these secretive prayer sessions will be provided in a later section of the chapter devoted to healing practices.

This prayer group, like almost all others, is organized by the laity for the laity. When fieldwork began, there was no priestly oversight. The group cherished opportunities when priests were willing to worship with them, and were especially pleased when performed mass for them. However, if a priest were present, he would have been more likely to be standing with the others, dressed like the others, worshipping alongside them as a proverbial equal before God. Such intermingling between clerics and laity would be unheard of in a traditional Catholic mass.

The Healing Mass.

Healing masses are comparatively larger-scale events, but are more infrequent than prayer meetings. They may be held in lieu of a weekly prayer meeting, as two charismatic events in one week is excessive for many noncharismatic family members, and one charismatic event per week is usually sufficient for any emotionally balanced person to get their “spiritual fix.” They are held in parish chapels because they commonly will draw hundreds of followers, including many who seek spiritual healing but are not ordinarily involved in the CCR.

A healing mass is not precisely the same thing as a typical Catholic Sunday mass. There are many of the same ritual elements, such as the recitation of prayers, including the “Our Father” and the “Hail Mary”. There is “discussion” (i.e., what is known in academic circles as “lecture”) about a texts of the New Testament (the collection of stories pertaining to the supposed actions and words of Jesus Christ, and his immediate followers). As previously mentioned, the location often is the same, such as the chapel used for Sunday services. Thus, the layout of the place is identical, insofar as the priest is situated as (or near) the focus of attention, with all other persons facing him, the altar, and a large, suspended crucifix. There are also other rituals familiar to Catholics, such as when the priest sprinkles holy water onto the proverbial crowd (only a few people near the front actually get wet).

Conspicuously missing is the sacrament of Communion, where Catholics behold the transubstantiation of the host, a relatively taste-less wafer, and then ingest it. How Catholics interpret this ritual varies... some believe in transubstantiation, while others do

not. More careful analysis will reveal that those who believe in transubstantiation do not always agree on what that means; some say it means the literal transformation of the “bread” (wafer) and wine into the actual body and blood of Jesus Christ., while others interpret it to mean a definite bestowing of holiness upon an otherwise mundane set of objects. Thus, one of many possible scenarios an inquisitive ethnographer could encounter is two Catholics disagreeing on the issue of transubstantiation, and also disagreeing on what that means, while at the same time agreeing that the Communion host is the spiritual, but not physical, body and blood of Christ. But regardless of these intricacies, there is one thing that almost any Catholic would agree upon: the sacrament of Communion is the climax of most Catholic masses. Furthermore, it is a ritual that involves ingestion, a very intimate level of involvement for the individual worshipper, and the subsequent unification with divinity, also very personal. The absence of this important sacrament in anything resembling a Sunday mass is striking to the eyes of a Catholic.

However, there are aspects of the healing mass that never appear in Catholic Sunday mass. One of these aspects, of course, is healing. This facet of the ceremony toward the end, but that is somewhat deceptive, as it is such a lengthy process that it takes up over half of the time of the entire gathering. The healing takes place *through* a particular priest who is said to have a gift of healing. It does not happen by the power of the priest per se, but rather through a manifestation of God’s power which, for whatever mysterious reason, this particular priest has been trusted to share with others. This is

consistent with charismatic views of the concept of the spiritual gift. And the priest explains this to the people before the healing begins.

In addition to distancing himself from the power, and therefore the efficacy of these healing efforts (or the lack thereof), attributing them instead to the mysterious will of God, the priest also explains that when healing does occur, it often is *not* instantaneous. He will say something along the lines of, “You may begin to feel differently on the spot, or on the way home, or in a week or a month from now. There’s no one way these things work.”

While he says these words, those who have come to be healed emerge from the crowd. They come staggering, hobbling with the assistance of loved ones, and rolling on wheelchairs at an agonizingly slow pace. They form a circle with a 40-50ft diameter, and this circle is around the priest. He then proceeds in a counterclockwise direction about the circle (from the inside), stooping to speak and pray with each individual person. After speaking with someone for a bit, he will place his hands upon the afflicted part of the body. If there is no one afflicted “section” of the body, such as in the case of leukemia, he will pray over them, with at least one hand on a part of the afflicted person’s body, usually the crown of the head. He may spend a few minutes at the longest with each individual.

Unless one is in need of healing, or one is an assistant who is close enough to the priest to actually hear what is being said, this part of the process will be unknown on account of being seated too far away. Because I have assisted several times, I have heard these conversations. The priest will ask the name of the person and will then

inquire about their problems. Upon learning their name he will acknowledge it once more in a greeting, and upon hearing the name of their condition he will prompt them for a narrative. The narrative he seems to be looking for will contain at least two components: a description of the present suffering, and an autobiographical account of the development of the problem up to this point. He then will ask questions such as: Do you believe in the power of Christ? Will you accept his healing grace? Upon reaffirming to the priest their own faith in Christ, he will place his hands upon them and pray with them. He leads the prayer, which essentially is a semi-extemporaneous plea for mercy on the part of the suffering person. Upon completion of the prayer, he will ask them if they “feel anything”. If they indicate that they do feel differently, he may ask for a demonstration for the others if such a thing is possible. For example, on one occasion there was an elderly woman who had arrived in a wheelchair. She appeared to be in very bad condition, probably suffering myriad problems. The condition she asked to be assisted was her inability to use her legs- she did not cite a specific medical diagnosis. After this type of prayer was completed, the priest asked if she felt differently, and she indicated that she thought she did. He asked her if she wanted to walk, and she said yes. He and a companion of hers helped her to stand - slowly - and she actually did begin to walk. At first those around her hovered about her, waiting to catch her fall... but she didn't fall. She continued to walk, slowly, awkwardly and with apparent difficulty judging by the concentrated grimace upon her face, toward the exit and away from the wheelchair. Meanwhile, those who saw her do this gasped in amazement, including those who had accompanied her. They clearly were not expecting her to walk to the car.

More often than not, a person will not feel up to such a dramatic display of recovery. If they indicate that they do not feel differently, he will instruct them to continue to pray for God's mercy. He then will show a final gesture of affection, such as placing his open palm upon their cheek, or an extended solemn handshake accompanied with a compassionate glare, before moving on to the next person.

Afterwards, the priest begins the very final phase of the mass. Many of the remaining parishioners now will come forward, standing in several single file lines that converge in a circle surrounding the priest. Moving about in a counterclockwise fashion, he will anoint each individual with holy oil (oil that has been 'blessed' through prayers). The priest does this by dipping his thumb and forefinger into a bowl of oil that is carried by an ever-present assistant, and tracing with the oil the sign of the cross upon a person's forehead. As he moves along, he will be speaking, almost to himself... "And God so loved the world that for us he sacrificed His only son". He also may be heard saying things such as, "Rest in the eternal peace of our Lord, Jesus Christ". As he anoints a person, his hand remains upon their forehead.

Some people will stand there for a moment, often with eyes closed, and then walk away, leaving an open spot in the circle to be occupied by the next person in that line. But many react differently. They collapse as if lifeless into the arms of a "catcher", whose role it is to prevent injury by laying that person gently upon the ground. They will lay there almost motionless, seemingly oblivious to the commotion that continues around them. Some will fall with eyes rolled back in their sockets, eyelids fluttering in what appears to be an ecstatic state of consciousness. Some people will get up within a

few seconds of being laid upon the ground, but others will lay there for minutes. Often the logistics of the situation present time constraints for how long a person can lay where they fell, as other persons are waiting to be anointed. Seven minutes is a very long time to allow a person to lay in this state if the healing mass is in a busy church setting.

This phenomenon goes by different names. Older persons, and those with more hardcore Pentecostal backgrounds, are likely to refer to it as “being slain in the spirit”. Increasingly, however, among charismatic Catholics there is a trend to use the term, “resting in the spirit”. This latter term is more pleasant and does not smack quite so loudly of the fire-and-brimstone-ness of “being slain”, something Catholics associate with certain strains of Protestant Pentecostalism. Occasionally, it also is referred to as “the sacred swoon.” Although these terms are understood to refer to the same thing, my sense is that there may be slight differences in experience between those who say they have been “slain in the spirit” as opposed to those who have “rested in the spirit.”

My experiences of being anointed indicated several things I never would have noticed had I never tried it. First of all, it takes guts to fall. You don’t know if your catcher is up to the task, or if he or she even is paying attention. In my case, I’m not sure if a female would be strong enough to catch me. Frankly, the same goes for certain male catchers... but it’s up to the imagination as to who is going to give it a try, as the priest is in front of you, and you aren’t about to do a 180 degree turn to look. And then there also is the more primal fear of losing control... willingly losing one’s will, even for a short time. The first time I tried it I couldn’t get myself to fall. Although now I can fall, I still

have never experienced an internal spiritual state that could be described as a sacred swoon, resting, or being slain in the spirit.

Another thing I noticed as a participant was that the priest cues one to fall. This happens very subtly. When he is anointing the forehead with oil, he will trace a cross, and then slowly, gently, yet definitely, begin to push your head back with his thumb. The natural reaction, assuming one's feet are planted, is to slowly and gently tilt back one's head. With eyes closed, this results in a loss of balance, resulting in a backward fall. An implication of this sheds interesting light on a previously meaningless distinction... some people do not fall backwards, as if a tree, but rather fall strait downwards, as if suddenly losing all motor ability. Perhaps these sets of persons are experiencing different things.

Many long-time charismatics say they also were unable to fall the first time they were anointed. But even when afraid to let go, a newcomer who continues to return will observe that a variety of persons fall, and every one that falls is caught. As a safe landing comes to be regarded as predictable, the experience of being anointed becomes transformed from a challenge of trust to an exercise in "letting go". Through repeated rituals such as these, the ability to let go of one's fears while trusting in someone *unseen* is cultivated. In turn, this psychological orientation toward the unseen will constitute a critical component of the person's experience of the divine. This way of knowing and trusting the oft unseen is called faith, and without it one cannot experience God as a charismatic. Some of the finer points of how charismatics conceive the human-divine relationship will be further explained later in the paper.

My experiences as a catcher have convinced me of several things. One is that there are a surprisingly large number of big, fat Christians out there and when they fall, they fall hard. Being that catching can be physically demanding (think of the numbers), there is a certain technique to it. A catcher is supposed to hook the anointed person underneath the armpits and slowly walk backwards, with each step crouching closer to the ground so as not to injure one's own back. Finally, when the person is on the ground, one hand swings from under the arm to the back of the person's head so it does not smack the floor.

A critical part of this technique is that *before the person is anointed, the catcher should hold his hands extended outward, slightly touching the back of the person's arms*. If this is done, a person is far more likely to fall and rest in the spirit. My impression of this observation is that it goes to show that trust isn't just my issue; a person is more likely to fall if they can physically feel that a person is behind them and ready to catch them. Trust, and the willingness to fall, seem to be crucial prerequisites to Resting in the Spirit. This belies the impression I had of the ritual before participating in it, which was that the dynamic suggested that a power was emanating from God through a priest into a person, as if the priest was a conduit for an energy that was being directed toward an afflicted person. Having been a catcher, it is difficult to believe this conduit model of energy transfer as explaining why or how a person rests in the spirit. Yet, upon reflection, this behavior being revealed as a confluence of the wills of the priest, the layperson and God (in the view of believers), is hardly inconsistent with what is said. Recall that when speaking to the sick persons who have come to be

healed, the priest asks them if they will accept healing. The discussion (= lecture) of the evening almost always involves the importance of recognizing God's love for us and reciprocating with our acceptance of the Lord, Jesus Christ. In fact, there is no secret that this religiosity always hinges at least partially upon one's own acceptance of it. Therefore, I see this 'revelation' as an experience of my own illusion of one-way theology being disabused rather than a mysterious epiphany being revealed.

However, charismatics' narratives of experiences such as these do seem to situate the self as a passive recipient of a powerful force, an unexpected 'thing' happening *to* them. For example, one woman told me that she experienced a feeling so intense it was like a lighting bolt coursing through her body. She then fell and lay upon the ground while praising the mysteries of God- she knew not what she was saying, but only that she was saying it. Another woman described the experience as being "blown down by a tremendously powerful wind", after which she laid in a blissful state of awareness of the presence of God in her life. These are peak experiences, and both individuals told me that they are not typical. Still, I have never heard anyone say that they just fell for the heck of it. So there is a bit of an epiphany, insofar as these narratives contain a one-way relationship between self and divine other that is not necessarily affirmed directly through the theology of the healing mass.

The rituals of the charismatic prayer meeting and the healing mass involve myriad levels of symbolic communication. In the broadest sense of what "symbolic" could denote, perhaps the most common symbols used in charismatic worship are certain recurrent phrases that are integral to the charismatic way of worship. It is often

these unusual phrases that signify meanings that are more readily grasped in light of the charismatics' implicit theological beliefs.

Two of the beliefs most central to CCR religiosity are "Letting the Spirit Lead", and "Spiritual Gifts." A discussion of Letting the Spirit Lead will directly follow this section. It will explain a supposed intermingling of human and divine agencies that, through its implied ambivalence and paradox, is able to sustain a contested process of institutionalization of charismatic authority, whereby lay persons and clerical authorities can make oppositional claims on charismatic authority within theologically sound parameters. The discussion then will turn toward Spiritual Gifts, locally understood as manifestations of charismatic power. An exploration of these constructs as they are regarded by informants in the prayer group setting (the locus of hierarchical institutionalization) will lead to their one common characteristic, an absolute distinction from the self. After clarification of what informants regard as the self, a comparison between these data on charisma (taken from the institutionalized space of the prayer group) can be compared with data on the same topic, from the same informants, taken from settings beyond the prayer group (presented in chapter 3).

While Catholic mass is no longer regarded as exotic as it once was by the general American public, other CCR practices including the prayer group and healing mass appear bizarre and incomprehensible even to mainstream Catholics unfamiliar with the movement. For CCR informants, meaning is derived through praxis based upon its symbolic affirmation and representation of key theological beliefs and concepts that otherwise could scarcely be expressed, most notably those denoted by the terms,

“Letting the Spirit Lead,” and “Spiritual Gift.” The first involves an intermingling of agencies that will help to clarify the second, which in turn shall serve as a construct that will help us to locate Weberian charisma as it is expressed in the CCR.

Charismatic Theology:

The Trinity.

In Catholicism, God is conceived in terms of a trinity: The Father (the creator), the Son (Jesus Christ), and The Holy Spirit. The Holy Spirit is an elusive concept, but according to CCR adherents interviewed for this study, it may be described as the divine presence of God, or the active nature of God’s involvement in the present, or the aspect of God that reaches out to people. Thus, the traditional understanding of the relationship between these unified, yet distinctive “persons” of the trinity is that the Father sent the Son, and the Holy Spirit *through* the Son (McBrien, 1995) to his inner-circle, the Apostles, an event in which all Pentecostals, including Charismatic Catholics, believe they share by virtue of their personal experience with the divine.

The Pentecostal event implies a paradox by the supposed intermingling of human and divine agencies. In charismatic discourse this is reflected through the idea of “letting the spirit lead,” a peculiar idea that segues into discussion of spiritual gifts later in the chapter.

Letting the Spirit Lead.

The statement means what it states: allowing the Holy Spirit to guide one. To explain the spiritual paradox of the statement, the idea can be broken down into two components: “allowing”, and “Holy Spirit”. For most Catholics, the Holy Spirit is the one

person of the trinity that is poorly understood and seldom discussed. For Charismatics, however, the Holy Spirit is discussed often, and although the idea behind it is a bit more abstract than either God or Christ, explanations of the Holy Spirit are classifiable according to the following ideas:

1. The active presence of God.
2. God's active nature.
3. The hand of God.
4. The way God makes things happen according to His will.

Informants' views of the Holy Spirit as an object fall along the lines of at least one of the above four ideas. However, charismatics almost never speak of the Holy Spirit in terms of what it *is*. They speak of it in terms of what it *does*. It is making things happen, or it made something happen, or it is going to make something happen. In discourse pertaining to the life story (including tales of miraculous healing), the Holy Spirit is portrayed as a mediator of human development. So ubiquitous is this idea that it is believed the Holy Spirit is constantly at work in even in ways that people cannot understand or perceive.

Letting the Holy Spirit lead appears paradoxical because the Holy Spirit is an agentic manifestation of omnipotent divinity. This could provoke the question, "How can one 'let' something when that something is all-powerful?". This question perplexed me until I discovered an earlier misinterpretation of how charismatics conceive of the person's free will in relation to the agency of the Holy Spirit. They believe that 'letting' the Holy Spirit lead isn't something that one *can* do. It's believed something that one can do *only by the grace of God*. In other words, this is believed possible through the transcendent power of the Holy Spirit. The question is sensible in terms of linear logic

but irrelevant to charismatics because to them the logical dynamic of the Holy Spirit in relation to the agentic self of a human is distinctive *and* reflexive.

The reflexivity is related to another Catholic belief that the free will of human agency is a spiritual gift that likens the person to God. They believe that our free will is fully our own, yet it is of divine origin. As a spiritual gift, it is simultaneously a manifestation of God's divine will. This draws attention to the spiritual gift functioning as a transitional object between the ordinarily dualistic realms of natural and supernatural. In traditional and charismatic Catholic theologies, Christ is the personified transitional object between these realms, but in the more experientially oriented CCR the phenomenological interface between human and divine, including the relationship with Christ, is understood through the lens of spiritual gifts. A more detailed discussion of spiritual gifts will show ritually enactments of the spiritual mystery charismatics allude to when uttering a phrase such as, "Letting the Holy Spirit lead."

Positioning of the Self in CCR Theology and Social Thought:

When asked about history of involvement, a charismatic individual's most typical response involves recalling the time their prayer group was originally formed (1976 in the case of this group), and proceeding to relate this to their arrival into the group. Thus, a typical answer would be, "I've been coming since, oh, maybe about 10 years ago, but the group was at least 10 or 15 years old at that time."

This response reflects not only a certain way of understanding the length of personal involvement in terms of the group's continuity, but also a certain expectation about the ethnographer being interested primarily in the person and group as distinct

entities. Persistent probing of historical perspective reveals that the many in the group, and in particular all core group members, see it sharing in a spiritual tradition that runs throughout the history of the Catholic Church back to the Pentecost, as evidenced by the scholarship of McDonnell & Montague (1991). This mythical event (considered from the emic standpoint as an historical certainty) is viewed as representing a logical spiritual continuity following the sacrifice of the messiah promised to the Israelites in the Old Testament. According to the charismatic ethos, the sensibility of God's sacrifice of Christ in exchange for followers' renewed understanding of their relationship with that God can only be understood as rooted in the perpetually asymmetrical relationship between God and the nation of Israel, whereas man needs God, while God needs nothing. God's love is believed constant while the love of His followers is expected to wax and wane. The sacrifice is essentially anti-economic as the divine love believed to be its motivation is presumed unmerited.

The positioning of the self in terms of a mythical divine history does not merely serve to make sense of the present. It introduces a need for redemption and at the same time proposes to resolve the crisis with the anti-economic prospect of sacrifice. This, in turn, is believed to impose a moral duty for the Christian *to live in place of this sacrificed Christ*. This is not a mandate to be God, but to honor the debt by accepting divine will for one's destiny and striving to keep one's own will in accordance with that of God.

Spiritual Gifts: Manifestations of Charisma.

For the Catholic Charismatic, to properly navigate a Christian life is to honor the life-debt between Christ and man. As it is believed Christ's sacrifice can never be merited by the actions of beneficiaries, the debt incurred cannot be repaid, but only honored. The principle demonstration of this honor is believed to be an alignment of human and divine wills affirmed through the ritual enactment of charismatic gifts, or charisms, for which Pentecostalism owes its infamy.

One cannot come in meaningful contact with the CCR without hearing about *charismatic gifts*, *spiritual gifts*, *chairsims*, or *charismata* (the terms are interchangeable). Although it is apparent that these phenomena characterize CCR religiosity (the term 'charismatic' in 'Catholic Charismatic Renewal' indicates centrality of these so-called gifts), to the neophyte it is less immediately obvious what "gifts" are. A general explanation will be given, followed by discussion of some gifts in detail before returning to clarify the fundamental issue of precisely what the CCR informants are referring to when they talk about such things. Only with detailed clarification of the ways charisma is experienced and believed to manifest can Max Weber's construct be applied and examined appropriately in the final chapter of this thesis.

All interviews from the ethnographic portion of this study (presented in this chapter) confirm that CCR informants believe charismatic gifts are manifestations of the Holy Spirit *associated with* an individual. There are perhaps an infinite variety of gifts, many of which amount to proficiency in an activity, such as public speaking or group leadership, that is somehow used toward the glorification of God and/or the benefit of

“the Church.” In that respect, the interpretation of “Church” is context-dependent, as the term can be construed in different ways, possibly denoting a prayer group, congregation, the Catholic institution, Christianity, or humanity as a whole. For example, a leader of the prayer group presented here is recognized by some to have a “gift of organization.” This may appear a silly misattribution of the mundane to the divine, but without organization a prayer group has a very short life span. It is difficult to continually motivate people with jobs, families, and a shortage of spare time to gather every week to express a type of religiosity that appears bizarre even to other Catholics. The abilities to manage a smooth-flowing meeting while recognizing the potential of others to fulfill different roles are crucial to maintain the group’s continuation. Informants who have been to other groups, most of which are now defunct, are quick to recognize the extent to which the group’s remarkable longevity (over 25 years) is attributable in some way to this woman’s leadership. Based on these general rules of discernment, other informants recognize this person has a “gift of organization.”

Emic recognition of charisma in the form of gifts is quite complicated and in some respects paradoxical. There are specific phenomena that are regarded by all as bona fide gifts, including the phenomena of praying in tongues, prophecy, healing, divine knowledge, divine wisdom, prayer, and discernment. For some, there are also idiosyncratic abilities or traits of persons that are considered spiritual gifts when they are used for the benefit of the Church. Despite agreement on certain recognizable gifts, some informants explain that to focus on these phenomena as a fixed set of possibilities is to erroneously attribute limits to the activities of the Holy Spirit. From this perspective,

the essence of charismatic gifts is their source, the Holy Spirit. Therefore, the idea of charismatic gifts should be broad enough to accommodate for all activity of the Holy Spirit, not merely healing, prayer, tongues, or other familiar manifestations. Others who are newer to the movement do not think of gifts in any single, concrete way. While different people think of gifts differently, for the purposes of this chapter it will be sufficient to understand “charismatic gifts,” “spiritual gifts,” “charismata,” or “charisms” as a group of phenomena believed distinctive from but associated *with or about* a person, that are related through their common source, the agency of the Holy Spirit.

The enactment of gifts brings the paradox of charismatic theology into the realm of experience, which can entertain supposed religious facts so convincingly that culturally prevalent understandings of logic, truth, or even magisterial theology can scarcely be cited as means for invalidation. In this regard CCR adherents accept their experience much along the lines of William James’ (2008/1902) argument for personal religious experience as a source of truth for the individual mystic. Through learning to communicate, worship, and experience divinity using charismatic gifts, informants become oriented within a cosmology that is perpetually pregnant with spiritual significance. Although the ideas rationalizing charismatic praxis are paradoxical, the experiences that result are fully consistent with their stated efforts to relate to God within a spiritual legacy believed as historical as personal.

On the Possibility of Charismatic Gifts Among Non-Catholics.

In accordance with the profound influence of the ecumenical dialogue between Pentecostals and Catholics in the legitimization on of the movement, CCR adherents

are generally accepting of classical Pentecostals and non-Catholic Charismatics, provided those persons do not attack Catholicism. It is true that CCR participants overwhelmingly support of the teachings and unity of the Roman Catholic Church, and believe its institution inherits the true continuation of Christ's ministry and authority as well as that of the Apostles. However, they also recognize that many who call themselves Catholic are not pious Christians, and many pious Christians are not Catholics. This sentiment is demonstrated most convincingly through their recognition of certain non-Catholic individuals' spiritual gifts. Charismatic Catholics tend to speak about such persons as if there were no meaningful denominational separation between them. From their view, if a minister has the power to heal, and follows the word of God, it is clear that his uncanny ability is a sign that God is with *him*. It is not seen as an indication that God favors that minister's Protestant denomination over the what CCR participants regard the true, Catholic Church.

From the emic view, all Christians are believed to have spiritual gifts. In this sense, giftedness denotes a common alliance with God that transcends denominational boundaries. However, it is less commonly recognized as transcending the boundaries of Christianity; those who display extraordinary powers but do not worship Christ may be presumed to derive their power from Satan. The case of the Jews represents an exception to this rule. Informants note that the Old Testament contains many instances of pious Jews imbued with, or accompanied by, the power of God. For example, Joseph's ability to interpret the true meanings of the Egyptian Pharaoh's dreams has been cited as the gift of knowledge.

The New Testament contains myriad Jewish figures of obvious importance to Christianity, including Jesus of Nazareth, and the gift concept requires flexibility to accommodate for this fact. Catholics view Jesus as having a dual-status as both God and man. As such, he functions as the personified fulcrum of the Catholic worldview. Through Christ, the messianic prophecies of the Old Testament are believed fulfilled, and a new covenant between God and his followers forged. CCR informants are aware that their savior was an Aramaic Jew. The apostles, who followed Jesus throughout his ministry and eventually traveled in different directions to spread the teachings of Christianity, were also Jews. Importantly, it was these followers who charismatic Catholics regard as the original Pentecostals, and equally important, the original Christians. Biblical accounts of the Holy Spirit's interaction with these men present modern charismatics with the most recognizable instances of charismata as they understand them. Certain apostles (most notably Paul) also communicated about charismata, and their writings are considered by informants as authoritative (especially 1 Corinthians 12; Romans 1:11; 12:6-8). Informants see the legitimacy of their own religion depending largely, though not exclusively, upon the legitimacy of those Jewish followers of God, and so the extent to which they owe their legacy to Jewish religiosity is unhesitatingly acknowledged.

Consequently, modern Jews are seen as inheriting a unique and ancient relationship with God. Some charismatics acknowledge the powers of God manifesting with certain mystical Jews even today, although these manifestations are usually not referred to as gifts, charismata, the Holy Spirit, or any other Christian-specific

terminology, but are referred to directly as God himself. Charismatics see themselves as sharing a God with the Jews, but strongly believe that Jews are mistaken in not recognizing Jesus as the messiah. This conforms to the position on Jews assumed by the Roman Catholic Church hierarchy as result of the Vatican II document on non-Christian religions, *Nostra Aetate* (see Flannery, 1996).

These sentiments are not explainable by frequency of contact with persons of other faiths. While they do meet non-Catholics on a regular basis, their community also includes Muslim, Hindu, and Buddhist minorities. There is no Jewish representation in the area of this diocese, nor in the surrounding communities, and therefore no opportunity exists to confirm the existence of charisma in a community setting, as is typical in CCR contexts. Their beliefs about charisma among non-Catholics mirror Vatican II documents examined in the first chapter that affirmed the piety of sincere non-Catholic Christians but re-affirmed the Catholic Church as representative of the universal church, affirmed the holiness and spiritual legitimacy of the Jewish people but re-affirmed Christ as the fulfillment of that spiritual tradition, expressed a limited effort to relate to Islam as another monotheistic faith but cited the status of Jesus as a prophet in Islam as a serious difference between them, and expressed the greatest reservation about non-monotheistic religions including Hinduism and Buddhism (see Flannery, 1996). Considering the claim from informants to understand Vatican II mainly in terms of its affirmation of charismatic religiosity, it's the council's remarkable influence upon their recognizing legitimacy of other traditions using the gift rubric is all the more suggestive of Vatican II's determinism upon the evolution of the CCR.

The Recipients of Charisma in the CCR.

Those with spiritual gifts are believed by informants to have several things in common. They are strict observers of scripture; they read the Bible with enthusiasm and discuss it with others on a regular basis. They are consistent worshippers; they seldom miss Sunday mass and are almost as adamant about attending Charismatic prayer sessions (which are never on Sunday). They have been devoutly religious for a long period of time; charismatics with gifts usually report they worshipped intensely for “years before anything unusual happened.” They strive to feel God even in mundane aspects of their daily experience, and actively attempt to cultivate a loving relationship with Him. Healing, perhaps the most prestigious of charismatic gifts, often is believed to manifest years or even decades after a miraculous recovery from a life-threatening illness or injury. Prophecy, another of the more powerful gifts, also tends to manifest with persons who claim near-death experiences retrospectively interpreted as a powerful wake-up call that God has been an active agency within their life histories all along.

Informants believe that those with the cardinal gifts of prophecy or healing possess a vitality that belies their typically advanced ages. These recipients are highly involved in official religious activities, and informants are forthright about the number and prestige of gifts being associated with participation, and therefore importance, in the CCR. This is not to say that people without gifts are seen as spiritually or morally deficient, or unimportant in the organization of CCR affairs. Unlike in some classical Pentecostal churches, where spiritual gifts are necessary proof of Christian initiation, CCR participants without gifts can be found even in the movement’s central offices

(ICCRS) in Rome and the Vatican. Therefore, unlike in classical Pentecostalism, where the absence of gift implies initiation has not fully occurred, CCR belief accords no such implication. Nonetheless, it cannot be ignored that status is implied with the *presence* of a gift. Those who are uncommitted to the group beyond their own attendance have little influence and often rarely pray in tongues. Those who are committed to the group in terms of time and responsibility are most likely to display charisms. In the case of the group presented here, all laity with the gifts of healing or prophecy are in the core group or have served in that group until scheduling conflicts made the time commitment prohibitive.

Hierarchical institutionalization of the CCR (discussed in Chapter 1) has resulted in Charismatic priests assuming (some informants would say, “usurping”) the gifts of discernment and healing, while being reluctant to display glossolalia and utterly unqualified to speak as prophets based upon their authority being derived from their representation of the institutional magisterium rather than a personal connection with divinity per se. A later portion of this chapter will focus on the resulting mobilization of these four gifts among the laity and clergy in the contested institutionalization of their supposed charismatic power.

Giftedness also involves a certain acceptance of mystery. Informants were practically unanimous that all Christians have spiritual gifts, even if they are not recognized by themselves or others. Nonetheless, it is equally true that not all charismatics display the most traditional and recognizable gifts, such as glossolalia, interpretation of tongues, knowledge, wisdom, miracles, healing, and prophecy.

Informants acknowledge a link between piety and charisms such as these, but the link is mysterious, as some pious people are without them. At times they react defensively when asked about the point in one's life a charism first appeared, almost as if an effort toward intellectual understanding threatens the mysteriousness (and from a social scientific perspective, the 'just-so' status) that charismatics attribute to the gift. From their view, the gift is of God and not of the person, and inappropriate for a person (including an ethnographer) to understand everything God does and why. Charismata are therefore believed to appear mysteriously, sometimes without apparent reason, and may disappear for no known reason. This spontaneity is attributed to the mysterious will of God and certainly is not meant to be interpreted in terms of reasons to be discovered in a person's life-history.

The distribution of spiritual gifts among participants is known to relate to their differing abilities to share themselves with others in ways consistent with charismatic religiosity (Westley, 1978). Those with the gift of tongues must be willing to utter the glossolalic speech at the risk of appearing odd. Those with interpretation of tongues, discernment, and prophecy must be willing to share what are experienced as "inner-nudgings" and voices with others at the risk of social rejection. Those with the gift of healing must offer to help others. Withdrawal from social relations of the group prevents the possibility of actualization, believed to result in loss of gift through an implicit logic of "use it or lose it." The willingness to share the self is associated with group status, which as previously explained also relates to the pattern of gift distribution in any one group. Effective group leaders encourage sharing that augments group cohesion and

articulates common ideals, while discouraging sharing that is overly personal with little religious significance.

It also violates a principle of modesty within the charismatic ethos to overtly list one's own spiritual gifts, although it is normative to discuss those of others. Informants were more willing to discuss specific experiences they have had with charismatic gifts, and through this phenomenological approach charisma can be examined most thoroughly.

Charisma: Phenomenon or Phenomena?

At this point the question of how Charismatic Catholics understand charismata in general will be addressed. When approached individually, most in this prayer group say that there are specific charismata that are referenced in the Bible, specifically in the books describing the activities of the apostles following the crucifixion of Jesus (i.e., the books of Corinthians, Romans, the Acts, etc.). Gifts that are described in these sources are clearly recognizable signs that one has been 'Baptized in the Holy Spirit'- an initiation event believed to indicate communion with God. Notable charismata that are described in the New Testament include the gifts of tongues, prophecy, healing, knowledge, and wisdom.

Informants of the core group (including 15 of the longest committed members) agree that those who pray to receive one of these charisms do so because they are neophytes. This observation appears to be made without disdain; many in fact acknowledge passing through such a phase, but in 'spiritual maturity' have learned that praying for specific charisms shows misunderstanding of their true significance. They

believe that charisms sometimes manifest not as specific phenomena that remain the same over time, but rather change in form, coming or going “according to the purposes of the Holy Spirit.” The term, “charismatic” is therefore reinterpreted by more influential and experienced informants to describe not an aspired quality of the self, but rather an aspired relationship with the divine whereby one attempts to recognize God’s love and reciprocate by demonstrating it to others (constituting an actualized gift). While the initial charismatic manifestation with Baptism of the Holy Spirit is experienced as involving the presence of a divine other, this event also is believed to depend upon the follower’s pre-existing will to accept a personal relationship ideally characterized by submission to the will of God. In the perceived inter-mingling of human and divine agencies, what was previously self-interest is no longer seen as strictly personal concern since it falls within “God’s responsibility to protect his servants and tend to their needs.” The pre-eminence of self-concern (locally presumed equally normative to American culture and human nature) is said to be supplanted by a striving to surrender to the responsibility to reflect God’s love to others- in effect, to become a willing conduit for his unconditional love as well as his divine power within one’s social network... including, but not limited to, the CCR prayer group. When this responsibility is accepted, informants believe the Holy Spirit manifests through the individual as a charismatic gift that may change in form from one situation to another according to God’s unknowable will. As one informant explained,

At one time God may use you to speak on His behalf. At another time He may give you knowledge that is not your own. Or you just may say the right thing at the right time, and it will really touch a person in their heart, and help them accept the Lord. But it’s always for a purpose. It depends

on the situation- you become a tool for what He wants and He works through you as He pleases.

From this perspective the biblical gifts are recognizable examples of the Holy Spirit's activity in the presence of the apostles but are not exhaustive of its possible manifestations for modern Christians, which may be novel or unrecognizable. Core group informants therefore attribute neophytes' prayers for specific charisms as based on lack of recognition that a Christian's primary duty is to simply accept God unconditionally. Implicit in this should be acceptance of however the Holy Spirit might act through them. To ask for specific gifts is interpreted by core group informants as arrogant in the sense that one has decided one's own usefulness to God *for* God. A more matured attitude in spiritual matters is believed to prompt one to ask for the Holy Spirit as a sign of willingness- the exercise of the free will to accept God as Lord is crucial- and that the unconditional acceptance of God's response (gift or none) should be implicit in the asking. They believe that a charismatic ought not to be misled by a need to know how this may unfold, but are called upon simply to adore and obey God, and to "trust as children" (in other words, with a suspension of intellectual and critical capacity) that God will consummate the relationship as charismatic with the agency of the Holy Spirit.

This perspective is sometimes elaborated in terms of necessity of suppressing one's own pride, desires, attachments, and self to be a true servant of God. In a speech delivered at a Charismatic conference, Sister Nadine Brown (2001), a charismatic Catholic nun, gave a speech that supported this perspective decisively. She described a vision of Christ she experienced in which she claimed Jesus spoke to her about why so

many people will not accept him. In the effort to convey the answer to the audience, she compared the process of accepting of Christ with a process of dying:

The beautiful Lutheran theologian, Bonhoeffer, said, 'When Christ bids a man to come and follow him, he bids him to come and die.' And so Jesus said many don't want his heart because it means the cross. It means total death to oneself and total resurrection, total living, of him. It means, as John the Baptist kept saying, I must decrease, and he must increase. That's dying, isn't it?

Father John Randal (2001), a charismatic priest, gave the next talk. On the association between the acceptance of Christ and dying he said the following:

Jesus said that to be his disciple you have to do three things. First, you have to deny yourself, which means put self to death. The Lord told St. Faustina to put on a page, 'my will,' and put a big X right through it. See, you no longer have your will. We have to die to our will, our desires, our agenda. We have to die to self. The world says to affirm self, right? Secondly, you have to take up your cross. Thirdly, follow Jesus. That's what it is to be Christian, nothing less... And that's what baptism means. Entering the baptismal pool as Saul, you were buried with Christ- that was your funeral. That was your death. You came out as Paul- a new man, a new robe... you're living now as a Christian, a supernatural person... No longer working with your pea brain, but with the mind of Christ. No longer working with your hard heart, but with the heart of Christ. No longer working with your tired emotions of anger and jealousy and so on, but with the emotions of Jesus, which are peace, love, joy and patience, the fruits of the Holy Spirit. Embodying the powers of Christ, the power to forgive your enemies. That's what it means to be a Christian- dying and rising.

Total acceptance of Christ is said to necessitate abandonment of the self. The human heart, which from the Catholic view is inherently corrupt, is suppressed and replaced with the 'Sacred Heart of Christ.' The Charismatic is believed imbued with God's love, and is obligated to direct God's love toward others. To core group informants this communion with God is far more important than any number of specific charismata, which are merely incidental and occur at unexpected times and in unforeseeable ways.

They believe the true Christian's primary concern is to suppress those aspects of self that hinder total submission to God's will, and therefore believe the charismatic gifts that result are an aspect of normal the most fundamental Christian religiosity. Informants explain that as Jesus died according to God's will and was resurrected through God, so the charismatic is called "to die" for a "new and everlasting life" through God. It is believed that this release of the self will be followed by the triumph of God's will over the morally flawed will of man, but knowing precisely how his will occur is "like knowing what heaven is like when one has yet to die." When the individual is in a state of obedience, the Holy Spirit is trusted to reveal itself according to its own design. While neophytes sometimes express desire for charismatic gifts, the more experienced informants claim that whether or not the Holy Spirit will manifest as a recognizable charism is trivial. They explain that instead of seeking the superficial trappings of gifts, more concern should be shown to the glorification of God for salvation of the soul.

Based on interactions this prayer group, my appraisal of how charismata are understood is as follows. There are specific phenomena that are regarded by all as charismata, including speaking in tongues, prophecy, healing, divine knowledge, divine wisdom, prayer, and discernment. For some, there are also idiosyncratic abilities of persons that are considered charismata when they are used for the benefit of others, and particularly if they are used for the benefit of Christianity. Despite agreement that there are recognizable charismata, some feel that to focus on these phenomena as a fixed set of possibilities is to erroneously attribute limits to the activities of the Holy Spirit. From this perspective, the essence of charismata is the Holy Spirit, not the

reverse. Therefore, the idea of the spiritual gift should be broad enough to accommodate for all activity of the Holy Spirit, not merely healing, prayer, tongues, or other familiar manifestations.

Perhaps this discordance is an inevitable result of asking about charismata as if they were a single, discrete idea, which, in effect, assumes a critical aspect of what I am attempting to learn. There was virtually universal agreement about the nature of specific, universally recognized charismata, such as speaking in tongues. There were no conflicting descriptions in what prophecy is and is not. Everyone knows what miraculous healing is. Therefore, it may be more appropriate to consider charismata not as a discrete phenomenon, but a group of phenomenon that are related mainly through their common source, the Holy Spirit. Asking about charismata pluralized (e.g., glossolalia, discernment, healing, prophecy, etc.) versus asking about charismata in general (a singular, inclusive concept), it seems, are different questions. I believe that this helps explain why informants were consistent about specific gifts but inconsistent about spiritual charismatic gifts in general.

In an article about anthropological approaches to the study of person, self, and identity, Fogelson (1982) remarks on the naiveté of the nominal fallacy, which he explained as erroneously concluding that because there is not a word for something, it isn't real. These findings on how charismata are viewed should alert us to an inverse of that nominal fallacy, which is to conclude erroneously that because there is a word (i.e., charismata), there is a necessarily a clearly understood and agreed-upon idea to which it corresponds.

Emic Perspectives on the Relationship Between Charisma, the Self, and Identity.

Csordas (1994b, 38-9) has observed that the prevalent notion of personhood in the CCR has a tripartite quality, consisting of three distinctive components: body, mind, and spirit. I have found that standard reckoning keeps each domain mutually exclusive from the others. However, those with college and post-graduate education, particularly those in counseling or medical fields, entertain a degree of mutual constitution between mind and body. All informants maintained that the spirit is absolutely distinctive from mind or body. From their view, an effort to understand the charismatic gift with psychological, sociological or anthropological approaches (such as the effort represented in this project) will be misleading in its conclusions, since intellectual attempts to explore the spiritual domain are believed doomed from the start. This appears to be another area in which Vatican II has proven deterministic regarding its position (described in Chapter 1) that charismatic worship has psychological and sociological components but that the Holy Spirit cannot be collapsed into any intellectual domain.

There are two things that all charismatic gifts are believed to have in common. One is a common source, the Holy Spirit. The other is a particular relationship they have with the self. This view is universal to all gifts discussed in the ethnographic setting, and the complexity of native belief on the matter requires careful clarification to for its proper interpretation in the framework of Weber's construct of charisma (chapter 4).

Although Csordas' tripartite formulation has proven generally accurate with my informants, from one context to the next the components (spirit, mind, or body) oscillate

in importance as to their constitution of perceived self. Because of this, an examination of charismatic gifts requires articulation of the emic self in terms of other, pre-established social-scientific ideas. If the self is, as Meyer Fortes (1983) put it, “I-ness,” the gift is *not* the self. It is associated with a person, of or about a person, but it is never the essence of a person. The gift is seen as a manifestation of God, and to claim the power of God as one’s own “I-ness” would be arrogant and blasphemous according to the Charismatic sensibility. They believe in a necessary boundary between the self and God; the self is on one side, the charism on the other.

This project began with an historical analysis of the CCR that traversed the just-so story circulated by CCR informants on the origin of their movement by situating it within broader developments at Vatican II and a Catholic-Pentecostal dialogue. At this point in the project, we again face this danger in simply accepting the CCR belief as fact, that is, that the charismatic gift is truly dichotomous from the self. Yet, to summarily dismiss emic views of the charismatic gift in terms of the self would risk turning this account into a just-so story with a different ending. To prevent this, a model of self must be located that 1) is consistent with informants accounts of self and other, 2) facilitates theoretical interface between accounts of charismatic gifts and Weber’s construct of charisma, and 3) because Weber’s construct hedges on establishing charismatic power as real or merely perceived, the theory must not require us to accept these data on charisma as either objectively true or merely subjective interpretations of reality.

The search for such a theory may begin with Csordas’ (1994a) list of the four most influential conceptions of the self: those advanced by William James, A.I.

Hallowell, G.H. Mead, and M. Mauss. None of these theories is suitable to bridge Weber's construct of charisma with emic accounts that of charisma, because each has different assumptions that would require us to dismiss emic accounts of the charismatic gift being completely separate from self as mistaken or distorted. Mauss' (1985/1938) conception of the self (*moi*) is equated with consciousness, itself the product of an ancient process of evolution from comparatively primitive ideas (his analysis began with the personage, a character or role found in certain primitive societies). However, charismatics believe their spiritual gifts originate from God, and by logical extension of their insistence on the absolute sovereignty of the spiritual realm from all things natural, it cannot originate from social or cultural evolution. Furthermore, a charism can be more than what is conscious. For example, in cases of miraculous healing, the healer often does not know who will heal, when it might begin to occur, or to what extent. As will be explained by the end of this chapter, actualization of the gift of healing can be unrelated to the healer's consciousness.

G.H. Mead (1934) considered the self to be a social structure that arises in social experience. In the views of informants, spiritual gifts reinforce social structure but need not arise in any sort of experience. An implication of Mead's theory is that the individual enters his own experience as an object but not as a subject. Ethnographic data make it clear that the charismatic gift, and not what charismatics consider the self, is claimed to be the object (an 'other') distinguished from one's subjective orientation. To believe Mead's argument applies to the emic view, this project would proceed from a position amounting to a just-so story that reconciles academic theories without regard to

informant data. This would be unfitting for use with Weber's own construct, as his writings make it clear that charisma is partially rooted in the views of followers (a more in-depth discussion of Weber's construct follows in chapter 4).

A.I. Hallowell's (1955) theory of self can accommodate the broadness of charismata better than the theories of Mead or Mauss. Hallowell conceives self to be the self-awareness that is characteristic of an individual. This is more consistent with the charismatic view of self. However, Hallowell feels this self-awareness is conditioned by sociocultural context. Because this perspective blurs the subject/object dichotomy, the distinction between self and non-self, this model cannot accommodate the emic view of charisma. Every charismatic informant agreed that gifts are absolutely distinctive from the self. Although they are usually embedded within the charismatic sociocultural context, this very context (i.e., the CCR) is also believed to be guided by the Holy Spirit, the source of these charismata. In other words, charismata and their most typical sociocultural contexts are believed guided by the same divine agency. To view charismata as an aspect of the self that is conditioned even partially from the sociocultural environment runs contrary to the emic conception based upon a belief of the divine common agentic substrate provided by the Holy Spirit to both gift and the CCR as a whole.

Of the four positions outlined by Csordas, William James' (1981) theory offers the best fit between charismata from the emic view and a social-scientific model of self. James defines self as the sum total of what a man can call his, including his body, his mind, his possessions, his family, his acquaintances, his deeds, and his reputation.

Because a charism is associated with an individual and is indicative of that individual's relationship with God, it can be considered part of the self. However, it is not subsumed within the self, nor is it the same thing as the self. Although a charism is associated with a person, indeed, it may be referred to as 'his gift' or 'her gift,' the charism is not merely associated with God, it emanates from God. Because God is viewed as absolutely distinctive from humans (Jesus being the only recognized exception), the charismatic gift cannot be fully reconciled even with the Jamesian notion of self.

If we consider the self as the locus of experience, as does Harris (1989), it is reasonable to admit that certain aspects of certain gifts interact with the self. For example, praying in tongues corresponds with a feeling of spiritual bliss. Prophetic compulsion involves the perception of voices or urges that are not sensed by others. Knowledge, wisdom, and spiritual discernment must be experienced by the person with the gift. However, these gifts are understood to originate not within the self, but from God, who is believed necessarily external to the self. In other words, although aspects of charismata are experienced by the self, that which is experienced comes from beyond the self. This sentiment was expressed by a charismatic priest who said that he likes to hear when one has met his or her limits, because "that's when we can start thinking about where God fits into all of this."

Psychodynamic theories of the self originate through dialogic processes of disentangling self from other, and consequently they have potential to provide a framework for etic formulation of charisma (for examination of Max Weber's construct) that is not a just-so story devoid of emic perspective, which would invalidate it according

to that construct. According to Freud, religiosity is a byproduct of the suppression of infantile instincts necessary for coexistence in a civilized context (Freud, 1961/1927). The worship of a deity referred to as 'the Father,' can be interpreted as evidence of psychic regression. Other aspects of CCR religiosity that support this theory relate to what informants describe as a personal relationship with God. The charismatic relationship is understood in terms of a familial *weltanschauung*, and the emotions that mediate such social relations. For example, not only is God called the Father, but he is sometimes endearingly referred to as 'Abba,' a Hebrew word that charismatics interpret as approximating, 'daddy.' This reference to God compliments the charismatic ideal to worship as a 'child of God' (though, paradoxically, never as the 'son of God,' a term used only for reference to Christ). Freud described infantile regression in the religious context as characterized by helplessness before, and dependence upon, the deified 'Father' figure. This is supported by my fieldwork observations and interviews. Informants emphasize the need to surrender one's self, one's hopes, one's desires and even one's fears to Him. They make effort to emphasize their powerlessness before God, particularly in prayer, saying things such as, "Lord, I need you- I am nothing without you," or "I can do nothing, but within your will nothing is impossible." Therefore, the submission to God, which the most devoted informants believe essentializes the charismatic gift, is conceived in a familial framework. However, most informants do not evidence reflexive understanding that this a *way* of understanding stemming from the psychological life reconciled with civilizational co-existence; to them, God really *is* our Father in the sense that he created us, protects us, provides us with what we need,

rewards us for loyalty and punishes us for disobedience. From this view, it is recognized that either God or parent may be called father, but the parental term is the lesser of the two. As one informant explained, *a* father needs a mother to create, but *the* Father created from nothing. Therefore, from the charismatic view, the Father was the original creator, whereas *a* father is a lesser being created in His image. Freud's view is the reverse. While such a reversal in logic could lead to valuable insight in a psychoanalytic setting, it does not accommodate an emic view of charisma with an etic conception of self, and therefore does not help us to apply Max Weber's theory of charisma by linking his construct with the emic understanding of charismatic gift.

Carl Jung (1959/1990) believed that one's *Imago Dei* (an image of God, as opposed to the actual supposed deity) is part of the self. Because charismata are regarded as the activity of the Holy Spirit, they could be considered part of a charismatic's God-Image. Based on my observations, a spiritual gift is usually not recognized as part of an image of God, but rather, as evidence of God (objectively) or an experience of God (subjectively). If this shows a lack of reflexive consideration, it would be consistent with the Jungian perspective of the God-Image, because its locus, the self, is a principle that unifies the whole of the personality, which is for the most part beyond the conscious awareness associated with the ego (Samuels, Shorter, & Plaut, 1986). However, when prompted to think in terms of a God-Image, informants cite an absolute difference between God and their understanding of Him. From their perspective, God is a mystery that is beyond the understanding of any person. Despite the fact that God cannot be truly comprehended through the intellect (i.e., cannot truly

be *known of*), he can, according to charismatic reckoning, be known fully through personal experience (i.e., truly *known*). Knowing God versus knowing *of* God is a recurrent distinction in charismatic discourse. Most charismatics will admit to the former type of knowledge, while all (when prompted to think about it explicitly) deny the latter type of knowledge. Yet, despite this distinction, they do not consider charismata to originate from any aspect of their personality. Therefore, it is difficult to judge the compatibility of these observations with Jungian theory, because whatever these informants say is reconcilable with the analytical perspective, which in turn recasts it into a psychological phenomena that would not agree with... and again, this would also be consistent with Jungian theory. For this reason, it is unclear whether Jung can explain the charismatic gift perfectly or not at all. However, much like the Jamesian notion of self, that which Jung calls the self is not what charismatics refer to as the self, so if Jungian theory is able to reconcile the charism and the self, it would do so in a way that charismatics would surely feel is rooted in a misunderstanding of their point of view.

The absolute distinction between God and self is implicated in the belief that charismatic gifts manifest just beyond the constitutional deficiencies of pious individuals. Take for example the famed reputation of a well-known priest believed to have gift of healing. Informants recite a story beginning with a gruesome injury suffered in childhood. Doctors judged parts of his body destroyed, and gave a prognosis was that he would always be handicapped. Refusing to accept this, he and his mother prayed intensely for about a year. According to the story, when he privately bargained with God for his health, he began to heal rapidly. The bargain he offered was his future as a priest

in exchange for his health. Unexpectedly, with the miraculous recovery came a gift to heal others. In accordance with informant belief that “where the self ends God can begin,” it is therefore quite logical to them that the most profound gifts would grow out of weaknesses; the personal deficiency, when unprotected by pride, is precisely where God can most deeply penetrate a person’s life.

The emic insistence upon a split between God and self, and their willingness to acknowledge that within a relational context God fulfills critical psychological needs, makes the self psychological theory of Heinz Kohut more ideal to link emic conceptions of self and other to an etic formulation of charisma. A more complete evaluation of this theory will be possible in the following chapter, after data from in-depth interviews about charisma and the self will be used to examine individualistic ways that selfobject needs are met through charismatic religiosity. The fourth and final chapter focusing on theoretical implications of these data will include a more in-depth discussion of Kohut’s theory and how it contributes to a proposed theoretical development of Weber’s construct of charisma, the ultimate goal of this thesis.

Emic Understanding of Charismatic Gift as Constituting Identity in the CCR.

While the charism does not pertain to the self, it is an integral part of the individual’s charismatic identity. A charism indicates a particular relationship with God that is inseparable from other charismatics’ perception of who that individual is. Although people are not charisms, people are known by them. Names are associated with gifts. Certain functions within charismatic contexts are also associated, and in fact demand, certain gifts; those who meet privately to appeal for God’s intercession

exercise a gift of prayer, those who heal the gift of healing, those who exorcise demons the gift of discernment (believed necessary to differentiate demonic attack from mental or physical illness). Furthermore, gifts link people indirectly through a similar relationship with a common God. Overt indication of identity through gift actualization is believed to simultaneously allude to a deeper connection of the individual with the divine that, because of its phenomenological dimension, is presumed ultimately unknowable to other participants.

Although I take issue with Meyer Fortes' (1983) claim that the only real aspects of identity are those displayed to others, I would acknowledge that observable displays of self are critical determinants of that identity. To display a charismatic gift is to outwardly identify with the CCR, which is distinctive in style from mainstream lay-worship, even if they are displayed in settings designated by hierarchical authorities for that purpose. Yet, to accept Fortes' perspective is to miss the importance of their *not* displaying charismatic behavior in Sunday mass. Do they cease to be charismatics on Sundays between 11 A.M. and noon? Absolutely not (and data in chapter 3 will reveal more on emic conceptions of charismatic gifts beyond the institutionalized prayer setting). They don't display charismata during mass because *other* Catholics don't display charismata during mass. Sometimes, that which is *not* displayed can reveal just as much about identity (in this case, Catholic identity) as that which is. A charismatic can be glossolalic in a prayer group setting, take a vacation without the opportunity to appropriately display this behavior, and return, all the while being just charismatic as before. Several people have told me they are glossolalic when completely alone, even

when driving. Are they being unreasonable in expecting passers-by to interpret the mysteries of the Holy Spirit while they speed down the highway? Fortes' claim might apply if these informants were charismatic but not Catholic, or Catholic but not charismatic, but it cannot explain the synthesis of charismatic and Catholic modes of praxis that contribute complexity to the identities of informants. Clearly, identity is more than what is displayed to others. Because it is more than what is shown, it is more than can be seen.

In summary, much like the identities they help constitute, charisms are understood as observable indications of the unseen. They are uniquely personal, with aspects that are strictly phenomenological, such as the state of consciousness associated with praying in tongues, or perceiving the mysterious voices that inspire prophecy. Concurrently they are fundamentally social, assuming importance through human interactions; a prophecy is useless without an audience, and healing requires the sick in addition to the healer. They are perceived as divine in origin, culturally sanctioned actions led by an otherwise invisible agency, the Holy Spirit. Charismata represent an observable link between the self of the participant, the cultural milieu of the CCR, the social network in which the charismata occur, and the unseen God believed substrate of all existence.

In the CCR, two gifts have become predominant over the others: prophecy and healing. Hierarchical efforts to institutionalize the CCR through the processes detailed in Chapter 1 have resulted in a gradual decline of prophecy and the emergence of healing as the preeminent spiritual gift. In his observation, Csordas (1994b) wonders about the

significance this trend. The remainder of this chapter will be devoted to comparison of the domains of charismatic worship that have come to surround prophecy and healing, including the ways in which other gifts, most notably glossolalia and discernment, are mobilized in each situation. The role of experience in each of these gifts will be discussed, and it will be shown that among these informants, different degrees of hierarchical success to control the role of experience through the introduction of ordained persons in CCR contexts previously operated by laity help to address Csordas' question on why prophecy has become de-emphasized (it was largely replaced, at least functionally, by exegesis performed by ordained specialists) and healing became dominant (at least the forms that the hierarchy were able to control, the charismatic prayer mass and exorcism). The exorcistic rite, which can only be performed by an ordained specialist, is shrouded in secrecy... and therefore beyond the critique or sphere of influence of most CCR laity. In turn, they have struggled to maintain access to the gift of healing through their own secretive practice, most notably the prayer circle. All of these issues will be clarified in this chapter. These ethnographic data on the ways charisma has become contested in the CCR will then be compared to emic accounts on the fundamental nature of charismatic gifts collected beyond the institutionalized prayer setting (chapter 3). The intention is to analyze data of the first three chapters to propose a contribution to the development of Weber's construct of charisma (chapter 4).

Glossolalia: The Gift of Tongues.

Glossolalia is described by Csordas (2002; 78-80) as ritualized utterance with a lack of semantic content. Sequeira (1994) characterizes it as learned linguistic

phenomena with small repetitions of syllable strings and phonemes of particular languages, but agrees that the speech does not make sense in any of these languages. CCR participants refer to this as “the gift of tongues,” and never use the term *glossolalia*.

Some participants describe it as a “holy language”, and believe that distinctive “languages” may spontaneously manifest in conjunction with the actualization of other gifts, including prophecy or the healing (both will be discussed later in the chapter). A holy language is deemed to convey meaning inaccessible through natural means of linguistic competence, and knowable only through divine revelation. Some believe that the holy language will drift into genuine xenoglossia, where an unknown human language is being spoken through means of divine agency. Others are familiar with the claim and while they do not admit disbelief of the possibility, they do doubt this is a normative occurrence.

The practice appears bizarre to many non-Pentecostals and this has contributed to their reputation as emotionally unstable Jesus freaks (see MacArthur 1992; 1978). In the early days of the CCR, Andrew Greely (1970) also characterized glossolalia as rooted in emotional disturbance. He criticized it on grounds that if the Holy Spirit wished to communicate, an understandable language would be used. CCR participants, like all Pentecostals, believe the practice is scriptural in origin. The Bible describes the Holy Spirit’s descent upon Jesus’ apostles resulting in their ability to speak a variety of languages they had never known before; witnesses from different lands claimed to hear the apostles praising God in their own language (see Acts 2-4). However, the text does

not specify whether the languages were unknown to the apostles themselves as they spoke, or uninterpretable to others who had received the gift. It appears these beliefs are therefore endorsed through a combination of interpretation and inference of scripture.

Praying in tongues can be considered as charismatic praxis from three complementary perspectives: as an individual's experience, as expression between an individual and God, and as a social, or at the very least, an interpersonally-interactive phenomenon. For the individual, praying in tongues involves a continuous stream of rapid and spontaneous utterance, which is believed not linguistic in a human sense because it is not intended by person to convey a particular denotative or connotative meaning. Although the construction of verbalized utterance is experienced as extemporaneous, the act itself is willed by the charismatic.

The reported experiences associated with glossolalic utterance include spiritual bliss, strong feelings of joy and peace, a heightened awareness of God, a heightened focus of awareness in the present, and a suspension or abeyance of discursive thought. These changes in consciousness are comparable to what anthropologists have termed 'trance,' but they do not fit the term in several important ways. For example, certain criteria of trance, as outlined by Bourguignon (1979), are met, while others are not: Suspension of discursive thought and a sense of joy are clear examples of cognition and emotion being altered. The heightened focus on the present is associated with a suspension of concern about daily life beyond the prayer meeting which may be dissociative. With an etic presumption of atheism, the heightened awareness of God

might be interpreted as a form of dissociation from a godless reality. However, glossolalia does not coincide with the sensory faculties being altered, nor are visions, voices, or unusual bodily sensations normally experienced. Furthermore, in other contexts trance is associated with either the departure of the individual's spirit or the entry of an alien entity into the person's body (Bourguignon, 1973). The emic view is that glossolalia never involves the departure of one's spirit to another location. Although charismatics sometimes refer to this spontaneous behavior as being 'filled with the spirit,' they do not believe another force enters their body. 'Filled with the spirit' is a metaphor that uses the word 'filled' much like the phrase, 'filled with happiness'- it does not correspond with a literal interpretation of being 'filled' like a glass is filled with water. However, unlike emotions such as happiness, the Holy Spirit's influence originates from God, who is external to the individual. Praying in tongues is a type of interaction with the divine that does not involve the soul's departure or another entity's entry into the individual in a literal sense. Incidentally, charismatics do not consider the phenomenology of praying in tongues to be appropriately classifiable as 'trance.' To them, the idea of trance has a decisively satanic connotation; it is a state whereby fakirs may walk on nails or Appalachian occultists may handle deadly snakes. Charismatics emphatically deny any association between what they experience while praying in tongues to that which they understand by the word 'trance.' Nonetheless, as Williams James observed with religious experience in general, the CCR participant's intimacy with God appears unquestionable within the insulation of an individual's own experience.

After two years of coming to know the informants as individuals and vice-versa, data on their experiences with glossolalia began to change. Almost all of the same core group members who originally described peak experiences have since admitted in private conversations that they are atypical, a finding consistent with that of Sequeira (1994), where it was determined that despite the apparent emotional ebullience of the practice, glossolalics typically do not enter states of hyper-arousal. These informants report that on most days they *try* to focus on God but often their thoughts wander. “Actually, today I was thinking about how much laundry was waiting for me after I get home,” was one typical confession. Other highly committed informants have admitted to making a mental note about a request for the upcoming segment of prayer supplication, thinking about work, worrying about money, anticipating the upcoming weekend, feeling guilty for not being at home with family members, and daydreaming about nothing in particular. Less experienced informants accounts differed only in that they believed themselves “un-gifted” with glossolalia because they had never had peak experiences.

However, phenomenal experience or the lack thereof does not exhaust the perceived significance of glossolalia. The charism is believed to represent divinely inspired ineffability between the individual and God, with any altered state of consciousness being considered by core group members as interesting but unrelated to its true significance. Because it is said to transcend logic and discursive thought, the charism also is thought to provide an unadulterated mode of spiritual expression that can be preferable to natural language in an effort to communicate to God. When asked about the role of human agency in the actualization of the glossolalic gift, informants de-

emphasize the human role and instead invoke a model of transcendence through divine agency: the gift is from God to communicate with God through God. With a communication dynamic resonating within itself, glossolalia represents a ritualized affirmation of the charismatic ethos, “Letting the Spirit Lead.”

However, when praying in tongues occurs in the prayer meeting, it is a babble-chant that is tonally harmonized. The group converges on a single tone, the root note of a chord whose notes are struck individually and in alternation by the musical leader. Most individuals chant in this key, deviating only on the second to the last syllable their breath can sustain, the duration of which is slightly lengthened and the tone of which is raised one whole step, and then the final syllable (equally lengthened) returns one step lower to the original note. As praying continues, a charismatic may introduce more elaborate alternations between the root note and the whole-step deviation. Some harmonize with the others by chanting two whole steps above the root note, lengthening the duration of their last two syllables but refraining from any additional tonal deviation. A few others have developed their own idiosyncratic styles of chanting, but even they attempt to chant in key. The effect of these patterns is a chorus of independent, yet harmonized chants that symbolize the deeper significance of the Holy Spirit among charismatics; each individual is enshrouded within a mysterious relationship with God, and at the same time, each of these mysteries resonates with the others in a social matrix that represents the charismatic worship context, and by extension of local logic, the ideal of Christian community represented by the Church.

Of the Catholic charismatics I have encountered in fieldwork, less than 1 of 5 displays the gift of tongues. This is not to say that the un-gifted are necessarily perceived as less pious. However, approximately half of the core group members are glossolalic, and those who are not will chant in trite, comprehensible Christian truisms using the same musical sequences as the others. In their contribution to the glossolalic chorus they gesture their enthusiasm to participate in the group. All informants with the gift and many without it agree it is basically superficial. The common explanation is that because glossolalia is an expression between the individual and God, it does not, in itself, influence God's will. Glossolalics go farther in characterizing it as the least important of the gifts. Yet, perhaps this dismissal owes more to customary modesty than a sincere belief that the gift of tongues means little. The gift signifies in-group status, a personal relationship with the divine that transcends logical explanation, and as will be explained further in this chapter, is a method of communication from God to man, and (contrary to the claims of informants) is actualized in conjunction with other forms of prayer in an attempt to persuade the will of the divine, such as when petitioning God for healing in secluded prayer circles.

Much of the research on glossolalics as a subgroup can be located within a debate over their mental health. In a study comparing Pentecostal (i.e., members of self-identified Pentecostal churches) glossolalics to nonglossolalics, Vivier (1968) found that glossolalics reported more familial psychopathology and prior poor adjustment, lower levels of suggestibility, and no differences in neuroticism or maladaptive anxiety. Kildahl, (1972) compared protestant charismatic (i.e., charismatic worshippers who

have retained status in mainstream Protestant denominations) glossolalics versus nonglossolalics on measures of the Rorschach Test, the Draw-A-Person Test, the Thematic Apperception Technique, and the Minnesota Multiphasic Personality Inventory. Five hypotheses were tested: 1) glossolalics are more suggestible, submissive, dependent and therefore more able to follow a leader than non-glossolalics. 2) Glossolalics initiated tongues while thinking about and feeling close to the leader, who is strong and masterful. 3) Glossolalia was a form of regression in the service of the ego. 4) The emotional benefits of speaking in tongues did not last long. 5) Glossolalia was a real human language. The first three hypotheses were corroborated and the last two were not. The overall findings suggested that glossolalics were more submissive, suggestible and dependent in the presence of authority figures. Similarly, Gonsalvez (1979) found that Catholic charismatic glossolalics evidenced a greater tendency to the hysteric –type personality characterized by hyper-excitability, low frustration tolerance, emotionalism, instability, suggestibility , and dependency.

Other studies have suggested glossolalics are not as psychopathological as their strange forms of worship lead many to believe. Contrary to the findings of Kildahl, Spanos and Hewitt (1979) found that glossolalics were not significantly different from non-glossolalics in hypnotic suggestibility, nor were they different on measures of self-esteem, depressive affect, psychosomatic symptoms, neuroticism, extroversion, or dogmatism, leading to a conclusion that glossolalia does not imply psychopathology in any of these forms. Lovekin & Maloney (1977) studied Catholic charismatics who entered a Life in the Spirit Seminar, an event designed to facilitate conversion through a

mystical event called Baptism of the Holy Spirit, in which the presence of the Holy Spirit is experienced and conception of God changes from experience-distant (“knowing about God”) to experience-near (“knowing God”). They examined the subjects pre- and post-seminar on a variety of psychological measurements, and compared new glossolalics to non-glossolalics and those who were already glossolalics. They found that non-glossolalics were higher than the others on depression, hostility, and anxiety measures at the beginning of the seminar, although all groups were similar at the time of follow-up. All groups showed evidence of increased personality integration, with no differences between groups. Those who were previously glossolalic rated religion as more important in their lives and spent more time engaged in religious activities. They concluded that while becoming glossolalic does not re-establish the ego or resolve neurosis, in contradiction to the conclusions of Vivier (1968) and Kildahl (1972), that glossolalics are *not* maladjusted prior to the experience. Part of the discordance in findings may be related to these studies being conducted at different phases of the CCR’s development; Vivier and Kildahl were studying an emotionally intense CCR that the hierarchy was only beginning to reign in, as the first quinquennium of the Pentecostal-Catholic dialogue didn’t begin until 1972 and the final report de-emphasizing the importance of glossolalia as a sign of spirit baptism was not disseminated until 1976, roughly the time Lovekin and Maloney (1977) collected data for their study. It is therefore possible that after the first session’s final report, the de-emphasis of glossolalia would have disinterested the more emotionally unstable individuals who were giving the movement a bad image in the eyes of people like

Andrew Greeley. While Greeley's (1970) charge of glossolalics being emotionally disturbed may have been an accurate assessment of participants during the early phases of the CCR, through my fieldwork I have come to conclude that most post-millennial glossolalics in Chicago (where Greeley lives, works, and presumably has met CCR participants) are emotionally stable. The rarely encountered glossolalic who seems emotionally unstable tends to exhibit odd forms of prayer language characterized by stuttering, lack of flow, slow proclivity, paucity of sounds, and overly repetitious phrasing.

Coulson and Johnson (1977) examined classical Pentecostals and Methodist charismatics, and found that glossolalics were more external in locus of control than non-glossolalics. They interpreted this as supporting the idea that *non-glossolalics* were more dependent on authority figures and were more suggestible. However, I would argue that the observed differences of locus of control tendencies does not necessarily lead to that conclusion, as an external locus of control might be expected to prime a follower for a powerful (external) leadership figure, and that follower presumably would be more prone to suggestion from that figure (though not necessarily from others, including a social-scientific researcher). The hypothesis is more consistent with the findings of Francis and Kay's (1995) examination of Pentecostal ministry candidates, in which they found that glossolalics were lower than non-glossolalics in neuroticism as measured by the Eysenck scale, a trait well-known to be associated with suggestibility. If such were the case, glossolalia is more properly interpreted as a gesture of leadership acceptance than of trait suggestibility. It should therefore not be

surprising that in this study almost all glossolalics were within the core group, since even in most non-religious contexts group status is rarely afforded to either the psychologically unstable or those who reject leadership accepted by the others.

The Gift of Discernment.

By all informant accounts this charism is considerably more prestigious than glossolalia, and when it is embodied (i.e., associated with a specific person) implies the ability and authority to perceive matters of a spiritual nature on behalf of others. This occurs through supposed divinely-guided interpretation of one's own subjective experience of inner voices, feelings, and inclinations. It is rooted in the tradition of classical Pentecostalism's emphasis on personal experience as a means of religious legitimization, and is quite contradictory to the traditional Catholic understanding of the magisterium as the primary repository of spiritual truth.

In the CCR this problem has been addressed, at least within the realm of spiritual healing, by the gift being taken out of the hands of the lay persons and being assumed by clerical figures. In certain ritualized healing practices the laity have persisted with involvement in discernment, although it is carried on as a function performed by a group of laity rather than a single person. In healing contexts the gift of discernment involves intuiting spiritual factors contributing to illness, and what to do about it (Csordas, 1994b: 168-171). With exorcism it is associated with the ability to learn the name of the demon (through which it may be abjured), and to perceive the spiritual essence of a person. To essentialize the spiritual and the human are complimentary aspects of the exorcist's authority to essentialize suffering as demonic possession. As an exorcist informant

explained, to know success one must understand where the demonic ends and the humanity begins. The gift allows for a justified essentialization of the person beyond the healing context, such that one's true piety and intentions are reckoned by the person with the gift. In the CCR its meaning has broadened into the territory of the classical spiritual gift of knowledge, whereby revelation is acquired through spontaneous thought and imagery (Csordas 2002, 244-7). Any gift involving the divination of personal experience poses obvious dangers to institutional structures such as that represented by the Catholic hierarchy, and its acquisition is closely associated with tight social control (Cuneo, 2001).

While hierarchical leadership has been somewhat successful in usurping discernment within the realm of healing (and by extension of charismatic logic, the divinely inspired authority to administer spiritual healing) through the introduction of healing praxis (especially the healing mass) requiring a clerical figure to occupy the central healing role of actualizing the healing gift, they have been less successful in usurping the gift of discernment within the realm of prophecy. This is certainly related to clerical authority being seen as consisting in representation of the institutional magisterium, which according to Max Weber's theory would be challenged by any prophet seen as providing the divine a medium to address other followers. As will be explained in the next section, the gift of discernment marks a key difference between the gift of glossolalia and that of prophecy: glossolalia by itself is spoken but not discerned, while prophecy must be discerned before it can be spoken aloud for others.

The Gift of Prophecy.

“Interpretation of tongues” is one subtype of the gift of prophecy. Core members explain its as a divinely inspired means of resolving the “confusion of tongues” associated with the biblical Tower of Babel, which in CCR praxis becomes symbolized in glossolalia. The standard form of charismatic Interpretation is performed with two and only two people, the glossolalic (i.e., one with the gift of tongues) and the interpreter (i.e., one with the gift of interpretation), neither of whom will be an ordained priest. The glossolalic produces an utterance at a point in the meeting reserved for such demonstration,. Silence ensues as the group members engage in private discernment, whereby they listen for inner voices to fathom the true message. Someone will break the silence and risk speaking an interpretation aloud. A glossolalic utterance that remains uninterpreted suggests collective suspicion that the glossolalic was inspired either by Satanic or “psychological” influences (since self is dichotomized from God, the latter term is nearly as pejorative). In such a case, this group response will correspond with diminished group status on the part of the glossolalic. Conversely, if the glossolalic is regarded as pious by anyone in the group willing to actualize the gift of interpretation, one will be offered, resulting in the reification of social alliances and enhanced group status for both persons. In a study of Episcopalian Charismatics, Sequeira (1994) has made similar observations, noting that the successful performance of gifts constitutes community solidarity. Although the interpreter appears to be serving an auxiliary role in the dyad, the gift of prophetic interpretation is more prestigious than that of glossolalia, and so a counterintuitive ethos of authority is evidenced through the Christian idea that

to lead is to serve. In the prophetic context, to support another's reputation with an acceptable interpretation is to bolster one's own status to an even greater extent. This is also called "confirmation," and as a form of social capital that is given and received it helps to secure status and position within the group's web of social alliances.

Like other forms of prophecy, an interpretation that reveals a prediction is "judged by its fruit." That is, a prediction that proves false is assumed Satanic, and calls into question the piety of the interpreter rather than the glossolalic. More commonly, the message is one of edification, whereby common ideals are articulated in a gestural fashion (Csordas, 2002: 79). If this is performed without accuracy of prediction or soundness of gesture it may be judged satanic, resulting in loss of status on the part of the interpreter. Group assessment comes immediately after the interpretation in sounds of approval (laughing, clapping, smiles), silence (showing group deliberation – usually not a favorable reaction), or outright disapproval (gasps, admonitions, complaints, overt disagreement). An unpalatable interpretation will be countered with another from a different attendee, which will almost certainly draw sharp reactions of approval if it is any better at all in affirmation of well established charismatic themes. A failed interpretation such as this is very rare, and is most likely to be offered by a neophyte, a visitor from another Christian denomination, or the psychologically disturbed.

One example involved a very troubled 38 year old white woman who occasionally attended the prayer group from 1999 until 2002, when she was asked not to return after threatening a core group member who volunteered to drive her home with bodily harm. During the period when she attended, her behavior was noticeably unusual to all the

group's informants. She sat in the back row, eyes darting back and forth, as if watching something pass rapidly before her line of vision or attending to sounds behind her that nobody else could hear. She spoke to herself on a regular basis, occasionally becoming loud enough for those in previous rows to turn around and admonish her and another person for chatting so loudly, only to find that nobody was sitting near her. She also claimed to speak directly with God, but others found her supposed conversations ominous, provoking disagreement on whether her problem – whatever it was – may be psychiatric or spiritual in basis. Based upon her apparently psychotic symptoms, unkempt appearance, mild-to-moderate cognitive impairment, difficulty in conforming to local conventions of interaction, decorum and ritual, and paranoid behavior, the diagnosis of paranoid schizophrenia given by her psychiatrist was accepted by group members as a realistic assessment. On one occasion, she attempted to interpret the glossolalic utterance of another. Her first mistake was interrupting the glossolalic, blurting out:

“God wants all you people to know that you all need to mind your own business. I’m absolutely sick of it. Today my trash cans were gone. Yesterday I threw out the trash and you know who, my neighbors were watching me on the street. I know exactly who did it. I pray, may God strike them down. Why do people have to harass the holy? God is watching and he can’t be fooled by lies. I know who did it. He’ll strike everyone down who harasses me...”

The intense tone and content of the message were inconsistent with the gestural qualities of peace, love, happiness, and edification that characterize prophecies

interpreted legitimate. She also violated a fundamental point of prophetic form, whereby the first person “I” signifies God himself; in her case it appeared to denote God at one moment and herself at another. (Incidentally, ambiguity of reference is an error characteristic of schizophrenic discourse.) Her tirade was promptly interrupted by core members who prayed for God to “bind” the forces manifesting in the room. From an anthropological perspective to pray for binding is a quasi-magical appeal to divine power to control an evil force of supernatural origin (Csordas, 1988). It did not stop her from speaking; her tone became more belligerent and she began to argue directly with those struggling to maintain order. While some onlookers began to pray with glossolalia (another attempt to move divine will to transform the situation), others began to address her directly, accusing her of being confused about the origin of her message, and explaining that God doesn’t want to strike anybody down, nor is it our place to ask God to strike somebody down. Her protests became inappropriately personal as she proceeded to complain that nobody cared about what was happening to her, and that she takes it very seriously even though they think it is funny. A few attendees promptly clarified that it wasn’t funny, and that if her property had been stolen it was a matter for the police. She agreed and abated, for the moment, although she didn’t seem to understand why her outburst was inappropriate as a prophetic statement. Spontaneous prayers abounded for the prayer group meeting to successfully reassume its order. Another member offered a prophecy calling for discernment, understanding, and mercy among God’s people. Core member informants reported they immediately sensed the message they explained to me as follows: the group should understand something is

wrong with this woman, and that the appropriate response is firmness toward her unsound claims, with compassion (rather than condemnation) toward her person. The group's immediate response was enthusiastic acceptance of the new message offered by core group members, and even the woman with schizophrenia didn't seem alienated by it. At the end of the meeting, when the woman left, some core members explained to me the nature of her problems were discerned by charismatic priests as being psychiatric *and* spiritual in origin. One informant said she had been rejected as a candidate for exorcism because of suspected nonadherence with her antipsychotic medication regimen; an uncontrolled medical condition provides no opportunity for charismatic healing as it is impossible to determine where the natural (i.e. psychiatric) distress ends and the spiritual (i.e., demonic) distress begins.

Because the gift of prophecy involves the individual's discernment of private compulsion to speak to the group on God's behalf, it also requires the group to make a trial-by-fire assessment of the individual's spiritual credibility. Although genuine prophecy is believed to be of God and not of the person, the spiritual valence of the message will constitute evidence for or against the piety of that person. It is critical for the would-be prophet that a prediction comes true, for charismatics believe that "God does not make mistakes." They believe that Satan's intelligence is also powerful; he knows many things that are unseen. However, unlike the omniscient God, Satan's knowledge is believed imperfect. A prophecy that is true is of uncertain origin, although the reputation of the individual who embodies it is clearly taken into consideration (hence, the 'gift' of prophecy). A false prophecy is either satanic or psychological, in

either case calling into question the piety of the would-be prophet. Although most group members were familiar with the schizophrenic woman's illness, her attempt at prophecy precipitated a rapid group-assessment of her person, self, and spirit that otherwise remained unspoken due to norms of decorum and modesty.

In principle, psychological origins of prophecy are distinguished from satanic origins, but in practice a false prophecy believed to be of psychological origins may also be deemed Satanic. If a person knowingly voices his or her own opinions as if they were the words of God, it is said that Satan has touched them with his arrogance. If a person mistakes their own feelings for divine inspiration, the mistake is satanic in the sense that one's unrecognized self-centeredness blinds him or her to the true will of God.

Although charismatics readily profess belief in the idea of prophecy, actual prophecies are often regarded with suspicion- in private if not in public. They are aware of how easy it is to enact a gesture through trite bible-based banter as if it were the Almighty who speaks. Charismatics *discern* what their inner feelings tell them about a prophecy. A message is judged to be from God when it is not only benevolent in content, but also moving in delivery. If they have a bad feeling about it, this may counterweigh whatever seemingly benevolent content the message conveyed. Even those who have the charism of prophecy can be skeptical when they see it happen. Appropriate modesty calls for some distrust of one's own compulsion to speak on God's behalf. One person recounted an unexpected prophetic experience:

After a meeting we were standing around, and I saw this woman standing there with her husband. I had never seen her before. Then I heard a voice- it told me to give that woman a message: she would conceive a child soon. I knew what I heard but I didn't want to do it. I had never even

met her before, and she would think I was crazy. I thought to myself, Lord, I don't want to do this. But after a little while I thought I had better do it anyway. I walked up to her and said, 'You're going to have a baby.' This woman was absolutely astonished. She said, 'How do you know?' So we began to talk, and they told me they had been trying to conceive a child for a long time, but their doctors said it probably would never happen. So whenever I saw her I would ask if there was any news. But she kept saying no, and I started to get worried. I started to wonder if that message was not from God. But then, a few months afterwards, she told me that they conceived, and I thought, 'Thank God.' I have known that couple for almost twenty years, and that baby was the only child they were ever able to have.

What is experienced as prophetic compulsion places one between the threat of group scorn and faith that the one's own will is not mistaken for that of God. Consequently, predictive prophecy presents a burden few prophetic charismatics are comfortable with. However, the risk is associated with greater group status than any of the strictly gestural forms of prophecy, and is associated with only a few of the most influential group members.

Most prophecies are not predictions. In the Charismatic sense, prophecies include all types of speech on the behalf of another deity. Words that are uplifting, that consolidate the worshipers into a unit, or that support the values of Christianity are regarded to be "of God." This gestural form the most common type. Take for example one such incident that occurred at a Charismatic conference in Chicago. Before a crowd numbering about 260 persons, a woman loudly proclaimed a statement on behalf of God. She warned that believers (the audience) must not stray from the truth of the Word (biblical scripture), and promised that if they remained with God ("*me*"), they would enjoy the "fruits of the earth." Like most charismatic prophecies, this was never officially sanctioned or determined to be of Godly origin. Furthermore, her last words, 'fruits of

the earth,' may be interpreted as satanic, as charismatics believe that dark power actively influences worldly affairs. Despite their belief that God's power reigns on Earth as in heaven, Christian salvation lies not this world, but in the supposed eternal paradise of heaven. Several onlookers who I asked about the utterance considered it to be "of God."

Another who was at the conference but was not present when it happened conveyed surprise that onlookers did not suppress it, because "Satanic forces can convene in Charismatic settings." Her sentiment was likely shared by the priests who were on stage and were in the process of re-commencing the conference after a lunch break when the focus, and power position, was so abruptly ripped away from them and toward the noisy lay woman in the audience. The priests looked at each other, with forced smiles of appreciation that scarcely hid their indignation over the abrupt reversal of power. In ordinary circumstances an ordained priest has undisputed authority over all lay parishioners when they are seated and he is standing before an altar, but at that moment the priests did not dare rebuke her unless the crowd of emotionally awakened charismatics turn against her first. The audience paused for a short moment of scrutiny before cheering with approval. The priests cringed in ineptitude and clapped lightly with the laity, patiently waiting to resume control of the scheduled presentation.

Antithesis of Prophecy: The "Gift" of the Exegete.

The widespread decline of prophecy within the CCR has touched the prayer group of St. Sebastian. When my fieldwork began in 2000, prophecy would occur during most meetings. By mid 2006 they would occur every 6 to 8 weeks. The ritual void of

prophecy was filled in part by a newly emphasized role of an individual whose academic understanding of the bible served as the basis for an alternative source of revelation.

This man is a professor emeritus of religion and archeology at an elite American university. Italian by birth, he maintains friendships and connections within that nation's network of biblical scholars, and with hierarchical power brokers in the Vatican. Through a lifetime of scholarship he has acquired impressive historical, cultural and linguistic knowledge for the process of excavating true meaning latent within the scriptures known as *exegesis*.

In classical Pentecostalism the bible is interpreted as it appears to the lay reader. As explained in the introductory chapter, aversion to modernist scholastic methods was so entrenched in their tradition that it took years of Catholic domination in the ecumenical dialogue before the Pentecostal participants would adopt those same approaches to defend their tradition, and at that point did so at the cost of diminishing their own credibility in the Pentecostal world. The addition of an exegete able to understand the bible through his academic knowledge of history, culture, and the magisterial teachings of Catholicism is something that could only have happened in the CCR, in fulfillment of the dialogue's emphasis upon experience (in this case, what the bible seems to mean) requiring validation from tradition (which for Catholics is consolidated in the magisterial teachings). This man is particularly qualified to represent the magisterium for two reasons. First, he commands the academic expertise of a Roman-trained theologian. Secondly, he is an ordained priest, making him qualified to

administer the sacraments, the ritualized mechanisms through which the Catholic institution controls access to divinity.

Although the exegete is believed to have a gift of knowledge, he is considered by core group members as being a gift himself. This characterization reflects the functional importance of his role to the group, which like any group where prophecy has declined, has struggled in need for new and compelling sources of divine revelation. Among group members his teachings are invariably received as compelling and insightful in their revelation of the secrets hidden in scripture. Through a pronounced Italian accent he expounds upon the significance of seemingly trivial details of familiar biblical texts. He moves from one topic to another so elegantly and with such impressive scholastic insight that nobody seems to mind the tangential approach to the teaching. At the end informants feel reminded his knowledge *about* God is beyond theirs but nonetheless are impressed and thankful for the teaching.

When he speaks all attention is focused upon him. There is no cause for speech of any type on the part of the laity, save for questions of clarification at the end. Their collective role is to simply listen, and to “soak in” the teaching, in the words of Muhlen’s (1975) apparent belief about what ought to replace prophecy in the prayer meeting. It is no accident that prophecy never occurs on days when the exegete is present, as its display would represent a direct challenge to his teaching authority. Because his exegesis presumes all teaching authority in exchange for revelation, prophecy and glossolalia are deemed situation-inappropriate. They are not suppressed, but are withheld in accordance with a most fundamental point of decorum in Catholic tradition,

which is to acknowledge the spiritual authority of those who represent the teachings of the magisterium.

Because of this exegete's health problems and his preference of living in Europe for part of the year, he sometimes is unavailable to the group. In his absence they have labored to mobilize other local experts for teaching, including ordained and non-ordained doctoral students of theology in local seminaries. This suggests that the exegete is an emergent role beyond this scholar, and is not merely a function unique to his person. Even though others approached for teachings are less knowledgeable than the retired professor, they are accorded the same respect and prestige, as the role they fulfill is identical.

The tremendous group status accorded to this role has corresponded with an increase in the perceived importance of exegesis (over prophecy) as means for divine revelation. Exegesis is most often performed by core group members through organization and creation of the meeting talks, particularly with teachings on specific biblical passages. As previously explained, the position to speak and teach before the group tends to be reserved for core members and esteemed guests such as priests or reputable figures from the CCR speaking circuit. Much like prophecy, exegesis implies group recognition of teaching authority and is therefore associated with power, and by extension, group prestige and influence for that person. Csordas (2002: 29) has observed that prophecy involves an individual with a broad audience, and in my fieldwork exegesis has been observed to share this structural aspect as well. In this

regard they differ from healing, which involves one or more healers focused upon one supplicant at a time.

The Gift of Healing.

In the section of this chapter devoted to CCR praxis, the healing mass was discussed at length. This has become the CCR's most public display of spiritual healing, whereby hundreds of laypersons gather in a chapel as a priest mediates the gift for the benefit of supplicants (the vast majority being laity). That ritual clearly situates the gift of healing with or about the person of the priest. However, spiritual healing is believed to occur in other CCR contexts, including some without representation of the institutional church. The most common such scenario is the prayer circle that takes place immediately after the conclusion of the prayer meeting. St. Sebastian's group uses a room adjacent to where the prayer group is held. The circle consists of the supplicant and two to four persons who have been pre-selected to serve on a "prayer team"; a minimum of two is customary in accordance with the belief that where three Christians pray together, Christ assumes a presence among them. The maximum of four is not a steadfast rule, but simply derives from the fact that larger numbers produce anxiety for the supplicant who begins to feel as if speaking before a group. The prayer team waits in their designated location as persons who request divine intervention enter one at a time to be "prayed upon," or to "receive prayer." The prospect of disease for self or loved one is the most common reason that prayer for God's intervention is needed. Interpersonal problems, such as difficulties in marriage or family relationships, are also quite common. The intended recipient of good fortune need not be physically present in

the prayer circle; prayer in proxy, whereby someone requests prayers for someone not present, is believed to be just as efficacious. A person is expected to approach the prayer team with somewhat serious requests. Although there is nothing theologically wrong with asking God to help in a trivial matter, it nonetheless is irritating for a group of people to pray about it.

Prayer circle protocol proceeds as follows. The prayer team members sit facing each other, along with one empty chair for the person requesting prayer. When the person arrives they will sit and share a narrative (up to 10 minutes is an appropriate duration) explaining the situation they hope is about to be transformed by the Holy Spirit. In cases of illness it resembles a case history organized to justify the procedure about to take place. In cases of interpersonal conflict it is a history of clashes described as impossible to resolve through human means. Problems of alcohol or drug addiction, although explained with less detail, are presumed to partake in this same hopelessness. The team members are expected to listen and respond to these narratives of suffering with tenderness and empathy. Because it is believed that the power of the Lord, and not of the persons on the prayer team, represent the efficacious agent in spiritual healing, only the most sensible questions are deemed appropriate. The person seeking prayer may choose not to offer verbal explanation, which is respected since it is believed that God knows what the real problem, and that is all that really matters. Almost always some explanation is offered, and the drama that is stirred by the petition affects the intensity with which the prayer team members will focus their energies during the prayer. Immediately after the explanation narrative concludes, the group will hold hands

and bow their heads in prayer. As the petitioner remains silent those with the gift of tongues will exhibit glossolalic prayer as one person among them will lead with a narrative addressed to God acknowledging the greatness of his mercy and power, as the other team members will continue with glossolalic chanting interspersed with expressions of agreement with the leader such as “yes Lord” and “thank you Lord.” The circle leader will continue with an extemporaneous prayer that mirrors the essential aspects of what was explained by the petitioner. This mirroring phase will be followed by formalized petition to God, where the leader will ask for divine intervention as other team members continue to thank God as if it has already been done. The petition is sometimes no more specific than a request for divine involvement according to the Lord’s wishes and infinite wisdom, but in cases where commonsense points to a specific solution it will be asked for specifically. A typical example would be for the Holy Spirit to move the hands of the doctors for successful cancer surgery. After the petition has been formally declared the prayer team’s prayer and glossolalia may suddenly become slightly more desperate, and then continuing with decreasing intensity for a few minutes until the lull cues the leader to formally end the prayer by reciting “The kingdom, and the glory, and the power are yours almighty, now and forever. Amen.” The group will release hands and the petitioner will often express relief that the situation has been addressed with prayer. Small talk will resume between them as the suppliant disengages from the circle. The suppliant may be asked if anyone else is waiting for prayer, and if so, to send the in next person as they exit.

The prayer team is bound by an understanding that the content of what is revealed, discussed, and petitioned in the meeting is secret and will not be discussed with anyone. Although the secrecy is not sacramental in nature, it is understood to be sacred much like the secrecy of confession.

In late 2005 the prayer group was shocked when it received a letter from a local priest who mediates between the hierarchical authorities of the archdiocese and the regional CCR prayer group network. The letter expressed intention to make the prayer group's finances "on the books" by placing its funds within a parish bank account. There had never been any financial difficulties with the prayer group's meager few-hundred dollar purse, which had come from members donations. The message also warned about the dangers of extemporaneous prayer during private prayer sessions, and as a remedy suggested strict adherence to standard Catholic prayers. It expressed concerns that deviant approaches to healing may result in confusion about the nature of healing, such as belief that it was occurring through CCR-specific healing techniques, or worse yet, through the supposed spiritual virtuosity of CCR participants. The letter was clearly motivated by the unbridled need for the archdiocese to further institutionalize the CCR through elimination of extemporaneity and usurping once and for all the gift of healing exclusively for ordained representatives of the hierarchy.

Because discussion over the letter was tightly contained within core group meetings, the majority of the prayer group remained unaware of the issues at stake. In their more private meetings, core group informants expressed shock at the invasive disposition of the same church authorities referred to as 'brothers in Christ' in the prayer

meeting. The letter was insulting to their sense of collective spiritual responsibility (in the language of Vatican II, their *collegiality*, or Apostolic authority), but informants were even more puzzled as to how the secrecy of the private prayer sessions were penetrated. Some expressed concern a supplicant may have left the prayer circle feeling as if mistreated, but the group's respectful approach made the possibility seem unlikely. One informant expressed suspicion that "they sent someone in," that is, sent a confederate to investigate their extemporaneous methods under the guise of a healing prayer request. Some carefully acknowledged the possibility, as if mindful that the core group meetings could be penetrated just as effectively. To some core group informants this violation of privacy was ironic, since the hierarchy has its own elite form of spiritual healing, the ministry of exorcism, that is far more enshrouded in secrecy. Like the healing mass, exorcism has become institutionalized, such that a hierarchically-approved tool, the Roman Ritual, must be used by an ordained person selected for that role by higher hierarchical authorities.

Chapter Conclusion.

With secrecy such practices can persist without scrutiny, and can serve to enforce levels of status in terms of insiders being more proximal to charismatic power than those who remain unaware. Hierarchical need to penetrate the secrecy of charismatic healing practices appears to be more closely related to usurpation of all charismatic power than the stated danger of unwarranted teachings being promulgated.

Hierarchical success in their efforts to usurp and harness charisma to protect its own perceived legitimacy as mediator of transcendent order (to use Weber's terms) will

depend upon the nature of charisma, as conceived by participants in the CCR. Based on data from ethnographic fieldwork presented throughout this chapter, charisma is understood as the power of the Holy Spirit manifesting as spiritual gifts that are integral with identity in the CCR but absolutely dichotomous from one's essential personhood. Ethnographic data suggest that informants recognize the hierarchy already controls charisma in several ways. These include the sacraments (historically, the proximal sources of charisma), and healing practices overseen by ordained priests. Informants also agree that the purpose of charisma is to build and help constitute the social fabric of the prayer group and life of the Church as an institution. However, data also have shown that charisma is contested between hierarchical and lay persons who would use it to establish their respective claims on religious authority. For example, the gift of prophecy has waned while exegesis has begun to fulfill the resulting need for revelation. Healing too has become more prominent, but again there are different approaches – those of the laity and of the hierarchy - that differ with respect to assumptions about who is accessing divine power for whom; in the healing mass the priest is said to have the gift of healing, but in the prayer circles of the laity this gift is enacted by a group, and when it occurs the recipient (almost always a layperson) is regarded to have been given the gift. The prayer circle is a ritualized tradition that developed into a quasi-secretive practice to protect their claims of accessing divine power, with varying degrees of success. While the hierarchical processes of institutionalization have continued, including efforts to penetrate the secrecy of lay healing practices, the hierarchy has concurrently maintained its own ministry of exorcism behind an even more impenetrable

veil of secrecy. The following chapter explores contested charisma further through an examination of core group members' conceptions of spiritual gifts based upon data from interviews conducted from beyond the charismatic worship setting. As will be seen in chapter 3, while there is considerable continuity in the nature and function of charisma, private discourse favors a separation between charisma and hierarchical contact points including ritual and institution, and the inseparability of charisma from the participants themselves through experience and personhood. Chapter 4 will propose theoretical development to reconcile these data within the framework supplied by Max Weber's seminal construct of charisma.

Chapter 3: Ten Case Studies of Charisma among CCR Participants.

Person-Centered versus Ethnographic Data Collection

This chapter continues the central examination into the nature and meaning of charisma, particularly with regard to its perceived relationship with the self and the means by which it is deemed legitimate spiritual phenomena by CCR informants. The chapter reviews data from ten in-depth interviews of core members of the St. Sebastian prayer group, the ethnographic data of which was presented in the previous chapter. All of these persons contributed to those data, which were collected in the prayer group setting that, through control of ritual format and the doctrines those rituals are meant to demonstrate, has become the locus of hierarchically-driven institutionalization of charisma. In that setting, the belief of charisma being absolutely separate from the self was robust regardless of whether the question was posed to individuals privately, within the earshot of others, or posed to groups of persons. The data reviewed in this chapter come from the same informants as did the data from chapter 2: the core group members whose longevity in the movement makes them the most knowledgeable about charisma. Unlike the ethnographic data of chapter 2, the data of this chapter come from beyond the prayer setting, which has become a locus of hierarchical efforts toward institutionalization (described in chapter 1). Here, informants speak in other settings of their stated preference, which were homes or restaurants. While the institutionalized prayer setting emphasizes the “universal” aspects of spirituality (the literal meaning of *Catholic*), the person-centered interviews featured here explored charisma in terms of a personalized focus that wouldn’t ordinarily be appropriate in the prayer group. Even

testimonies given before the group remain vague about the particularities of one's life, and focus instead about the general spiritual lessons that group members can share with each other. However, the data presented in this chapter delve into the idiosyncrasies of each individual's conversion. Informants discuss their spirituality in terms of their own personal histories, and it becomes apparent that it is from this world – the everyday life of the CCR participant - does one delve into the charismatic prayer setting, rather than the reverse. That is to say, even for people such as these who live religious lives the very practice of worship implies moving from a profane life space into one more clearly demarcated for spiritual activity. This corresponds with an oscillation in experience that is characterized by daily (one may say, profane) life interjected with periods of sacred activity. While core members invariably are attracted to feeling "recharged" after each meeting, that reaction is heavily dependent upon highly idiosyncratic aspects of each individual that tend to remain unexplored in any setting emphasizing the universal aspects of Christian spirituality. The most important finding of this chapter is that despite these persons' historical and temperamental differences, they all described charisma as being inseparable from the self, a belief that contradicts their stated belief in the absolute separation of charisma from self described in the previous ethnographic chapter. After this chapter presents the data establishing this striking discrepancy, the fourth and final chapter will explore the locate the significance of this finding with regard to the institutionalization of charisma, with the ultimate aim of proposing further development of Max Weber's construct of charisma.

Case 1: Bernadette.

The first case in this analysis is that of Bernadette (as with each informant, a pseudonym) who first introduced me to the prayer group analyzed in the ethnographic component of chapter 2. As discussed in that chapter, the author had originally intended a study on exorcism in the Chicago archdiocese, and it was through these channels that we met over the telephone. As an employee of the archdiocese she has regular contact with the exorcist being sought, as well as others including the regional priest appointed to serve as liaison between local church hierarchical figures (including the Cardinal) and the CCR. Like all participants, Bernadette's organizational role in the prayer group is completely voluntary. Her influence owes to her interpersonal skills in communication and politicking, which have facilitated her perceived intimacy with representatives of the regional hierarchy.

She also differed from the others in her insistence upon a premeditated approach to the interview. While others gave consent with knowledge of the main questions to be asked, she insisted upon researching her answers in biblical scripture and CCR religious literature circulated by hierarchically-approved sources. Her answers were so tightly controlled that she would not allow her response to be recorded until she knew exactly what the "correct" answer was to the question posed to her, and after a concise answer would then promptly stop the recorder. With follow-up questions, upon her request we would stop recording while she silently deliberated upon an answer and would not begin until she was ready to provide the best answer possible. Rather than provide a new life story narrative for this interview, she referred me instead to an audio

recorded testimony she read before the group five years prior, assuring me all the facts in this version were correct. Her approach shows an avoidance of extemporaneous discussion similar to that of the Catholic hierarchical tradition. It is hardly surprising that in many aspects her answers reflect the teachings of St. Sebastian's religious exegetes (see chapter 2).

However, her case will also provide segue into the other layperson's cases because it is on the point of charisma, the focus of this study, that she wavers despite what the official religious teachings pronounce to be true. More than any of the other cases, hers shows the conflict between what ought to be true about charisma according to institutional sources and what is true according to her own religious experience. While institutional sources derived from the Catholic-Pentecostal dialogue were careful to place doctrine over experience as validation of such religious knowledge, this woman has doubts... despite understanding what the institution asserts the right answer ought to be.

This approach belies her interpersonal savvy. Even with a pronounced Italian accent and difficulty conjugating English verbs she is regarded as an excellent communicator in English, the primary language of the group. She is among the most popular and influential members, and is believed by others to understand the forces and personalities that drive group politics. These qualities have made her an obvious choice as an employee who interfaces between laity and certain influential priests including the Chicago archdiocesan liaison to the CCR. When we met at the beginning of this project she was screening calls on behalf of the primary archdiocesan exorcist whose identity is

kept from the public. It was she who *discerned* over the telephone that I was seeking the exorcist out of healthy intellectual interest rather than psychopathology or fascination with evil. She invited me to the prayer group described in chapter 2 and has remained an invaluable informant ever since.

Bernadette describes her life of 60 years as being comprised of two main parts: the old and the new. The “old life” includes the upbringing and young adulthood in her small village in the Italian Alps. During this period the most prominent relationships were with her maternal Grandmother and parents. Her father was a veteran of World War II. After being routed in Russia he escaped from the Italian army and used his expertise in cross-country skiing to return to Italy. She remembers him being morally, mentally, and spiritually broken by the experience. Her mother was staunchly religious, loving but stern. Their relationship was more distant than that with her Grandmother, who was also very religious but functioned more as a confidant than a disciplinarian. Their family operated a small hotel for tourists and made most of their income in the winter season when skiers came to enjoy the slopes. Bernadette was an excellent student who had won many academic awards for her early mastery of the French language, but later became more interested in a career as a national ski instructor – a very competitive position in that region. This dream, and the old life, came to an end at the age of 22 when she attempted to avoid an out of control skier and instead crashed into a large stone, resulting in shattered bones throughout her body.

The “new life” begins with her awakening to five months of hospitalization in a full body cast and two months of rehabilitation. With her body broken and her dream

destroyed, she found solace in the company of the American tourist to whom she was giving a lesson at the time of the accident. He visited her daily, and they fell in love. When her health returned they married in Italy and shortly thereafter moved to the U.S.A. She describes her husband as a gift, unmerited but given by God nonetheless in her darkest hour. She stresses that the appearance of this gift in her broken state serves as a demonstration that it came from beyond the self. This view of charisma as being absolutely separate from the self is identical to the teachings described in the ethnographic component in Chapter 2, which represent one aspect of the institutionally sanctioned teachings of the CCR.

Upon moving to America another crisis developed. She was far away from home in an alien cultural environment. She had left behind her other primary relationships, and felt as if she had severed her own roots. She became terribly depressed and remembers crying every night for want of her old home, and the familiar comforts of the old life. Out of desperation she reached out for Catholicism. She had never taken the religion too seriously until this point, but now it made her feel reconnected with her mother and grandmother through a familiar tradition in which they had long been immersed. For a time this helped. However, America is not a culturally Catholic environment, and for the first time she found herself surrounded by a majority, including some in-laws, who were Protestant. They challenged her about Catholic traditions and attitudes, and she didn't know how to respond. She had a profound religious crisis: to lose faith or to give up a comforting tradition that served as her primary connection with the past.

Their marital harmony was not contingent on her religious conversion, but her non-Catholic, Pentecostal Sister-in-law inspired Bernadette to ask questions about Catholicism to which she had no answers: what was Baptism in the Holy Spirit? What are the spiritual gifts? How can one have a personal relationship with God when Catholicism is mediated by an institution? Bernadette invited her to ask the same questions to the priest of her parish. They were surprised at his familiarity with Spirit Baptism and the charismatic gifts, and he informed them of a charismatic prayer group at the parish.

Bernadette begins her explanation of charisma with certainty: She equates it with love. It is power from God that does not originate from the person, but is given by God for his glorification, and to draw believers together and closer with him. Further explanation draws out complexities in her understanding: to be charismatic is a dispositional trait, whereby one is open to this externally originating divine power. When asked if the gift can become part of the person who has it, she agrees to the possibility, then after some elaboration retracts and says it is not of the person. Finally she explains that it can appear to be part of the person, but that the person is essentially a vessel and the charisma is the divine substance that is poured within or removed at God's discretion. When asked bluntly whether gifts are different from the person who has it, this was her response:

BERNADETTE: Okay. I will say they are not the person's gifts. They are God's gifts given to the person. They become part of the person, it seems, when the person receives it or receives them because she works with those gifts. But the gifts are really not the person. I cannot say that these gifts were mine, these gifts I work for it, I bought them or I – no. They come from God and they are for you to use for the Kingdom of God. For God's glory and God's honor. Though He

does use as those gifts so you can help other people to come to the Lord. And at the same time, He does require certain cooperation.

She concludes, “*They are part of the person, but they are not of the person.*” Her explanation draws upon the intermingling of human and divine agencies understood in the maxim “Letting the Spirit Lead” (discussed in chapter 2). The reciprocity of these agencies helps to define what becomes regarded as a personal relationship with God.

The Catholic-Pentecostal dialogue described in the first chapter concluded that this change in perception of the divine is legitimated by doctrine. However, for Bernadette it is rooted primarily in three main types of experience: somatic (i.e., bodily), emotional, and agentic (i.e., in terms of an experienced locus of control). She recalled these types of experience legitimating her Baptism of the Holy Spirit (age 33, ten years into her marriage) as follows:

BERNADETTE: I really desire to have the gift of tongues. It was a gift that kind of caught my attention. And also, I understanding that there were bigger gifts than that. And I remember that I kind of felt in my heart something was going to happen. My Sister-in-law kind of encouraged me to go up. And a pastor lay hands on me and when he did, it was like a river of this heavenly language because that’s how it’s described and that I could not stop. Because usually you can’t control this gift. You know? But the first time I receive it, I could not control it. And I went on so much with this gift and I literally felt like I was raised above Earth, but it wasn’t. You know? I felt in my heart.

INTERVIEWER: Did it feel like your body was physically lighter?

BERNADETTE: Yeah. I felt I was very light. You know? And what happened is that the pastor, because I couldn’t stop and I was going kind of strong too with this gift, it kind of turned me around and put actually my face toward the wall and he said, “you keep praising the Lord and you keep praising the Lord, okay?” And I was there for I don’t know how long just praising the Lord. But the experience that touch me is when I came out from the place, I felt that the Earth was so beautiful and so clean and that it was springtime, but it was a much beautiful spring day than when I entered into which was a restaurant, you know, we gather. It’s in a hotel. And what I noticed was that I remembered the certain –

after I went shopping and I was in love with everyone that was around me. I could not see anything wrong with anybody. And that gave me a little bit of what Paradise can be where here it cannot exist. And there I experienced it. You know? It was like I had patience and joy and love and understanding and I thought that everybody was so beautiful. Not just physically because I could not find any faults but in any which way they were expressing themselves and sometime it's hard to express an experience. But, you know, looking back, I express it just like that. That's how Heaven has to be when we are all up there, it's like we are so much in love with God and our eyes are so much focused on God, that everything else around us becomes us. Like imperfection will not – it cannot exist. There can be only beauty and perfection. I don't know how else to say it."

From this description it is clear that somatic (levity of body), emotional (elation, peacefulness, acceptance of others) and agentic experiences (a change in perceived locus of control away from the self) with the arrival of the gift of tongues is what marks the beginning of the personal relationship with God that she believes has deepened emotionally over the subsequent three decades.

When discussing doctrine, Bernadette knew the "correct" answers about charismatic gifts, particularly their distinction from the self. The data of this chapter show that her conviction in doctrine is rooted in immediate religious experience. The supremacy of religious percepts over abstract concepts, predicted so concisely and explained so elegantly in the lectures of William James, *Varieties of Religious Experience* (1901-2), contraindicates the Catholic-Pentecostal dialogue's conclusion that doctrine not only trumps experience as variant bases of legitimacy for religious knowledge, doctrine validates experience itself. When discussing her experience, her perception of charisma (as being part of the person, if not *of* the person) is similarly deviant from the institutional assertion that charisma is divine power that comes from

God, through Jesus Christ, and finally administered to the masses through the ritualized sacraments that they alone control.

Case 2: Moira.

Moira is a 63 year old female of Irish-American descent whose family was raised in a middle class neighborhood in Chicago, Illinois. They did not practice Catholicism with exceptional regularity, and Moira recalls associating Catholicism with the Catholic schooling that children from other families were able to receive, while her parents were unable to afford for her. By extension, she came to associate Catholicism with the upward social mobility that eluded her in childhood. She remembers her own family as being relatively poor compared to others in the area, and describes her sibling cohort as “kind of messy, unkept” and “the kind of kids you didn’t want to hang around with.”

Their shoddy appearance was the result of neglect from alcoholic parents. She recalls that when her father was drunk, he was quiet and distant. When her mother was drunk, she was highly critical. Moira learned at a young age that when she became sick her mother would stop drinking for a brief period of up to a few days to assist her recovery. Essentially, this was her first association between sickness and intimacy, a theme that would nuance her spirit conversion into a personal relationship with God decades later as an adult.

From her early childhood there was an even more serious source of stigma against which no-one could assist her: she had contracted polio. Because she was infectious other children were kept from her. She recovered without permanent paralysis

and attributes this good fortune to providence. Nonetheless, her schoolmates' habitual avoidance continued for years after recovery. Neglected by parents and avoided by peers, she came to feel as if she were "an unseen child." Accordingly, she believes she suffered from the absence of any self-concept. Her results from career placement tests taken as a teenager stumped the examiners; on one occasion she was told that her results were so un-noteworthy "it was as if [she] didn't exist at all." In terms of Kohut's self psychological theory, Moira had a pronounced need for mirroring selfobjects. Her subsequent conversion would provide for this psychological need in abundance.

She meandered in plans for a future career while searching for meaning in a life that appeared bereft of purpose. She graduated from college with a degree in therapeutic recreation and went into Special Education, but the crisis over her experienced lack of purpose was not resolved by this career path. She married a non-Catholic, and to preserve their harmony she de-emphasized her Catholic practice. Still, they were not happy together, and the marriage became further strained when her two young children became seriously ill. She refused to disclose the nature of their illnesses, but admitted that she was utterly unable to support them psychologically because their illnesses forced her to relive her own mental suffering from having polio in childhood.

She describes her conversion as a "healing journey" that began with her psychological scars leaving her incapable of supporting her children in their health crises. She felt alone in the marriage and had reached the end of her ability to be a mother. At this point she was "ready to try anything," and a non-Catholic, Pentecostal friend who realized her desperation suggested prayer. Moira and her friend began to

pray for her children and she claims that both children were healed miraculously; one child almost immediately, the other more gradually. She believes the power of prayer overcame her own inability to transcend her mother's legacy as an insufficient caregiver, and thus began within Moira a process of "inner-healing" from the sadness from her own memories. This narrative supports the ethnographic data documenting the common CCR belief that the agency of God is most likely to begin at the proximal points of deficiency in the human character (see chapter 2).

Convinced of the power of God, she returned to active Christian worship. For a time she oscillated between the Pentecostal church of her friend and her more familiar Catholicism, and eventually decided that she had the crucial "spark of experience" that made her feel a need to know about the reality of God, and now she would be able to discern that divine presence in Catholicism if indeed it was actually there. She was prepared to leave Catholicism if a direct experience of divinity were to prove unattainable.

She moved to a suburb of Chicago and became involved with many activities in her new parish. She quickly met people who invited her to their CCR prayer group, and there she found the direct experience of divinity she had begun to seek without leaving the faith she had loved and admired from afar through much of her childhood and marriage.

It is notable that for her the crucial determinant of Catholicism's legitimacy would not be based upon soundness of doctrine (as would be presumed from documents issued in the Catholic-Pentecostal dialogue), but rather her own experience of God. In

this respect she was similar to the other nine persons interviewed for this chapter. The intensity of her search for experience appears beyond that of the others. She drew a comparison with drugs on three occasions while describing her experiences of charismatic power:

And as I knelt down that's when I just felt this total rush, just the peace of the Lord descended on me this, again, this lull of this like, this life that's different, you know. It was just a very concrete, tangible experience and so, um, of course that experience is almost like dope – you want more, you know? This was good, where can I get some more of this, you know?

His outpouring is continuous and He never lets me get far and He brings me to a place of hungering for more. It's, you get a taste, you want to say again, I hate to use the analogy, it's like dope, that you get a little taste and you want more. And so, and other things just don't fill there. It's like, you know, you get you know the best dope in the world, the other stuff ain't gonna do it anymore. Well, I know, it's like nothing else is going to do it, and so you want more and you hunger for more and there is always more.

And so I do think that that childhood in a sense of trusting and believing allowed me to have a concrete experience of God as a child, but then I put that aside as I grew up, but then I really needed God and I needed, you know, something greater than myself, um, that I was grateful that I had my gift, that I had turned to that rather than if I didn't have my roots, I'm sure I would've turned to dope or God knows what else, you know, to get what I needed to deal with life.

These remarks show that Moira was a consummate seeker of experience.

The significance of experience for her consists in her belief that it constitutes an authoritative principle distinct from, and primary to, that of doctrine. She describes the Pentecostal experience of Christ's Apostles as the source of their legitimacy as leaders of the early Christian community, and believes that the experience of modern Catholic

Charismatics is essentially identical to that of these early followers of Christ, and every bit as legitimate as bona fide evidence of divinity. She explains that because Christ lived and suffered as a man, there could be no doubt that God understands the trials and tribulations inherent in human existence. Experience is therefore perceived as the primary means of legitimacy for God, Christ, the Apostles, and herself, and it also serves as the most logical means of connection drawing them “into an experiential connectedness.”

Her experiences of charisma include prominent somatic and emotional characteristics. After her first Life in the Spirit Seminar (a preparatory course to receive Baptism in the Holy Spirit), she reports an uncomfortable prodromal feeling of “emptiness” and “strangeness” lasting over two weeks that culminated into a sudden rush, a feeling of mental, emotional and spiritual tension, followed by a feeling of euphoria and eventually a profound sense of peace, and ultimately a desire for more. In some respects her description resembles what the DSM-IV TR describes as a *hypomanic episode* (see APA, 2000). A key difference between her experience and a mood disorder episode is that she describes the event resulting in a “purge of negativity” and a “lasting new awareness” of divine presence in the world.

She describes that on later occasions she would channel charismatic power through exercising the gift of healing, whereby she would pray and lay her hands upon others. She vividly recalls “the experience of the Holy Spirit’s anointing” as a feeling of electricity flowing through her hands and outward into the prayer suppliant. She explicitly refers to this anointing as “divine power”.

Through exercise of the healing gift, as well as that of glossolalia, she describes a sleeplike state whereby she is unaware of her surroundings, as if she were “temporarily brought up to heaven.” At one point she hedges at describing it as an out-of-body experience, as Catholic Charismatics associate this term with the much reviled “New Age movement.” Later in the interview she breaks the taboo and describes it as such. She also describes flux in perceived locus of control, whereby it sometimes seems as if an external divine other is praying, speaking, or actualizing healing through actions that otherwise appear to be her own. Through her awareness of surroundings as well as agency she experiences a particular manner of dissociation in tandem with what she describes as charismatic power. The ambiguous sense of agency is accompanied by an ambiguous distinction between self and divine other: when pressed for a source for the charismatic power, she explains that gifts require her willingness, but the power comes from “Christ within me.”

These experiences have shaped her personal understanding of charismatic gifts and her relationship with them. To exercise a gift requires the co-mingling of divine will and human willingness, a belief corresponding to her description of changed locus of control. She dichotomizes the intellectualization of gifts to experiencing them. She speaks in gifts not in terms of which ones she has, but which of them she has experienced.

She separates gifts into two primary categories: *supernatural* (including the gifts of classical Pentecostalism, including glossolalia, healing, prophecy, wisdom, etc.) and *natural* (idiosyncratic qualities of her person attributed to divine origins). Her

supernatural gifts include prophecy (involving the interpretation of inclinations to speak or act on behalf of the divine other) and healing (involving the sensation of electricity coursing outward into the prayer suppliant). The gifts of discernment and wisdom are interpreted inclinations that are used to interpret imperative inclinations (such as prophetic speech or healing prayer), and may be considered types of second-order prophecy. These gifts are evidenced by experience ranging from seemingly ego-dystonic ideation to somatic perception of channeling divine power.

She describes her natural gifts as aspects of her person that have changed or developed for the better for reasons attributed to the divine. She cites a gift of singing, which she says developed only in the context of the CCR. Prior to joining the movement she believes she had a terribly squeaky voice that was incapable of the song she produces today. (I have observed that she is among the most enthusiastic of worshippers, singing loudly and proudly, and almost always in key. Her singing voice is powerful, and not at all squeaky). She describes gifts of *courage* and *compassion* to reach out to those who need healing from God. This gift is mobilized in healing contexts including the prayer circle and assisting with laity-led healing ministries. She has received the gift of *peace* and occasionally has sensed this inner-state emanate outward through her hands (as a form of divine power) into a prayer suppliant. She describes gifts of *understanding* and *faith* whereby she has been able to achieve a greater understanding of the mysterious, ineffable aspects of Catholicism, and to mature as a worshipper of that religion. These latter two gifts are evidenced by a lasting “awareness of God’s spirit orbiting within [her].” While these gifts are believed to be the

result of the Holy Spirit's influence upon her for a divine purpose, she regards them as personal abilities and qualities.

Moirra recognizes that her gifts have idiosyncratic significance. She believes her need for experience has its roots in a childhood she feels left her little basis for trust. The proof of experience seemingly absolves the crisis of risk ("how would I know it's for real?") and meets a need to "go back to childhood" to heal that wound. The metaphor of healing was used in several instances to describe her conversion process, with the gifts emerging from personal shortcomings and weaknesses. Through the exercise of her gifts she became drawn into deeper relationships with other Catholic Charismatics, and has come to enjoy interpersonal intimacy that eluded her in early life. She has come to be regarded by other informants as a dedicated healer and a fearless prophet (that is, she says it like she hears it). Such a sharply defined image must be contrasted against the lack of self-image she described from her pre-charismatic life. Even the gift of song, which appears more superficial than the others, provides her the means to shine before her charismatic associates; to shine and be recognized for enthusiasm is to attain the mirroring that was absent in her youth. The gifts of prophecy and healing also offer prestige to the same end. In short, the gifts have given her much of what she was previously missing from life: intimacy, mirroring, prestige, a well-defined identity, a sense of purpose, self-value, and healing. Considering her childhood self-image as the polio-stricken child, her present gift of healing is a striking example of the overarching theme supported by all her descriptions of gifts: that charisma emerges from stigma. This association was more prominently asserted in her interview than in any of the

others. Like the others, experience is the ultimate proof of legitimacy for the gifts. In her case, this bypasses a difficulty to trust rooted in neglect and rejection in childhood.

Case 3: Marie.

Marie is an Italian-American woman aged 66 at the time of the interview. She attends weekly, serves in the prayer circle, and has become involved in laity-led healing ministries serving as one who places hands upon the afflicted and prays for healing. She doesn't consider herself a leader, but attends the core group meetings and speaks bluntly on the issues discussed. Others respect her opinions as forthright, reasonable, and well-grounded in faith. In the prayer group she worships enthusiastically but does not pray in tongues, prophecy, or enact any of the observable classical gifts.

She was born and raised on the South Side of Chicago. She describes herself as "a child of the 1950's"; her teenage years fell entirely within that decade and she identifies with the norms and values of that place and time. She grew up with a group of friends that regarded her as a "mother figure" that would look after the others, from comforting the dejected to making sure whomever had too much to drink would return home safely. Her parents were devout Catholics who taught her to love the beauty and mystery of the religion, and even as a mischievous teenager she recalls making frequent trips to the confessional, "because they were necessary" to remain a good participant in the faith. Her peer group broke up in her late teens when people began to date others on a steady basis. She soon began to date a man 4 ½ years older than herself, and they married when she was aged 22. The groom was a Lutheran, and had attained a secular divorce from his first wife. Although the marriage was in the Lutheran

Church it was recognized by the Catholic Church as a spiritual union. Without an annulment they were unable to become married within the Catholic Church, and had no choice but to attain a secular union. Marie was upset her marriage would not be sacramental in the view of the religion with which she had been raised to identify. It was the beginning of a schism from a tradition that she felt had become part of her.

The married couple began to establish what was considered a normal family of that time: the husband worked in a unionized factory job and the mother stayed home to raise their children, eventually 5 in all. Their children, his work, and eventually his slowly increasing drinking habit always seemed to interfere with the emotional intimacy she hoped they would share. After 14 years of marriage he agreed to pursue a Catholic annulment of his previous marriage. When they were finally able to marry in the Catholic Church, Marie was relieved. In the midst of this reconciliation with her faith, the promise of greater intimacy was never more believable.

Unfortunately, three years later her husband lost his factory job. She had to enter the workforce to support the family while he searched for a new job. Marie was content staying at home with the children and resented the role reversal. She never became accustomed to the burden of providing that customarily fell upon the shoulders of the husband. After floundering for a year doing part-time work he found a full-time job doing menial work in a warehouse. He became depressed being surrounded by “lower class people” and doing work beneath that of his previous job in manufacturing. His new co-workers would drink and use drugs on the job, and increasingly he would join them. After three years he quit the job to avoid the social substance abuse, but he had

become an alcoholic who would even drink in bed. The marriage became overstrained from his alcoholism, failure to provide, and her dissatisfaction in the role of provider. For seven years he struggled to maintain employment in menial part-time jobs while she supported the family.

Her struggle was increasingly confounded by his alcoholism. After quitting a menial job in 1985, she hired a divorce lawyer and briefly separated from him. She returned to the marriage only because he agreed to a 28 day inpatient alcohol detoxification program and then to begin Alcoholics Anonymous. She remembers proudly that this was the moment he finally began to conquer his alcoholism for good.

While he learned to control his alcoholism through Alcoholics Anonymous, she learned how to support his efforts to stop through Al-Anon. Both programs involved engagement with a higher power. As time passed and the approaches proved themselves effective, both spouses experienced a renewal in their interest in God. Al-Anon and AA only engaged “a higher power,” while Marie and her husband desired a more specific, and “less muddled” form of spirituality, one that focused not merely upon “a higher power,” but rather one that explicitly centered on Christ.

Marie began to attend church regularly, and became involved in many different religious activities. While assisting a Eucharistic minister, she met Bernadette, whose interview was described in this chapter. Bernadette invited her to the charismatic prayer group as she invited the investigator 7 years later. Baited with the promise of long denied intimacy, Marie was closer with him than ever before. In her spiritual life through the CCR, she also was seeking greater intimacy with Christ. At that time her husband

became interested in converting to Catholicism. He began to attend church regularly and they began to worship together for the first time. He even visited the charismatic prayer group, but didn't feel comfortable with that style of worship. Nevertheless, Marie came to associate Catholicism with intimacy (with her husband and with Christ) and release from the burdens of his alcoholism and having to support the family on her own.

Their children were finally grown, and for eight wonderful years they worshipped together and grew closer than ever before. Then he was diagnosed with Cancer in 2002 and died within the year at age 66. She was devastated with the loss, and still feels resentment over the timing of the death. She asks herself, "Why did he have to die now that circumstances finally allowed us to be together?" Her crisis became one of loneliness, an experience she was unable to bear. She begged her daughter and son-in-law to allow her to live with them in their basement. Because of previous associations between religion and intimacy, Catholicism and the CCR would provide Marie a logical alternative to the isolation she suffered in the wake of his death.

At her first visit to the charismatic prayer group 12 years ago (at age 52) she was exposed for the first time to the display of the charismatic gifts including glossolalia, prophecy, and healing. She reports being initially repulsed by them, and knew right away that she would never be able to worship in that fashion. Despite this, she remained with the group because she liked the people. She was impressed because they were so enthusiastic, caring, non-judgmental, and avoided speaking poorly of each other or anyone else. They were living as Marie imagined the Christian ideal ought to be. Most importantly, she desired to become part of the group simply "because of the

love in the room.” This love drew her to them as it drew them to each other, and more than made up for their bizarre displays of the charisms.

She draws a distinction between *Charisms* (including glossolalia, prophecy, healing, discernment, which in throughout this project are collectively referred to as “classical gifts”) and *Gifts of the Holy Spirit* (personal qualities with divine origins). She reconciles the two terms by postulating Charisms as a sub-category of Gifts of the Holy Spirit. She further distinguishes a third term: *Charisma*, which she describes as an aura of the person deriving from their love for Christ. It manifests in an attitude that can influence others on behalf of God. With regard to the charismatic prayer group, she was repulsed by their *Charisms* but drawn to their *Charisma* and *Gifts of the Holy Spirit*. She claims to experience none of the “charisms,” but does experience “gifts of the Holy Spirit.” Her self-described gifts include faith, devotion, goodness, being non-judgmental toward others, her prayer life, and her relationship with Christ. She believes that despite their divine origin the charismatic gifts become part of her person, and this is concordant with all but her prayer life and relationship with Christ being personal qualities. All of her self-stated gifts are described as inseparable who she has become. She believes that charisms also become part of the person, although never having experienced them. For her, the lack of experience is tantamount to an absence of credibility on the issue. Here we see experience being cited as an authoritative principle, in her case being invoked to explain her posited lack of understanding about the classical gifts of Pentecostalism that were institutionalized through the Catholic-Pentecostal dialogue (labeled as “charisms” in her discourse).

She explains the authority of experience by citing the dichotomy between *Knowing About God* versus *Knowing God*. *Knowing About God* is informed by the religious tradition of Catholicism with all its doctrines, traditions, rules, regulations, and regimentation. Spirituality constrained by this experience-distant understanding is believed shallow in comparison to that which develops from *Knowing God*. This experience-near spirituality is characterized by a personal relationship involving an intermingling of human and divine essences whereby “God is part of your soul, living within you.”

The experiential event that Marie cites as proof of this intermingling was on a single occasion 12 years ago. The experience recounted was from Resting in the Spirit following a Life in the Spirit seminar to prepare her for Baptism of the Holy Spirit. Along with dozens of other charismatic worshippers she was anointed by a nun who was internationally known in the CCR. She reports pressure on her forehead being administered by the nun, who “wasn’t going to let me go!”. This cue to fall “in the Spirit” was also observed in the ethnographic component of this study discussed in Chapter 2. In addition to this cue, she also described somatic experiences including a downward pressure upon her body with her “legs going out” from beneath her. After falling she felt physically relaxed, and remembers smelling the fragrance of flowers. Emotionally she felt a profound sense of peace despite the event “not being completely my idea”, a reference to the sensation of the loss of control to the divine other as well as the intentional cue to fall provided by the charismatic nun. Because she didn’t completely lose sense of her own agency, she considers the experience one of only being “partially

slain” in the Spirit. Nonetheless the experience was sufficient to convince her that the critical event of Spirit Baptism had occurred: “the Holy Spirit was infused in the soul.”

This infusion of the divine into herself believed the basis for future development of the deeper type of spiritual intimacy with Christ. It is this experience of intimacy that Marie seeks from the CCR. She acknowledges that intimacy with Christ buffers the loss of intimacy she has experienced since the death of her husband. For this reason the charismatic prayer group has taken on new importance over the past five years, and has become a “weekly refueling station” for perseverance, a personal quality she feels is essential to her present life. She continues to attend Sunday mass and the Catholic religion continues to be an important link to her past. She feels that standard Catholic mass is too solemn and impersonal to provide for her need of intimacy with Christ. The prayer group provides her much-needed intimacy with Christ, as well as with others.

Marie’s conversion has little to do with the doctrines or regimentation of Catholicism. She was drawn into the faith in an attempt to reclaim intimacy she long desired with her alcoholic husband. Five years after his death, the experience of intimacy with Christ has drawn her further into the CCR. Her experience of Baptism of the Holy Spirit is cited as evidence that her soul has been infused with the Holy Spirit, the giver of the charismatic gifts. While her self-described gifts are attributed to an influence of the Spirit, they are personal qualities that are inseparable from the self. So strongly does she feel about this point that she describes the purpose of the CCR as “to develop a renewal in ourselves and share it with others.” These points are contradictory to conversion as it should exist according to the Catholic-Pentecostal dialogue

described in Chapter 2, which has declared that doctrine must supersede experience as the basis for religious knowledge. Her description of charismatic gifts as inseparable from the self is similarly contradictory to the view of charisma in the institutionalized prayer group context, where charisma is held to be absolutely separate from the self.

Case 4: Peter.

Peter is a 70 year-old Mexican-American man from the South side of Chicago. He remembers being raised in a time and place where Americanization was a glorified cultural ideal, and is proud to have come from an Americanized, English-speaking home. He also prides himself for learning Spanish as an adult through speaking with Hispanic co-workers. He appears to be similarly proud of his religion, neighborhood, and present-day nuclear family. His speech is logical but emotionally expressive at the appropriate moments. His considerable influence within the group is certainly related to his outgoing temperament, communication skills, and interpersonal intelligence.

Peter's description of his childhood was decisively miserable. This was largely due to the influence of his father, who was an abusive alcoholic. This manifested as physical, emotional and psychological abuse directed toward others in the family, including him, his siblings, and his mother. As a young man, one of his most painful memories was fighting his father in an effort to protect his mother. The presence of a large extended family within close proximity to his home did not seem to have a buffering effect. In fact, it provided a context that normalized these occurrences, as alcoholism was common throughout his family.

Eventually his mother divorced his father. She took with her only the youngest child, who was a girl. Peter still experiences a profound sense of rejection regarding this event. He and his brothers were left to live with his father, whose drinking and abusive behavior only intensified, and resulted in the loss of his job. Peter remembered wanting never to become like his father. This was the first life goal mentioned in the narrative.

Soon after his mother left, Peter began to get into a lot of trouble. He became affiliated with a gang and sustained several life-threatening injuries, including one instance where he was attacked with a machete. His violent disposition led him in and out of correctional facilities throughout his young adulthood. Eventually he spent some time in jail as a young adult.

During his incarceration in county jail, he wrote to his girlfriend, suggesting that she move on with her life. However, his girlfriend remained with him, and after his release they became married and started a family. He was making a comfortable living working in construction. At the same time, his alcoholism was getting more severe and he was becoming very abusive to his family. Shortly before the age of 30, he was able to save enough money to buy his very own house away from his old neighborhood. The attainment of this home was the fulfillment of a second major life goal: to own his own home by the age of 30. His family moved from Chicago to a nearby middle-class suburb, and his drinking became less severe. His abusive behavior subsided accordingly.

He and his family (his wife, 3 boys and 3 girls) began attending the local Catholic Church regularly. His religious participation at that time was unfulfilling, as he described

worship during that period as a process of “going through the motions”. At the age of 40, Peter recalled a profound feeling of having so much, yet missing something important in his life. In retrospect, he recognizes this dissatisfaction as his calling out to the Lord.

Shortly thereafter, Peter recalls that the Holy Spirit answered by sending him and his wife on a religious marriage encounter weekend. During this event, he learned to get in touch with his emotions in a new way, resulting in a new closeness with his wife. This would lead to their attending other religious events together, deepening their faith as they deepened their relationship. They were approached to contribute talks at religious events and did so. After being invited by associates in Marriage Encounter to a charismatic prayer group, they attended their first meeting in 1980. He accepted the invitation because it came from well regarded associates. Although initially repulsed by the bizarre displays of charismatic gifts, Peter remained involved primarily out of desire for a personal relationship with God. He soon went through a Life in the Spirit Seminar and was Baptized in the Holy Spirit. From this point, he characterizes his religious development in terms of “new awarenesses.” He also began to seek God through the bible, and was taught by religious friends about certain ways to go about reading it. Peter says that later in life, the Lord helped him to come to forgiving terms with his father for his abuse, and his mother for abandoning him.

Peter’s story begins with a terrible home life. A sizeable portion of the transcript was devoted to his elaborating the hellishness of the home environment in which he was raised. His relationship to each of his parents was shaped dramatically during this period. Each relationship is important, although his relationship with his father was very

distinct from his relationship with his mother. His mother's abandonment affected him profoundly. Peter cried while recounting this memory. The relevance of this rejection will be further explained shortly, but first his father shall be discussed in detail, for it is the paternal relationship that will provide the cardinal developmental theme of this analysis.

Peter's most heartfelt wish from his early life was his desire to never be like his father. His image of his father as a violent, abusive, alcoholic divorcee was the concise description of what he most feared to become. His interview describes his development into this dreaded identity, and then further development into his present self, a man ever-aspiring to be closer with God and family.

From the beginning of his recollected childhood to the present, there was always a profound tension. As a child it was his contempt for his father and the abuse the family was subjected to. This contempt was antagonized by his mother's abandonment, especially after he tried to protect her so many times from his father's abuse. The terrible irony of her abandonment bestowed a certain paradoxical quality to this pre-existing tension. As a teenager the tension continued through gang affiliation and the chaotic lifestyle that came with it. This angst continued into his young adulthood, as his incarcerations only seemed to make him angrier and more prone to violence.

The fact that his girlfriend remained with him during incarceration would present tension of a most curious nature. At that time, he was not by any means the most eligible bachelor. He was a violent convict and there was little reason to choose him as a life partner. Even he fully expected her to abandon him, much as his mother had in the past. In fact his girlfriend did the exact opposite. This unexpected loyalty has a

redemptive quality to it, in a certain way confounding his mother's abandonment. In context of his life story up to this point, her loyalty was an epiphany. Paradoxically, however, their marriage had an unexpected consequent: Peter now approximated more closely his father as he remembered him in childhood. After all, he was a violent person previous to his girlfriend remaining with him, and now he was married to someone who knew he was violent but loved him anyway. As they began to have children, the scene was being set for a rebirth of Peter's dreaded home environment. And within this new, albeit familiar environment, Peter assumed the dreaded identity. Much like his father, Peter had become an alcoholic whose abusive behavior toward his wife and children had spiraled out of control.

Meanwhile, Peter had been working in construction, in a job much like his father's. He was earning a good wage and saving effectively. While aspects of his home life were becoming more terrible, his living (and the financial stability of the family) was actually becoming much better. These parallel trajectories were another source of the paradoxical tension that was rekindled by his wife's redemptive acceptance. Clearly, in his narrative this tension characterizes the third decade of his life.

At about the age of 30, Peter attained his goal of buying a home in a better neighborhood. This event was the first in the narrative that can clearly be classified as part of his development *beyond* the dreaded identity he had embodied. This new home not only distanced him from his alcoholic family (who provided a context in which that behavior was commonplace), but it also distanced him other alcoholic social networks, including many of his coworkers. Because this move situated him far from many

contingencies of his alcoholic lifestyle, it was a momentous event in his evolution beyond the dreaded identity he had become. This change in residence also signified a rise in socioeconomic status- from a lower class to a middle class neighborhood. This economic stability also distinguished him from his father, who took Peter and his siblings to public showers because they could not afford their own.

But the attainment of this goal did not make his tension vanish. On the contrary, he was unfulfilled, and this feeling increased during his 30's. He described it as a void in his life- the feeling that there must be something more to life than what he is living. Considering how he had attained so much, this dissatisfaction was a paradoxical tension indeed.

This feeling of missing something persisted through ten years of unfulfilling church attendance. After he and his wife attended the religious marriage encounter weekend, they began to grow closer together, and his religious participation began to take on a great deal of meaning. Concurrently, this tension took on a new, religious meaning: it became a ceaseless thirst for God. In time, his increased religious commitment would bring him into contact with like-minded persons involved with the Catholic Charismatic Renewal. Peter described the development of a personal relationship with God in terms of a series of "new awarenesses", will be described more thoroughly in another section of the paper. Peter describes his present hunger for God as spanning the entire process of this personal transformation, a process he considers the single most important charismatic gift he has known.

The CCR is a religious movement that is decidedly conservative in orientation. However, as enthusiastic as his prayer group can be, Peter still manages to stand out as one of the most highly committed worshippers. He is a highly committed husband, father and grandfather. His life story suggests that he has always been highly committed to something or other, although at different times he has been committed to very different kinds of things. This section will explore the transformation of his commitment over time.

The story begins with an abusive home environment. Within this environment Peter's mother was commonly a target of his father's abuse. Peter describes his vigilance in defending her from this. After she leaves, spurning his commitment to her defense, he soon becomes committed to crime and the streets. His commitment to gang life led him in and out of correctional facilities and prisons. Each incarceration gave him legitimacy among gang colleagues (an incentive for further gang involvement), but also represented a type of commitment in itself. That Peter was captive only reinforces the fact that his participation in prison life occurred *24 hours a day*.

While in prison his girlfriend demonstrated surprising commitment by remaining with him, but he did not fully reciprocate for a long period of time. Soon after his release they married, but his weekends were being spent in bars with his alcoholic friends and co-workers. Just like his father, drinking consumed his time and crippled his capacity to be a healthy husband and father. During his mid to late twenties, his commitment was to alcoholism.

Fortunately, during this period he was also committed to his work. He stated commitment to the parts of his life lived away from his wife and family. After he attained his new home in the country this changed. With newfound geographical distance from his alcoholic family members and co-workers, his commitment to the alcoholic lifestyle was greatly diminished. As a sober man, his commitment then turned toward his family.

It was about ten years of solid familial commitment, and meaningless religious participation, before Peter and his wife's marriage encounter weekend. After this event, his commitment to Catholic religious life skyrocketed. Because he and his wife worshipped and participated together, they brought the religion into their home and made an effort to bring up the children as Christians. Peter thus describes his increased commitment to his family as enabled by his commitment to God. He goes on to explain how the intensification of his religious commitment coincided with the intensification of his spiritual development. He describes this development in terms of a process of new awarenesses, the topic of the following paragraphs.

When I asked if there was one turning point in particular for his spiritual development, this was his response:

The one thing I noticed with just about everybody is that they are in a process. It's a growth process. A revelation process, in their lives, learning to grow in their understanding.

Within the narrative, Peter's explicit references to revelation involve qualitative developments in his comprehension of God. The first of these occurred on the marriage encounter weekend, when he "began to get in better touch with [his] own emotions." He

recalls learning “that God has a plan for our life, and that we have to call upon him for that plan to be worked out.”

Subsequently, he and his wife became much more committed to Catholic religious events in the form of contributing talks and helping to organize them. On one such religious retreat, he realized who Jesus was and what he did for us. To be more specific, Jesus Christ became seen as a person rather than an icon. He describes learning that Jesus did things for “us”, thereby bonding Christ with Christians within an emotionally laden component of an interpersonal relationship. In other words, Peter’s relationship to Christ became understood through a sense of owing.

As time went on and he began to visit the Charismatic prayer meetings, he says that “God impressed upon [him]” a desire to have a personal relationship with Him. Soon thereafter he was Baptized in the Holy Spirit, affirming his commitment to the CCR. The revelation that occurred to him at the moment of this experience was an awareness of God in his life, and within him. This awareness of God was ineffable yet distinct from anything he had felt before. For him, the experienced awareness of God and revelation of God’s activity in his life serve as the primary bases of legitimacy for the Spirit Baptism.

Peter claims that after the Spirit Baptism he and his wife shared another important realization: “when [they] put God first in [their] relationship, everything else falls into line.” In other words, they understood a connection between devotion to God, prosperity, and familial harmony.

Another revelation occurred at an uncertain point in time, although it probably was not long after his Baptism in the Holy Spirit. Peter had just received the sacrament of communion and was meditating upon the cross when he realized that, because Christ was perfect and had committed no sin, it should be him “up there” (i.e., on the cross). He goes on to explain that what Jesus did for him (dying to bring about an undeserved redemption) broke his heart. From Peter’s view, “what Jesus did for *us* became what Jesus did for *me*.” This leap in understanding was likened by him to the difference between knowing about God (the communal debt being asserted through doctrine) and knowing God (corresponding with the personalization of that debt). Contrary to the writings from the Catholic-Pentecostal dialogue, he clearly places experience over doctrine as true font of spiritual knowledge.

Peter also came to certain revelations about the afterlife, and as a result he has reconceived certain aspects of mortal existence. For example, he now believes that God intends for many things to remain mysterious to us. In his words:

God reveals some things to you, and to others He reveals other things. Some things we’ll be able to understand, and some things are going to remain mysteries. The only time they’re going to be revealed to us is when we’re with Him in His presence. So I tell my wife, she’s going to have to wait ‘till she gets to heaven because she really doesn’t know it all. (laughs)

This demonstrates that the process of revelation is believed to continue for the remainder of his life, and will be concluded only in heaven, beyond his death.

Part of Peter’s revelation is the ongoing reconsideration of his life history prior to Spirit Baptism. The most pervasive retrospective revelation was that there was really no such thing as luck in his life. Where he used to believe he was lucky to have survived

several near death experiences, he now sees that he survived because of God's active involvement in his life. Even when it comes to having the wife he does, he is glad to acknowledge his good fortune, but he also denies that it was due to luck. He also believes that his own abilities as a mortal man were insufficient to explain how he wound up with the wonderful family he has today. He now gives God the glory for all of the good things in his life.

Another retrospective revelation was crucial to his ability to forgive his father. This was the realization that his father also had a terrible upbringing. When he told of how his father had to go to full time work at the age of 6 to help support his family, tears came to his eyes. It was as painful and as tragic as his childhood memories.

These retrospective revelations demonstrate that the process of revelation is also partially constituted by the "ignorance" that temporally preceded these new awarenesses. Although these realizations occurred in his religious life, their collective import consists in his sweeping reconceptualization of events extending from generations before his own birth (the lack of positive socialization in his father's childhood) to beyond the grave, when the process of revelation is concluded in heaven. As such, the process of revelation is particularly fitting as an Axis of Continuity in his life story.

Peter manifests the gift of glossolalia, and believes it is legitimate primarily because of an experienced shift in agency whereby "it feels like the Holy Spirit is producing the speech." He also claims to have experienced prophecy and discernment, involving the privately experienced inner-inklings to speak or act that are believed to be

“from God.” However, he discounts their spiritual importance compared to the charismatic gift of revelation because it has brought about his own personal transformation. Generally, the charismatic gift is considered to come from God but becomes part of the self through willing acceptance and action (he acknowledges that the glossolalia, prophecy, or discernment could be stifled if he chose to do so). In the case of the gift of revelation, it is considered inseparable from the transformation between the self of Peter today and that of Peter’s childhood. Only with the gift of revelation grafted upon these contradictory self-images can he reconcile them in a broader sense of self-continuity.

Case 5: Paula.

Paula is a 57 year old woman raised in the North-Eastern U.S. whose parents were French-Canadian immigrants. She is friendly but reserved, and in the prayer group interacts with an apprehensiveness suggesting an expectation that others might somehow disapprove of her. I have never observed such disapproval. She is well regarded within the group, being one of the few persons who began attending during the period of my fieldwork who became invited to participate with the core group, many of whom have been friends of each other for decades. Prior to the interview I knew little about her beyond her husband’s disapproval of her involvement with the CCR.

Paula described her upbringing as “traumatic.” The figure with whom she identifies most closely is her mother, who was a Catholic nun prior to marriage. Although she left the order to marry, she continued to be staunchly religious (hyper-religious, from her husband’s view) in marriage. Paula would have her own dreams of

becoming a nun, but abandoned this course just prior to the completion of her religious education. Her motivation was identical as that of her mother; she eventually wanted marriage. Nonetheless, Paula now feels a sense of failure for becoming a physical education teacher instead of joining the Sisterhood. Paula's mother was involved with the CCR in the mid 1980's, approximately two years prior to the beginning of Paula's participation began, she acknowledges the CCR has been was partially compensatory for her feeling of vocational regret. Paula remembers her mother avoiding sexual contact with her husband whenever possible, and raising Paula to be fearful of the sin she believed was inherent human sexuality. Her own marriage is similar today, for as will be explained shortly, these teachings were seemingly validated by other experiences with others within her family.

Her father and two older brothers were alcoholics. The father was "a quiet drunk," but the brothers would become aggressive. Her eldest brother began to sexually molest her when she was 9 and he was fifteen. This continued intermittently until she reached age 13, which was when he joined the military. After that she was raped by him on one additional occasion when he returned home on leave. She recalled that on one occasion when he and a friend were molesting her, her other older brother – two years her senior – stumbled into the bedroom, and upon taking in the spectacle, narrowly escaped attack from the older brother. She recounted this experience to explain why she never told her parents: in her childhood, "nobody knew and nobody wanted to know." Although her brother would sometimes physically coerce her, he also told her

that she would be in terrible trouble if their parents found out, and so she came to believe that the transgression somehow was her own.

She believes these circumstances shaped her childhood image of God as distant and judgmental. She related to him through a sense of fear and guilt. These served as reasons for her continued religious participation until college, when she lived with a roommate she could not coerce with guilt to attend church with her. Having resigned herself to being a bad Catholic, she wouldn't return to Catholicism until she became engaged to a non-practicing Eastern Orthodox man. Her parents refused to attend the wedding unless it was held in a Catholic church. The groom capitulated by attending a course for conversion to Catholicism, but this would be the last of his participation in any religious tradition.

Perhaps not surprisingly, he turned out to be an abusive alcoholic, and reacted with predictable hostility when she decided to raise their three children in the Catholic tradition. It was at this point, when she insisted upon passing the tradition to the next generation, that she became involved with the CCR. She forced her children into Catholic worship until the age of 18, and they have since rejected all organized religion. Nonetheless, beginning in the late 1970's her involvement in Catholicism intensified, and through immersion in social networks of the ultra-conservative laity with similar interests she became involved with the CCR beginning in 1988, at the age of 38.

Participation in the CCR continues to test the patience of her alcoholic spouse. On some occasions he has warned her not to attend and she "gave in and stayed home," but at other times she would resist him – perhaps intentionally provoking him –

with her continued participation, with or without his approval. She explains that to survive her difficult marriage she needs to be close with God, and that intimacy is something that she has come to know through the CCR. Through the revolutionizing of her relationship with the divine from an experience-distant adjudicator to an experience-near source of hope, she describes her religiosity as changing from being driven by *fear of God* to *love of God* and *fear of being without God*.

When she first attended a CCR prayer meeting, she was repulsed by the outward expression of the gifts such as glossolalia, prophecy, and healing. The freakishness of the whole affair made her question whether she belonged elsewhere. These gifts only became legitimated over time through experiences associated with her own deepening personal relationship with God. She attended charismatic events with a strong desire for direct experience of divinity, and after her fourth charismatic healing mass she succeeded with a peak experience while Resting in the Spirit. As people prayed over her she began to feel physically weak, and recalls trembling without understanding why. She remembers giving up her volition in the traditional fall into the arms of strangers. In this surrender she experienced a release of pain and anger, followed by an overwhelming sense of love, peace, and connection with God. While these are themes commonly discussed in charismatic settings, they were also the emotions absent from her most important familial relationships. She is aware of their compensatory benefit to her emotional health. She also reported feeling as if electricity were running through her body. I have never observed open discussion of this topic in any charismatic setting. Soon afterwards she began to experience the presence of God, and would interact with

this perceived other through speech utterance, mental narrative, and contemplative prayer. Experiencing the presence is encouraged in charismatic group contexts and her methods correspond with group processes of interaction and prayer discussed in the previous chapter.

The gifts have mediated a transformation of her orientation to the life she lives. For many years she had a need for security. Now she experiences security to such an extent that retrospectively she re-evaluates her childhood as being partially shaped by a divine protection that she never recognized until her relationship to God had matured in a personal sense through the CCR. Her primary fear now is of being without God. She emphasizes the distinction between “need” as an objective aspect and “security” as subjective experience.

Due to profound self-doubt, she claims to “have problems” with the institutionalized gifts, including glossolalia and prayer. With regard to her glossolalia “not flowing freely,” she acknowledges that she has been shutting God out of her life to a limited degree. She also doubts whether glossolalia is real. Recently, however, she was surprised when another member of the prayer group produced a glossolalic statement she believes she uttered privately the day before. She interprets this as a sign that her glossolalia truly comes from God. She belongs to the prayer team and prays for those who ask, but privately doubts “whether God’s presence has built up within [her] enough” to effectively exercise the gift. Her difficulties with glossolalia and prayer are related to difficulties in channeling (my term, not hers) the divine power through the Charismatic maxim, *Letting the Spirit Lead*:

I don't feel that – that I'm a really good praying. I try and I try to place myself in God's presence and let Him come through me. But I don't know if in straining to do that if I'm blocking Him, you know, with cluttering up my head with what should I say or something of that nature instead of letting Him work.

Contrary to the conclusions of the Catholic-Pentecostal dialogue, her religious participation is clearly driven by her personal experiences rather than the experience-distant dogmas of the Church. Because of these experiences she would desire glossolalia as an outward affirmation of this experienced intimacy. For her, tongues would now take on new significance because it would seemingly “prove” to others what she already “knows” subjectively to be true: the intimacy she shares with God.

She describes her certainty as rooted not in experience rather than doctrine. While the classical gifts of glossolalia and healing provoke inner conflict, the idiosyncratic gifts involving emotional and bodily experience have become seen as inseparable from the development of her life orientation from fear of God to fear of being without God. In direct opposition to what informants reported in charismatic group settings (see chapter 2), she states belief the gift is part of the person. It is hardly surprising that the idiosyncratic gifts of her person (and not the classical gifts that have become usurped by the institutional Catholic Church) have become the basis of her current faith.

Case 6: Rose.

Rose is a 67 year old Italian-American woman born and raised on Chicago's south side. Her description of youth was scant of details due to what she described as a “completely normal” upbringing. Her father “drank a little bit but it never became out of

control.” Her parents had a good relationship and none of the children were neglected or abused. Like most children in her neighborhood, the parents kept strict control over her social life. Unlike her Sister, Rose never regretted this, which earned her a reputation within the family as a “goody two-shoes”. From her view this image isn’t fair. The discordance of her self image from the image that others share about her continues to this day; while she claims she isn’t a “holy roller,” the centrality of God and religious participation in her life continue to suggest otherwise to some relatives and friends. She describes her most controversial moment at age 15 when she told her parents she had become engaged to a 20 year old man. They married when Rose graduated from High School, and as her parents learned about her husband’s decency, they eventually accepted the union.

Rose describes three life events that led her to seek a more personal relationship with God than what she had learned through mainstream Catholicism. The first was the death of her parents from respiratory illness and cancer within the same year. The second was her failure to get any doctor to pay attention to the cloudy patch in her infant son’s eye that eventually developed into cancer requiring removal of the organ. Both events occurred well into her adulthood, and both provoked anger with God. The third event was the death of her daughter-in-law to cancer. The funeral occurred the weekend before a pre-planned trip to the Catholic Shrine at Fatima. She remembers the journey as an attempt to seek divinity with more sincerity than ever before. After each of these events she was confused about why God allowed it to happen. Through her prayers and those of her fellow worshippers in the charismatic prayer group, she has

come to feel peace through reconciliation with God. Ultimately, she believes each successive improvement of the rift between her and God contributed to the depth of the personal relationship she claims to share with him today.

This personal relationship is the core of her religiosity. In 1979 she was briefly exposed to the CCR when her closest friend Emily invited her to a prayer group (not the St. Sebastian group). At that time she had no relationship with God and was unable to understand the CCR, which she interpreted as bizarre. She explains her relationship originated two years later in 1981, ten years prior to her second exposure to the CCR. At that time she had experienced much hardship and loss from sickness and became interested in visiting shrines for intercessory healing. Through this she became involved in the Cursillo movement. The *Cursillo* (which translates from Spanish as, 'little course') was originally designed in the 1950's to train laity for leadership roles to assist in pilgrimage to shrines. It lasts three days in all, features up to fifteen talks by priests and laity, and draws attention to the importance of pilgrimage experience through personal engagement with divinity. The movement's popularity caused it to spread internationally and within a decade of its inception it had far outgrown its initial purpose of preparation for pilgrimage leadership. Many informants regard Cursillo to be a precursor to the CCR. Rose describes her first direct experience divinity with the sacrament of communion administered on the final day of her Cursillo, which she marks as the beginning of her personal relationship with God.

She became a volunteer in the Cursillo movement and continues to participate at the present. She considers this her primary religious movement, even more so than the

CCR. Because of the personal relationship with God that began in her Cursillo, she was eventually able to understand and appreciate the CCR. Ten years later her friend Emily, by then a stalwart attendee, invited her to the group they now attend together. Rose found previously bizarre worship to be more understandable in light of her own relationship with God. From the CCR she derives fellowship with like-minded others who value a personal relationship with God as she does.

The reinforcement of this personal relationship with God is the primary lure for her to remain involved with the CCR. The secondary gain is socialization with her beloved Emily and their mutual friends. She claims that the charismatic gifts have been less important for her. She explains that the charismatic gift is given by God, and if the person accepts and exercises it, the gift then becomes part of the person. From her view, transference of agency (from divine to human) mediates the gift's transformation from a manifestation of divinity to a manifestation of humanity with divine origins.

Rose understands charisma as an "aura" of holiness that comes from the self-denial inherent in one's intentional obedience to God's will. It is constituted by the love that characterizes the personal relationship. While charismatic worshippers are believed to be more likely to have developed this crucial aspect of their spirituality, she also believes that all persons, even non-Christians, have their own charismatic aura. Charisma is understood as "the love of God that draws you to him through the hearts of his worshippers."

Charisma is associated with a type of power that comes from devotion to prayer, which contributes to a certain "private status with God," that is to say, intimacy with

divinity. She believes that by virtue of her relationship she is “closer with God than the average Catholic who just goes to church on Sunday.” Charisma accordingly implies a type of divine authority on par with that of the ordained orders. She feels she is “just as good as [the priests]... insofar as I have a personal relationship with God, I don’t believe He sees a difference in our stations in life.” Rose invokes the implicit threat to Church hierarchy in an observation that the enthusiasm of the CCR has been stifled considerably by Church authorities over the past 15 years. She believes the expression of the charismatic gifts have become more rigidly controlled as the prayer groups were relocated from homes to Church settings. She attributes the changes to hierarchical desires for a more manageable religious movement.

She isn’t dejected by this grasp for power because she claims to never have been interested in the classical charismatic gifts they have begun to institutionalize. Surprisingly, she claims to reject glossolalia: “I pray I never get it.” Her glossolalic friend Emily is frustrated by this and suggests she simply hum a bit instead, but Rose refuses. She also prays she never is compelled to prophecy before the group. She proudly proclaims she has never had the gifts of glossolalia, prophecy, wisdom, or discernment. The only classical gift she acknowledges is the gift of healing. She believes that her experiences of suffering from disease and loss have developed in her a devotion that is heard and recognized by God in intercessory prayer on behalf of others. This gift is believed to be integral to her person based upon the life she has lived. She also recognizes gifts that are completely idiosyncratic. She describes herself as having “a gift

of being very giving.” This is also described as part of herself rather than an external divine agency.

The criteria for legitimacy of these gifts fall within the realm of experience. She claims to have experienced Baptism of the Holy Spirit in the Cursillo movement ten years before returning to the CCR. She believes it marked the beginning of a personal relationship with God. Her experience began as one of profound ambivalence: Over the three day retreat she experienced a “psychosomatic illness” involving body aches and anxiety that she attributed to her own fear of experientially confronting God. Nonetheless, on the final day she took (i.e., ingested) the sacrament of Communion. Immediately afterwards she described somatic experiences including a rush (insisting it was not a ‘tingling,’ as others have intimated with her) and physically feeling God inside her body for the first time. She gestured around her solar plexus to demonstrate where this sensation was strongest. Her interpretation was concrete: while God had long been “in [her] head,” he was now “in [her] heart.” This was accompanied with a change in emotional experience from ambivalence to overwhelming love. She was so relieved that she had received God for the first time that she cried for an hour. This was her only spirit baptism.

On one occasion she experienced Resting in the Spirit at a healing mass. Prior to this she had desired for God to enter her and for her to receive the gift of healing on behalf of loved ones sick and dying. When anointed upon the forehead she described a temporary dissociation and loss of agency before falling. For her, the experienced loss of her own will corresponds with knowledge of the divine presence. For hours afterward

she remained dazed in a slightly altered state she described as “twilight,” accompanied with bodily exhaustion.

Like the other informants, Rose describes her religiosity as legitimated by somatic, emotional, and agentic experiences that marked the beginning of her personal relationship with God and harkened the arrival of her gift of healing, respectively. For her, her religiosity is validated by these experiences and the daily experience of her relationship with Him. It certainly is not validated by doctrines, as the Catholic-Pentecostal dialogue concluded. She compares ritualized Catholicism without experiencing a relationship with God to “a mediocre marriage... it’s just there, you know what to do, you do it, and that’s it.” She remains involved in the CCR because it offers fellowship with others who place similarly high value upon an experientially-grounded relationship with God.

Case 7: Margaret.

Margaret is a 62 year old woman of Irish, English, and German descent who was raised on the South side of Chicago. She remembers her parents as supportive but distant. Although they tended not to show overt affection, she attributes it to their cultural backgrounds and believes they were quite loving. She was much closer with her Sisters. She was the third of five in all. Her Sisters provided much of the love, camaraderie, and loving rivalry that is so prominent in her description of childhood. She was emotionally intertwined with them and identified closely with them. When Margaret was five one of her older Sisters contracted Polio. Fear and stigma descended upon the home, and Margaret, who described herself up to that point as “a space cadet, a flighty

child,” began to experience extreme and persistent generalized anxiety. She has never sought psychiatric treatment. She considers it characterological, describing it as “a part of who I am.” The alleviation of anxiety through resolution of psychological turmoil would be a recurrent theme in her later conversion experience with the CCR.

When her Sister became ill Margaret began to visit her in the hospital on a weekly basis for about one year. There she met relatives of others stricken with polio, and they began to meet weekly in the hospital chapel to pray the rosary in hopes that God would move favorably to spare their loved ones from death or disfigurement. At this early age she thus became situated within social networks eager for active, laity-led worship within the Catholic religion. She remembers these prayer sessions providing relief from fear that was temporary, but it was the only source of relief she was able to find. She recognizes that patterns of healing prayer she performs in the CCR are for her rooted in childhood fear and anxiety for her diseased Sister.

With her learned orientation toward the active supplication of divine will and within her social networks of friends, associates, and their families, she became further drawn into other forms of participation in Catholicism, most notably “Marriage Encounter,” a three day program, focused upon improving communication and enhancing respect and intimacy between married couples, that is formatted much like a Catholic retreat. Other laypersons involved in that retreat invited her to a charismatic prayer group, and this was how she first came upon the movement in 1977. She liked the enthusiasm of the movement and attended until 1979, stopping when her personal associates who had introduced her to the movement, and with whom she would attend

in a group, stopped attending because of other commitments. Twelve years later she began to have more problems of intimacy with her husband, which had brought her to the Marriage Encounter to begin with. Feeling somewhat alone in a difficult marriage, she happened one night to take a wrong turn down a parish corridor to meet a friend for another activity when she stumbled upon a charismatic prayer group. At this time her sensed lack of purpose in life and need for intimacy resonated with the CCR's emphasis upon cultivating a personal relationship with Christ. She has stayed in the movement ever since because she believes the Charismatics have something she wants... a sense of purpose, happiness, and peace, and intimacy- with Christ and each other.

Margaret's understanding of charisma is that it is a god-given and that it initially manifests as something "inside myself." All charismatic gifts are given for the same purpose of building up others for the benefit of the *Church* (she elaborates the term as denoting the world, and not merely the Catholic Church). Like the other informants, she believes that acting upon a gift is in perfect accordance with God's will. To constrain a gift by not acting upon it results in "keeping it down inside," amounting to its rejection. In such a case the charisma is believed by her to vanish. After speculating aloud she concludes that a gift being willingly used results in it becoming part of the self:

INTERVIEWER: So would you say a spiritual gift is separate from the person who has it?

MARGARET: Well I think it's part of the person. I think it is. Because I don't think God just takes it away. So then it's got to be a part – if God is a part of us and God gives us this gift, then we should make it a part of who we are and use it for building up. I don't know. So I guess, in that respect, I don't – I guess I think that the gift is – well except if you don't use it, then how can – I still think. I'm going back to my original answer. It's part of the person because God has gifted

us with – God has given it to us, you know, as a part of who we are. And I think God gives you gifts according to who you are. So, in other words, you know, maybe God – maybe there's certain gifts God might say, well you know what, I'm going to give to you, Margaret, because I know who you are and what, you know, and so I'm going to – and that will help Me, you know, you can build up My Church more by – if you have that gift.

A charismatic gift need not manifest mysteriously to be recognized as such. Margaret believes that gifts can emerge from the personality when the person's qualities are used for a divinely-inspired purpose. The instrumental quality of such features is attributed to the divine, while using the gift (such as speaking in tongues, uttering prophecy, or simply drawing new visitors into to the prayer group with love and caring) imposes an element of human agency necessary for it to remain understood as part of the person who received it.

She makes a distinction between the “gifts listed in the bible” (i.e., the classical gifts including glossolalia, prophecy, healing, discernment, etc.) and gifts of the person. She denies having any of the classical gifts and claims to never have wanted them. They appeared strange to her, and in any case she was more interested in an expanded experience of God. Toward this goal she cites several characterological gifts: being caring, personable, having love for God and others, common sense, and an enhanced awareness of God's activity in her everyday life.

She remembers having a “sense of God's presence” ever since childhood and implicitly assumed she knew God. The CCR appealed to her desire to cultivate that feeling, but over time she has come to believe that prior to the CCR she didn't know God as well as she thought. She recounts her Baptism in the Holy Spirit following a Life in the Spirit Seminar as a catalyst for the development of her sense of God's presence

into a more full way of “knowing God” through love, something that requires a personal relationship. The experience of knowing God is held to be the basis for religious truth, and serves as the most convincing basis for scriptural legitimacy. This belief of experience trumping doctrine as the basis for religious truth is antithetical to the conclusions of the Catholic-Pentecostal dialogue.

An enhanced experience of God in everyday life is cited as one basis for the legitimacy of her Spirit Baptism. According to her reckoning it is further supported by the gradual and continuing development of qualities she has long admired but been without, including confidence, peace, and a sense of purpose in life. Her use of experience and personal development as the basis for legitimating her Spirit Baptism further supports her stated view that the charismatic gift is not distinguished from the self.

She also recalls a peak experience involving Emily’s recovery when her tumor disappeared in spontaneous remission. Margaret rejects the spontaneity implied by the medical disposition. As she prayed for Emily on the morning of her surgery, she envisioned the tumor on her ribcage and the hand of Jesus reaching into her side and pulling it out. She recalls hearing a sucking noise as she envisioned the tumor pulled through her skin. She shared the experience with Emily, who told her of her own vision while undergoing the mammogram (described elsewhere in this chapter). These experiences have helped them to conclude that Emily has received the gift of healing. In this case Margaret’s experience serves as a basis for the perceived unity between the gift of healing and the self of her close friend Emily.

Case 8: Emily.

Emily is a 69 year old Italian-American woman born and raised on the South side of Chicago. She has an older Sister and a fraternal twin brother with whom she would always share a lovingly adversarial relationship. She describes her family as tightly woven for reasons beyond the typical love that would ideally bind the nuclear unit. Her family and one that lived next door were the only Italians living in a predominantly Irish enclave. At this period in Chicago's history immigrants competed fiercely for scarce resources, and Italians and Irish often harbored mutual animosity. Although she describes her family as stigmatized for being Italian, her family "preferred to socialize with the Italian neighbors anyhow," and so her family's isolation from the surrounding community was at least partially self-imposed. They remained distant for other reasons as well; her father was an illegal immigrant and during that period even marriage to an American citizen such as her mother would not have prevented his deportation. Finally, Emily remembers her family being poorer than most others in the neighborhood. All of these factors contributed to her early childhood being characterized by a sense of stigma, isolation, and suspicion toward others around them.

From her view as a child, her sense of socioeconomic stigma seemed reified as children became segregated into two groups: the Catholic school kids who came from financially secure families and the public school kids such as Emily whose families couldn't afford such an education. She loathed watching the more affluent children march to and from school in their uniforms while sneering at the public school children, "get away from us, you steal everything." She claims that the Catholic school children's

families were rewarded for their financial support of the parish by entering the Church in the rear door that faces the tabernacle and having the best seats in Sunday mass, while she (like the other public school families) had to enter a smaller side door and take the less prestigious seats off to the side and rear. For these reasons Emily believes she came to associate Catholic education and Catholicism with socioeconomic advantage. By an extension of logic, from the age of 5 she believed that greater access to Jesus Christ encapsulated that which the more affluent kids had, and what she coveted.

By five years of age she had begun to pray to Jesus in an attempt to cultivate a personal relationship that she believed her lesser social status would always deny her. At the age of 8 she first accepted the Eucharistic host, the Sacrament where Catholics ingest the bread and wine they believe has been transformed into the body and blood of Christ. After consuming the host she describes experiencing a vision in which Jesus said to her (she remembers hearing the voice with her ears) “I have many rooms in my Father’s house.”, and imagined him taking her and showing her all kinds of rooms. She describes this as the occasion where her personal relationship with Christ began and therefore points to it as her Baptism in the Holy Spirit despite the time being over thirty years prior to the CCR beginning at Duquesne University.

This vision left her with a desire to deepen the relationship she believed she now had achieved with Christ. She began to attend daily mass every day as she continues to the present. At age 14, while some other girls were becoming interested in boys, she had decided she wanted to become a nun. She muses about her desire to join a religious order being based upon a misunderstanding that she would literally become a

“bride of Christ” complete with marriage ring, wedding dress, and ceremony. At 15 she was allowed to spend some time in a convent and decided she wanted to proceed with the initiation. However, the order desired to know about the religious history of her family and when they asked for personal information on the backgrounds of her parents, her father feared giving information that could be used to deport him and promptly withdrew her from the convent. She was devastated and felt as if her father had prevented her impending marriage to Christ. Although she now believes she was meant to marry her current husband (a deacon) and help to raise their three children, she still thinks of Christ as “a lover”:

INTERVIEWER: What does that mean?

EMILY: What is a lover? Tell me what a lover is to you. Somebody who hears you. Somebody who holds you when you’re feeling really down. Somebody who says come and put your head on my chest and let me hold you while you tell me what pain you’re in. That’s what He is to me. He’s my beloved. So – and I know everybody has their own – how they look up to him. I went on a retreat once and they said go take some private time alone. I went into the chapel and lay prostrate asking Jesus “oh please Jesus, forgive me for all the sin.” You know? And all of a sudden, I heard Him say to me, “Let’s dance.” And we had to go on and find the symbolism that we would bring home. I have a rock at home that says “beloved, let’s dance” and I have to remember there’s a song and a dance. You know? And when – [inaudible] just gave that talk not too long ago, I thought you’re right, I’m the Lord of the Dance.

She goes on to explain that she literally heard a voice that was simultaneously sensed as “a feeling,” or “a beam.”

In an attempt to ever broaden the relationship with the lover that fate would prevent her from marrying, she extended her participation in as many aspects of Catholicism as she was able: retreats, pilgrimages to healing shrines, marriage encounter, seminars for the rekindling of religious interest in adults, teaching in Sunday

school. She became involved with the Cursillo movement, which she describes as helping her to develop her personal relationship with Christ. Through Cursillo she met people who invited her to attend a private prayer group in the home of a Cursillo member, and thus she became involved with the CCR in the mid 1970's during the early phases of the movement. Then, as now, she describes being "in love with Him" and having "a need to know Him more."

Attending her CCR prayer group makes her feel as if "I'm being fed" – as if a psychological need for Christ is being met on a weekly basis. This is the motivation for her initial involvement and continued participation into the present.

When asked about the nature of Charisma she found it difficult to describe without considering specific gifts. One commonality is that charisma draws people to God through other people. She also believes every person has spiritual gifts, and that they are distributed according to need. She explains that while some of the classical charismatic gifts such as prophecy and healing are dramatic, there is no need for everyone to be a prophet or a healer. Charisma is associated with divine purpose. In her own case, she linked it to her eventual understanding that while she originally wanted to join an order and become a bride of Christ, God intended for her instead to be married to a man who is a deacon, have a family, and live her spiritual life as she does today. At the basis of charisma is love, which binds Charismatics to Christ and by extension to each other. She believes that love is the greatest of the gifts because it can "build a person up, and make them feel chosen," drawing them closer to God. When

someone puts another person's hand into that of God, she believes in that instant the person *becomes* a gift.

Emily's understanding of Charisma in relation to the self varies according to gift. When she first entered the CCR and saw the Charismatics praying in tongues, she was intrigued. Upon learning its significance as a "sign of being in with Jesus" she immediately wanted the gift. However, for her it arrived unaccompanied by any particular sensory, emotional, or agentic experience that would provide verification of its legitimacy. She was quite disappointed and although she continues to pray in tongues, her dejection has served to remind her that the most important aspect of her religiosity was always that which the gift of glossolalia demonstrates, namely intimacy with Jesus. She has since kept her spiritual focus upon cultivation of this intimacy in her daily life and in the charismatic setting where possible. Emily believes the gift of tongues is separate from the person with whom it manifests; it is the Holy Spirit that she believes utters the mysterious prayer. However, she also discounts the importance of this gift, and reduces its importance to whatever attention it can bring to the importance of cultivating a personal relationship with Jesus.

Emily's description of the gift of healing is more intricate. She speaks of it in two distinct contexts. The first regards a priest with the gift of healing whose prayer masses she has assisted many times. She believes the power is real but it is not part of the priest, but rather is a manifestation of divinity that is channeled through the priest for the overarching purpose of drawing people closer with God. This corresponds with the model of charismatic healing advanced by the Catholic hierarchy that has resulted in the

institutionalization of healing through the roles of healers being usurped by the priests from the laity (see chapter 2). The second way Emily discusses the gift of healing is in terms of the recipient. In one case she mentions a woman who injured her ankle while climbing to the mountain shrine at Medjugorje and the woman's injury vanished after witnessing with Emily what she described as unusual animal behavior and weather phenomena corresponding with a brief appearance of the famed visionaries. The second case involved Emily herself. Doctors had discovered a tumor on her ribcage and after performing a biopsy decided that it should be surgically removed. She asked the prayer group to pray for her over the weeks leading up to the surgery. When the day came, she was given one last mammogram prior to surgery. She began to meditate during the procedure and experienced a vision in which she sensed the presence of Christ and he said to her, "Be still and know that I am God." The doctors were unable to find the tumor. Although doctors called it spontaneous remission, she bases her interpretation of divine healing upon the striking experience of Christ during the mammogram. In the latter two cases healing is described as something that is received rather than administered (as with the priest). This model of healing corresponds with the one that charismatic laity invoke in contestation to the efforts of hierarchy to completely dominate charismatic healing in the CCR (see chapter 2). In this context the gift of healing is understood by Emily to manifest in the transformation of the physical body, and therefore is inseparable from the recipient.

She goes on to describe her own idiosyncratic gifts, including openness, hospitality, warmth, and caring. These are described as aspects of her personality that

have been developed through an intimate relationship with Christ. She believes she has the gift of love, and that people are drawn to her acceptance of others. When they learn the source of that love as rooted in her love of Christ, they think more seriously about matters of faith. She considers the gift of love integral to who she is as a person. She also describes a “word gift,” which she explains is akin to prophecy insofar as it involves divinely inspired speech, but unlike prophecy the agency of the speech is always her own. Although the inspiration to speak comes from God, she considers this gift part of her person.

Her conception of Baptism in the Holy Spirit was also more elaborate. She described one meaning as the infusion of God into the soul, and identified this spiritual event with the Sacrament of Baptism that Catholics administer to infants. A second interpretation is the awareness of God’s dwelling within the soul. In her case, this awareness began at age 8 when she first accepted the Sacrament of Communion and heard the voice of Christ. Her third interpretation is the “ritualized baptism” that is intended to take place in the Life in the Spirit Seminars designed to introduce mainstream Catholics into the movement. She believes many Charismatics experience the awareness (meaning 2) of the Spirit’s indwelling (meaning 1) at this ritual (meaning 3), but in her case she believes the Life in the Spirit Seminar only reinforced the importance of the relationship she already had with Christ. Accordingly, she experienced nothing unusual during the charismatic ritual. At many charismatic healing masses she has Rested in the Spirit. Her certainty of its spiritual legitimacy is similarly based upon a familiar combination of somatic, emotional, and agentic experience in the

forms of bodily relaxation, peace of mind, and an enhanced feeling of the presence of Jesus.

For Emily, the cultivation of experience legitimating her personal relationship with Christ lay at the core of her participation in the CCR. Contrary to the official conclusions of the Catholic-Pentecostal dialogue, experience is clearly described as deeper spiritual knowledge than that which comes from doctrine alone. Experience is also cited to “prove” the legitimacy of charisma. For the priests who wield a gift of healing but presumably experience little out of the ordinary, charisma is seen as separate from the man. However, charisma in other circumstances, including when the gift of healing is bestowed upon the sick, is described by her in various ways as being inseparable from the lay person to whom it manifests. This is contradictory to the way charisma is described in the prayer group context, where the predominant view is of absolute separation between the divinity of the charismatic gift and the profanity of the human self.

Case 9: Laura.

Laura is a 59 year old woman of Irish-American descent who was raised on the South Side of Chicago. She identifies the most significant conflict of her upbringing stemmed from her parents being from different Christian traditions. Her mother was Catholic and wanted her to follow in the steps of that religion, while her father, being Lutheran, did not. This was a point of contention between them in an otherwise happy marriage. The conflict bothered Laura immensely. This may have been implicated somehow in her fainting whenever she would smell the incense at Sunday mass.

Although she cannot explain why she would faint, it was understood she would then be carried out by loved ones and ushers. The whole scene was very upsetting to her relatives and not surprisingly she was excused from attending Sunday mass from the age of 8, and her religious participation was henceforth limited to Sunday Catholic education.

By age 17 she had become old enough to make her own decisions to worship, and had outgrown the phase of her life that featured the religious conflict between her parents. At that age she experienced a new desire to return to Catholicism of her own accord. Her participation was cursory, describing herself as “a 45-minute Catholic,” a term alluding to the typical length of one Sunday mass. Outside of mass she rarely considered matters of religion for much of her early adulthood. She had a brief but difficult marriage in her early 20’s that ended in divorce. In retrospect she admits the marriage was poor but attributes the quickness of its disintegration to their mutual disregard for the sacrament of marriage, something she cannot ignore any longer with the deeper religious conviction she holds today. At that time in her life she knew something of God, but says she had no personal relationship with him.

In 1978 she married for a second time. Justin, her current husband, was from a Baptist background. She described themselves as having their own strong beliefs, but respecting each other enough not to challenge them. In her new inter-denominational marriage, the transference from her parents’ religious conflict became strong, and she became motivated to “gel with him” religiously. This began with her attempt to explore a Baptist bible given by his mother. She found the old English language repellant and

longed for a more familiar approach to the Bible. Unfortunately, her Catholic education gave her little direct exposure to biblical scripture. To remedy the problem she accepted an invitation from a Catholic friend to attend a weekly Bible Study Fellowship seminar at her local Catholic parish. Here she would meet others who would invite her to the local Charismatic prayer group, marking her entry into the movement.

In the CCR she learned to “fall in love with Jesus”. This was the qualitatively distinct relationship with God that had thus far been missing from her life. The relationship became punctuated with social emotions, in particular the realization of reciprocity of love between her and God. As she became part of the Charismatic prayer group she also came to perceive this love existing between God and others. She accounts for the timing based on her own readiness to open up to God, and does not believe this change in perception was thrust upon her. On multiple points she stresses that this was not driven by understanding of Catholic doctrine. She even denies “having a need,” but offers that she instead “experienced a draw to God” and his love. Her emphasis upon experience rather than doctrine as legitimating religious belief was unsolicited by the interviewer.

Her discussion of Baptism of the Holy Spirit further demonstrates the primacy of experience over doctrine. In her case it was associated with the phenomena known as “Resting in the Spirit”. In the following passage, the legitimacy of this conversion event is supported by dissociation and changes of perceived locus of control, as well as emotional and somatic experience beginning with her readiness:

LAURA: Originally I didn't understand what it was. I was scared of it. So I didn't do it. And then when we went to the Charismatic Renewal, I went, [my husband] didn't go. And I was more open to it and I accepted it. They laid hands on me, and there was four of us. The two that were praying over me and then I was with another girl. And I was accepted – I was acceptable to it then. I wanted to receive it. And it just was like such peace, such lightness, such – it's just such calmness. And I just felt completely relaxed and I just couldn't move. And I couldn't speak and I couldn't move and I just wanted to just not do anything. Just stay there. And then the lady said, "She's resting in the Holy Spirit." I was sitting, though. And I just had no awareness of what was going on around me. I just – was just there. And then I knew that I had to come out. I knew that I had to go on and – and come back to the world. So that's when I was telling myself, you know, or the Holy Spirit was telling me, okay now – it's okay to come back. And so I did. And it was like – I was just like so tired and relaxed. My body felt like weight lifted off me.

Notably, the praxis of Resting in the Spirit (including falling and dissociation under the watchful eyes of others who are loved, all within a sacred space) is practically identical to the hysterical reactions of her younger years that resulted in her removal from Sunday mass, thereby resolving her parents' conflict over her practicing Catholicism. She acknowledges that her involvement in the CCR was further able to heal her inner conflict by offering aspects of Catholicism and Pentecostalism that allowed her and her husband Justin, born into a non-Catholic family, to unite more spiritually as a couple. This was something her parents were never able to achieve.

After Baptism in the Holy Spirit she describes her orientation toward life beginning to change from the "worldly" to "the spiritual". By "worldly," she denotes her own acceptance of local American cultural norms regarding daily life, marriage, and sexuality. She cites her failed marriage and her preoccupation with trashy television and literature as examples of her old orientation. Her newer spiritual orientation prompts her to reject the nonchalance of sexuality, marriage, and morality in general, along with a

desire to see things as God sees them; that is, to reject what he rejects, and to embrace what is good in his eyes.

For Laura, becoming entwined into this relationship with the divine results in the intermingling of the human self with the divine other:

LAURA: I think that when you know about Him, He's a stranger. He's just like knowing a stranger. But when you really know Him and have a personal relationship with Him, He's not a stranger anymore. He's – He's – He's part of you. He's your father, He's your husband, He's your creator. And He knows you better than anyone else. And you have a love relationship with Him. Before you just knew of Him and He was just like there. You know, He's there... But now, since we have a personal relationship I can talk to him anytime.

As her relationship with God became personal, her religious differences with Justin became more pronounced. Retrospectively she considers herself a religious seeker who had discovered what she was looking for. When she had made up her mind to remain Catholic and continue with the CCR, her husband's nonparticipation became intolerable. She asked him if he would attend, and although he initially was taken aback with the glossolalics was able to continue attending with her. *She says, "And I don't remember if he was agreeable to it, but he did go. So evidently he must have been".* My impression was that the invitation was intentionally imperative.

Laura equates charisma with the Holy Spirit, who she also says gives the gifts. When asked to name the gifts of the Holy Spirit, she included patience, peace, and love. Notably, her examples are personal qualities or emotions rather than the active phenomena of the so-called "classical gifts" (i.e., glossolalia, interpretation of tongues, healing, prophecy, discernment, etc.). When asked if the gift is separate from the person or part of the person, she responded decisively:

LAURA: Yeah. I think it's always been there. It's always been there. But the Lord, the Holy Spirit brings it out at a certain time when He – when He decides you need it. You always have that gift, you just don't know – you just don't know it until you need it. And then He brings it out for that particular use.

She then wavers on her initial explanation of charisma being comprised by the Holy Spirit:

LAURA: The Holy Spirit, I think, gives the gift. I don't know if He's part of the gift, but He gives – He allows you – He gives you the gift and allows you to use it. So I guess He would be part of the gift. If He's letting you use it in this respect.

This shows that charisma is understood to involve the intermingling of the human and divine. It is clearly both, but this presents a problem. Based upon the fieldwork of this project I believe she was struggling to convey this perception in a manner that is acceptable to her religious tradition. In Catholicism Christ is considered the main transitional object between God and man, and the hierarchical institution is positioned as an earthly mediator between Christ and Christian. To describe charisma as an intermediary phenomenon between the individual person and the divine is obviously threatening to such doctrine, yet there is also an obligation for her to share her faith as she understands it with one such as myself who seeks to understand. This, I believe, was the primary source of her conflict. For purposes of this project, however, it is most notable that her explanation of charisma is oppositional to the model described in chapter 2 whereby it is absolutely distinct from the person.

To further press the case that charisma is described as inseparable from the person, the following is her explanation of Baptism of the Holy Spirit in terms of personal transformation:

LAURA: [Baptism of the Holy Spirit is] when the Holy Spirit – I’m trying to put it into words. When the Holy Spirit envelopes your body and becomes a part of – a part of you. When you become aware of it.

INTERVIEWER: So baptism of the Holy Spirit also involves a change in awareness?

LAURA: Yeah.

INTERVIEWER: What sort of change?

LAURA: That you know you have the Holy Spirit in you and your mind and your thinking is more like God. It’s not like the world.

The inseparability of charisma and self is further supported by her explanation of what she considers her most important spiritual gift:

LAURA: He’s given me the gift of loving people. And making them feel welcome. When the new people come into our prayer group, I want them to feel welcome. I want them to feel a part of it. I want them to know that there is love there and that we love them. I want to tell them how much Jesus loves them. He has – the Holy Spirit has really impressed upon me His love. He wants me to be His disciple and tell them how much He loves them. Love. This is what – the gift that He has given me is love. You know? I’m not saying that I am – I don’t have other feelings. You know? But the love is what I am – what He wants me to tell everybody how much He loves them.

Clearly, while this gift of love is believed to come from God, it also is considered part of the self.

Case 10: Justin.

Justin, a 63 year old male of Anglo-Saxon descent, was born and raised in a small town in rural Illinois. His parents divorced when he was an infant and his mother re-married before he could remember. His nuclear family was very closely knit, and he considers his stepfather to be his “real dad.” Unlike Laura’s parents, both of his parents

had a common, nominally Baptist orientation. However, like her parents, his also had a religious rift between them; she was an ardent worshipper, while he was non-practicing. Although they loved each other very much, this was a primary point of division between them.

Justin's father refused to attend church, so on Sundays his mother would bring the children and leave father behind. Their service was small and intimate, with a total congregation of less than forty well-acquainted persons. The preacher would teach about scripture boldly and extemporaneously to the unbridled enthusiasm of the attendees. After each service there was an "alter call," whereby any layperson could come before the podium to speak to God through the pastor, or to speak divinely inspired thoughts directly to the audience, who would react with approval assuming the message was content- and stylistically appropriate. These aspects bear striking similarity to the Catholic charismatic prayer group he would join with his wife many years later, including its size, structural layout, procedural approach, a relatively scriptural orientation, and even the display of certain charismatic gifts including prophecy. Glossolalia was discouraged in his Baptist church because they believed it was meaningless and therefore worthless as a tool to unite the congregation. Part of his future conversion would involve a re-interpretation of glossolalia into a symbol of intimacy with God and as a means of "edification" (a charismatic gloss for unification of self and group) with other Catholic Charismatics. In both places a feeling of belonging was critically important to his sense of religious satisfaction.

The fly in the ointment, so to speak, was that his stepfather wasn't attending along with them. Eventually his mother told him "he needed to come to church with them," and to preserve harmony he conceded. Justin remembers this making him feel as if the family were "perfectly rounded out and united", even in spiritual matters. It seemed as if everything were as it should be. With a step-parent their family was never quite traditional in the locally understood sense, but this spiritual "gelling" of his family gave the 10 year-old boy a newfound sense of security.

In high school he developed other interests and attended less and less often. During this time his belief in God continued but the relationship with him that had developed from his intimate Baptist environment began to be "put on the backburner". Justin wasn't concerned about this, as he had become absorbed with issues of teenage years including dating, work, and sports. His life was satisfying and he felt little need for divinity, attending church intermittently except for holidays. After graduating high school he moved to the Chicago area to seek work, and was unable to find a place of worship like the one to which he had become accustomed, and so he became completely non-practicing.

This remained so until age 34 when he married Laura in 1978. She was Catholic and as previously explained, seemed content (at least in the beginning) to live with religious differences between them. He was aware religion was becoming more important to her, and attended his first Catholic service early in the marriage. The experience was not pleasant. He recalls being raised to see Catholics as "being different". He also felt confused by the regimentation, and did not know when to sit,

stand, or kneel. Nor did he know the prayers or creeds that are recited at every mass. The parish seated 700 persons at once and the layout was completely pre-determined, with the priest seemingly in complete control, and nobody else was allowed to speak. The style of preaching was far less bold (and less interesting) than that in the Baptist Church of his youth. Perhaps the biggest obstacle was that the service seemed so impersonal, since the room was so large and nobody seemed to know anyone else. The whole affair seemed like “gibberish” to him.

Nevertheless his wife Laura became increasingly insistent, and over the next decade the issue would increasingly divide them. He also had his own misgivings about becoming too distant from God over the years. Feeling pulled by her desires for him to convert and his desire for a renewed religious life, but being repulsed due to what he describes as an “anti-Catholic upbringing” and lack of understanding or appreciation for the regiment, ritual, and depersonalization of Catholicism, he began to feel alone. This began to manifest as psychological distress. Throughout the day he would experience sweating along with a sense of worry that fluctuated from diffuse fear (of what he did not know) to a foreboding feeling “that the world was going to end.” At times he became so nervous he feared he would soon have a heart attack, and the sense of generalized doom became fear of his own death. He became concerned with issues of life after death and felt he “was not right with God.” This made the decision to return to some form of religion more pressing for him.

His retrospective description of distress is consistent with what is classified in the DSM-IV-TR (APA, 2000) as “Generalized Anxiety Disorder,” but he never sought

psychiatric care. Instead he sought counsel from religious professionals. He contacted a pastor from his old Baptist Church who refused to discuss the issue, since Justin no longer attended that church. Justin felt rejected and did not follow on the referral he was given to visit a local Sister church. Discussion with a Catholic priest about why the Catholic ritual of “Baptism of Intent” could save one from damnation was predictably confusing. The priest argued that a course in the faith would answer his questions. Since he felt “out of options” he decided to begin a three month course for the Ritual of Catholic Initiation for Adults (“RCIA”). The course taught him about the religion and prepared him for the sacraments. It was during this time that he realized his Baptist upbringing, while wonderful in its own ways, had left him quite misinformed about Catholicism. Through understanding more of its intricacies and rituals he became fascinated, and came to love the idea of conversion. When the day finally came for the Ritual (in 1996) he was about to undergo his first Catholic baptism when he recalls hearing what he believed to be the voice of God inside his head saying, “Welcome”. To experience God so immediately was interpreted by him as a sign that he made the right decision. He was immediately relieved and his generalized anxiety has not since returned. It was the first time he had felt such relief in over a year.

He and Laura renewed their marriage vows in the Catholic Church. They were now able to worship together and grew closer as a couple. While he understood Catholicism more on its own terms, and appreciated its merits, he still missed the intimacy and energy of Baptist worship. He had made friends in the RCIA course, and shortly afterwards they were invited to a Charismatic prayer group. He eagerly pursued

the CCR's primary conversion event, Baptism in the Holy Spirit. Just as with RCIA, the legitimacy of Spirit Baptism seemed to be proven by his immediate experience:

JUSTIN: ...when [the priest] put his hand on my head, it felt like – it felt like he lifted me up off the floor. And I felt very warm and very – it was like I was floating. And I wasn't aware of anything – anything around me, anybody around me or anything like that. It was just – I knew that he was touching the top of my head, but it was like – it's like he was holding me down to keep me from rising up higher. I felt a very peaceful – a floating type feeling. And this went on through the whole ceremony. And then when it was completed, then it was like I was back. I was in the church.

The above description includes references to somatic (levity, warmth) and emotional experiences (peace), and an element of dissociation. In other charismatic phenomena, such as with glossolalia, he would also experience an externalized locus of control.

For Justin, the experience proves there is legitimacy to the praxis and doctrine. However, the classical gifts that had become institutionalized by the Catholic hierarchy through the Catholic-Pentecostal dialogue were met with marked suspicion. Glossolalia was an obstacle for him. He was raised not to worship in tongues. Moreover, he was taken aback when one woman in the prayer group noticed he and Laura were reticent to praying in tongues and suggested they “go home and practice speaking in tongues”. The mere idea that practice could bring it about seemed to prove it was a skill of human and not divine origin. Surprisingly, Justin would eventually come to manifest the gift of tongues. He views its importance toward others as symbolic of the mystery of God, and believes that beyond that “it will not bring anyone salvation”. However, to him the gift is precious because of what he experiences “when it happens”: a change in the sense of locus of control whereby the extemporaneous flow of speech appears to have been taken over by an external, divine other. This experience of God's presence reminds him

that God is close even throughout most of his week when he cannot experience such phenomena. His certainty that glossolalia can have legitimacy is derived from experience. By extension, by that same experience is the Catholic doctrine of the gift legitimated. This is a reversal of one of the primary conclusions of the Catholic-Pentecostal dialogue, that experience must be legitimated by Catholic tradition and doctrine.

In the prayer group Justin found a more intimate environment that was more open to extemporaneous worship (although not so much as his original Baptist Church). Over the past 10 years he and his wife developed many close friendships in the group and Justin regained the sense of belonging he realized he had been without since straying from religion in his High School years. Like Laura, he believes the CCR has been most important to him because it has served as a “no man’s land” whereby the two were able to “gel” together as a couple, despite differences in their previous religious traditions. He acknowledges that the structural and procedural aspects of the prayer group remain more immediately understandable than does the more traditionally contemplative Catholic tradition. He credits his wife’s insistence for this common worship for bringing him back to God, which he recognizes paralleled his own mother’s insistence that his step-father worship with them. This concession gave Justin a sense of relief that he lost as he strayed from religion. The mounting anxiety did not abate until he was grown and made the same concession to his own wife, which predictably brought back the same sense of relief and imparted upon their union a renewed sense

of wholeness. Today they have become so close that his speech suggests a perceived intermingling of their personal agencies:

JUSTIN: And you wonder why I didn't start earlier? It just wasn't the right time, I guess. I – I had to make that decision. You know God was there waiting, but I had to make the decision through Laura. Praise the Lord.

On a later occasion, Justin recounts that he had asked a charismatic prayer group to pray on behalf of two acquaintances with cancer (one cancer of the colon, the other of the prostate). He was praying “by proxy”, meaning that he was acting as a representative for others who could not (or chose not) to be there. The prayer group of four laid their hands upon him as their prayers drifted into glossolalic chant. He remembers becoming “woozy”. Soon a sensation of “electricity” was sensed throughout the body, and he remembers the hair standing up on his arms. With the others’ hands still upon him, he felt as if his body were swaying from a force beyond his control. He then sensed a “band of energy three or four inches in diameter” that formed a ring around his torso, and then felt it go from his torso to his thighs and back to the torso three times. His description seemed at least partially related to his understanding of how an MRI machine scans the body, though he did not state this explicitly. He was completely convinced that he had experienced the hand of God upon him, and that the ring of energy was the mechanism through which he would know healing was taken place. The experience was so convincing in his mind that I had to ask explicitly to learn that both persons did recover from their cancer. Yet our conversation was about his experience of God rather than the efficacy of divine healing upon others. It seemed as if the experience would hardly have been less convincing if they hadn't recovered at all.

For Justin, experience has heralded the renewal of an old relationship with God (on the occasion of his Baptism into Catholicism), and subsequent peak experiences have become seen as evidence that the ongoing relationship was burgeoning even in the mundane moments of his life.

Because charismatic gifts are believed to manifest at the proximal points of human weakness, and because Justin once experienced persistent fears of dying, it is fitting that one of his self-described gifts is the ability to comfort people in mourning through his volunteer work in funeral services. He also acknowledges praying in tongues as a gift, but clearly values this less. He believes that spiritual gifts are inseparable from the soul and even the body because “it enables you to do something... with your mouth, hands, brain, or motivation to control your abilities... to do God’s work”. This was by far the most concrete interpretation of gifts being inseparable from the self. He describes charisma in terms of a love between person and God. This love relationship is believed to form a legitimate substrate for divine agency to act through classical gifts such as glossolalia, but he has only become convinced of their legitimacy through his own experiences of the divine. He believes the Holy Spirit is not the gifts per se, but acts through them. In his description the intermingling of human and divine agencies in the gifts corresponds with the inevitable intermingling of agencies in the charismatic relationship, where two entities, one human and the other divine, share one common love.

Conclusion: What Would Weber Say?

Despite the idiosyncrasies noted in each case study, certain notable commonalities are observable. All except for Peter were raised in homes where religious commitment was the norm and where their religious participation began at a very early age... this was also true for Justin, who was raised in the Baptist tradition. Childhood familiarity with religion certainly contributes to the intimacy that characterizes CCR spirituality, but intimacy with Christ may also be related to close relationships with persons in the religious orders. Bernadette had two uncles who became priests. Laura idolized nuns, as did Emily, Moira, Margaret, and Paula who almost joined an order. As a child, Margaret believed her Aunt being a nun helped bring divine intercession to spare her sister from Polio. Justin's mother wasn't in an official order, but she was an active preacher in their Baptist Church. Since early life almost all of these informants were close with people believed to have a certain intimacy with God based upon their position. All of them presently have friendships with priests or nuns.

The Role of Experience in Establishing the Legitimacy of Charisma in Relation to Self.

All ten informants described charisma as constitutive of self (as implied by terms including *body*, *mind*, *soul*, *person*, or *personality*) when accepted by the free will of the phenomenological subject (i.e., the informant). Each informant based the legitimacy of charisma upon his or her own somatic, emotional, and agentic experiences. Although there is some flexibility and overlap with regard to how these categories are evoked to implicate the self, they tend to do so in different ways: *somatic* experience correlates with the body, *emotional* more closely with the mind, and *agentic* with all of the

aforementioned terms interpreted to implicate a notion of self (body, mind, soul, person, personality, etc.).

This tendency to legitimize charisma on the basis of personal experience (observed with each of the ten informants in this chapter) is directly opposed to the position that emerged in documents produced through the Catholic-Pentecostal dialogue (see chapter 1), whereby personal experience (which the hierarchy cannot control) must be validated through consistency with doctrine (over which the hierarchy has exercised considerable control). Thus, through efforts to shape experience with doctrine the hierarchy has brought about a degree of institutionalization over the notion of charisma that spread through the CCR as early as 1968, seizing its power so that “The Church is Charismatic” (an oft-heard quote in the modern CCR). The broad hierarchical effort to usurp charismatic power to legitimate itself (as a ‘dominant social order,’ in Weber’s terms), demonstrates the excellent fit of Weber’s construct of charisma with regard to this movement.

A Case-by-Case Review of the Perceived Relationship between Charismatic Gifts and the Self.

The ten informants identified charisma as inseparable from the self as follows:

Case 1: Bernadette.

This informant presented the most protracted deliberation on the relationship between charismatic gifts and the self. Her conflict evidenced the discordance she interpreted between the often-articulated belief in CCR contexts that gifts are of divine origin, versus the apparent inseparability of *gift* (a sacred object with a perceived external locus of agency) from *person* (a profane object with a perceived internal locus

of agency) when the gift becomes accepted and actualized by that person. At the end of her deliberation she concludes, “[*gifts*] are part of the person, but they are not of the person”:

INTERVIEWER: Is a spiritual gift part of the person who has it?

BERNADETTE: I would say that there are – they could become what the person is. But then maybe two different things because a person that does not open herself to receive this gift from God, is a person – what I want to say is a person that do not have – they do not want to have anything to do with God – it remains a person. Like an empty vessel in a sense. But a person that opens herself or himself to receive these gifts – the gifts are given from God. So the gift are not of the person. The gift is a gift from God given to the person. But as the person uses them, it can look like it's part of the person. But it's a gift that God can give or take away at any time. Like, for instance, there is – how can I say? There is, for instance, one gift of prophecy, is not my prominent gift per se. But I know that I was used, that God graced me with the gift a few times. Not for my own good, but for the good of the person that needed to hear the Word of Knowledge. So that the person will be strengthen in what she needed to hear. So was the gift a part of me? No. The gift was given to me from God to be used at a specific time, for that person, for the benefit of the person or for the glory of God. Because all the gifts, at the end, are not for my glory. Absolutely not. The gifts that I receive, if there is any, is only to give glory to God because He is the giver of the gifts.

INTERVIEWER: So are they part of the person who has the gift or are they separate from the person?

BERNADETTE: Okay. I will say they are not the person's gifts. They are God's gifts given to the person. They become part of the person, it seems, when the person receives it or receives them because she works with those gifts. But the gifts are really not the person. I cannot say that these gifts were mine, these gifts I work for it, I bought them or I – no. They come from God and they are for you to use for the Kingdom of God. For God's glory and God's honor. Though He does use as those gifts so you can help other people to come to the Lord. And at the same time, He does require a certain cooperation. It seems to me there is also this humble God that does that and a few words let's remember when they were on the boat and they were fishing all night and they did not catch anything, with the Apostles, did not catch anything. And Jesus said, “Put the nets down, again.” And they said, “Lord, we fished all night. There is nothing out there.” You know? I mean I say in simple words now. And He said, “Put the nets down again.” Well they had to go in obedience. But also, He could have said, I put the nets down and I pick up the fishes for you. But He really wanted the cooperation

of them. It's like He almost enjoys that we are part of – of doing something in it. And so He said, "Now put the nets down." And as they obey and did, the fishes came about. So the miracle came about. And it seems that the Lord is doing that. He uses His gifts – excuse me – He gives us His gifts, but it's really, then He wants us to work at these gifts also because they putting into practice of these gifts, they become better and stronger if we stay humble in the Lord and do the things that God wants us to do. So He wants us to cooperate with Him. That's how I see it. So they are not – they are *part* of the person, but they are not *of* the person. They are actually God's given gifts to the person and the person then says okay Lord I accept to work for You in this service and then God uses the person also.

Case 2: Moira.

Moira describes herself as a consummate seeker of spiritual experience, and on three occasions compared the rush of Spirit Baptism to drugs.

She understands herself has having (that is, receiving) the gift of healing, which she describes as both the means of her miraculous recovery from polio, both physical and psychological ("inner-healing"). It is believed inseparable from her post-recovery body, mind, and self. She speaks of the healing gift in an identical fashion when discussing what she believes are the miraculous recoveries of her two children from other illnesses. The gift of prophecy is described as divine in origin but inseparable from her personal qualities, including her disposition to "say it like she hears it." In the following response, the perceived inseparability of gift from self is further evidenced in her description of personal qualities as charismatic gifts:

INTERVIEWER: Besides a new proclivity to sing, have you noticed any other spiritual gifts in your life?

MOIRA: Well as I said before I'm great with people to receive healing, emotionally and physically and I've been blessed to see the fruits of that many times. I have a freeness, you know, it's almost like a gift of courage that you get where you get this surge of courage to maybe speak to somebody where you wouldn't before, to reach out to them, to embrace them whereas before you

might be more inhibited, and that's a gift of compassion. I think I know the gift of compassion, definitely. I told the Lord I wanted to spend my life healing the broken hearted and He's on that. Many people have come for counseling or inner healing and inner healing the compassionate force is very present and it's, again enables you to be able to be with people that are hurting and not be emotionally defected yourself, just be there as an instrument that the Lord can make it through during that time to bring them hope, to bring them peace. I've been in situations, people don't always think of these as gifts but there's the natural peace, but then there's the supernatural peace that just flows, you just feel it within you and you sense it flowing out to those around you.

Case 3: Marie.

When asked about her spiritual gifts, Marie denied manifesting any of well known phenomena such as glossolalia, prophecy, healing, or discernment (see chapter 2). However, the spiritual gifts she did claim to manifest were personal qualities: faith, devotion, goodness, being non-judgmental toward others, as well as the intimacy of her prayer life and her relationship with Christ. For her, charisma is believed rooted in her relationship with God, whereby "God is part of your soul, living within you." She describes charisma as essentially a personal disposition characterized by love for Christ. Unlike the other informants, she uses the term *charism* to denote the classical Pentecostal gifts, and *spiritual gift* as charismatic elements of the self:

INTERVIEWER: What is charisma? When people talk about charisma, what does that mean?

MARIE: Charisma? Charisma is kind of like a – oh how can I explain it? Char – you mean in relation to the Charismatic Renewal or just the word itself and what it means to me?

INTERVIEWER: In the relation – like when people are involved in the Renewal talk about it. You know, what does that mean?

MARIE: Well charisma. I think that means like a certain – certain – like almost like an aura that some people have. Or certain – oh. Or when they – like when they speak, you know, I'm trying to think because I think like Bernadette and

(names another member), I think they have a lot of charisma or charisms. You know? That it just – when they speak, you can just tell the love that they have, you know, for Christ. But – and I think that's more – that's like their charisma. Their attitude. Their – that they can express it openly to other people, that it will affect other people. The charisms, I think those are the gifts of the Holy Spirit. And some, again, have – they're more able to openly express those where you can actually recognize, you know, in others maybe they have them, but they're just something that's more kept to themselves or – I don't know if that answers your question. It's kind of vague I guess. But –

INTERVIEWER: So is there any difference between a charism and charisma? Like if someone talks about a charism, what do they mean?

MARIE: They're I think they're talking about gifts of the Holy Spirit.

INTERVIEWER: Such as?

MARIE: Such as like, you know, the patience, the kind – or the – yeah, patience, joy, kindness. And I believe that people that possess those, that – that – that tends to give them that charisma. Okay? I don't know. But the charisms, I believe are the, you know, the gifts of the Holy Spirit that people have.

INTERVIEWER: So what are the spiritual gifts?

MARIE: A spiritual gift could just be your faith. A spiritual gift could be your devotion. A spiritual gift could be your relationship with Christ. A spiritual – let's see – (pause)

INTERVIEWER: You mean like the ones that are listed in the Bible? Like prophecy, healing –

MARIE: Right. Right. I think that's what I kind of think, you know, when you say the charisms, that's what I think is more the gifts of the Holy Spirit. Whereas, spiritual gift, I truly think could be anybody that has a strong devotion or strong love of Christ, you know, if you're blessed with spiritual gifts.

INTERVIEWER: How do the spiritual gifts relate to the person who has them? In other words, are the gifts part of the person or are the gifts separate from the person?

MARIE: Oh I think they become part of you. Yeah. I think they become part of you. I think that's shown in your personality, shown in the way you talk to people, treat people, the way you handle situations. Like I said before, in some of the difficulties that may come into your life I really believe – I believe both the charisms and spiritual gifts, you know, play into that. That they're – but I believe

the spiritual gifts are a broader range than the charisms. I think the charisms, like I say, are more specific.

INTERVIEWER: Would you talk about some of your spiritual gifts? What do you consider your spiritual gifts or what have other people considered spiritual gifts that you have?

MARIE: I don't know. What spiritual gifts do I have? I just – I think my devotion to Christ, to my religion, to my faith. I think my prayer life is probably a spiritual gift that had to develop over time because there probably wasn't any much of a prayer life other than going to church on Sunday, you know, where now I try to take time each day. And I just – and – well that will overlap with the others. But I just think like, you know, maybe some – like goodness, trying to be non-judgmental. Things like that I believe – I guess – I don't know. I guess I never really – I never thought about them in detail like this before. But I just feel – I think that – not that I think I have that many charisms. I do maybe personally, but not to be outward about them like a lot of other people are. But I think they tend to just enhance your spiritual gifts or lend to them. You know?

INTERVIEWER: What about the charisms? Do you have any charisms like praying in tongues or prophecy?

MARIE: No, I don't. I don't have any of those. I don't have the tongues. I don't have the prophecy.

INTERVIEWER: Discernment?

MARIE: No, I have – that's a tough one. [Laughter] No, I don't know that I possess too many of those. I probably – maybe some of the gifts maybe. I don't know, like I say, kindness and patience and things like that. No, I don't know that I – I don't think I have too many charisms. I don't think so.

Case 4: Peter.

Despite Peter displaying the gifts of glossolalia and healing (the latter through participation in the prayer circle), here he describes the most personally significant charismatic gift as that of revelation, which has functioned as an axis of continuity for his self development over the life-course. His is a narrative of unfolding discernment whereby divinely-inspired insight has shaped the transformative processes of his person, resulting in the spiritual constitution his present self. From his view, the

charismatic nature of this revelation is proven through personal experience, which he cites as the primary principle establishing its legitimacy.

INTERVIEWER: So is there a difference between the spiritual gift and the self?

PETER: No difference. To myself? No - no difference. These gifts people seek them, tongues, you know, they aren't the of the utmost importance, not like the precious gift of revelation, without it I wouldn't be here. I wouldn't be a husband, my life – my wife would have left me, my children left me, my job lost, I wouldn't be here. This part of me came from - this desire for Christ - came about, and the things that became revealed to me, came about through - only through a personal relationship with Jesus, that is the true gift, the one above all others, with love at the center, love of God and so love of others, wife, family, others. And no one can see it but me, and him who the Lord allows to see. You see, when the Lord touches your life, only you might be allowed to see it, but it'll be God that opens your eyes to the things He has done for you.

Case 5: Paula.

Although Paula manifests the classical gifts of glossolalia and healing, these provoke inner doubt, while idiosyncratic gifts (that is, those referring to elements of her own personhood) are seemingly legitimized by emotional and bodily experience, and a perceived change in life orientation along an axis of fear (from fear of God to fear of being without the love of God). Unlike the other core group members, she claims to have no gifts, but her explanation of why she is without gifts implicates a belief that gifts are intimately linked with one's personal qualities:

INTERVIEWER: What about charisma? What is charisma?

PAULA: That's a big smiling face. Ha. No. Actually, well they are – they're gifts that God's given to – through the Spirit and they're given to help us, I think, in our own life and help us to bring Him to other people and I'm still not real good at those. So –

INTERVIEWER: What do you mean you're not good at them?

PAULA: Well, like with the prayer teams, I don't feel that – that I'm a really good praying. I try and I try to place myself in God's presence and let Him come through me. But I don't know if in straining to do that if I'm blocking Him, you know, with cluttering up my head with what should I say or something of that nature instead of letting Him work. So it's probably leftovers in – in, you know, keeping your fist closed. How things are so much hard to do with your fist closed, to put something in your hand. You know? To release it, you know, instead of having somebody pry it open. People still have – God still has to pry my hand open to put something in it. You know? Even – I don't know. I don't know. I blocked any of the charisms from coming into my life.

Although she has been asked to participate in St. Sebastian's prayer circle, she further implicates the link between the exercise of a gift to petition divine will for healing in terms of a perceived lack of personal qualities and abilities:

PAULA: And I still can't say, even now, that I feel totally comfortable there. That I have what these people need. That I'm – I'm capable of actually doing what they want me to do or having enough of God's presence built up in me to have the strength to give what I should give. And so I, you know, maybe I should tell them I can't do this or, you know, or sometimes I feel, you know, okay I can. But I still – I still find it difficult.

Case 6: Rose.

Rose describes her religiosity as legitimated by somatic, emotional, and agentic experiences that marked the beginning of her personal relationship with God. This relationship was also indicated by the appearance of her gift of healing, which she describes as constitutive of her healthy, cancer-free body. She believes that her experiences of suffering from disease and loss have developed a personological devotion that recognized by God in the form of perceived responses to intercessory prayers on behalf of others. This gift is believed to be integral to her person based upon the life she has lived. She also recognizes gifts that are completely idiosyncratic: She describes herself as having “a gift of being very giving.” This also was described as part

of her personality rather than an external divine agency. She explicitly described gifts as inseparable from the person as follows:

INTERVIEWER: Are spiritual gifts part of the person who has them? Or are they different from the person?

ROSE: No, I think they're part of the person. I don't think you can do it unless you make it part of you. I mean I don't think I could – no, I think – God gives it to ya. You know? But you – I mean I you can get it, but not, like I say, unless you act on it, it doesn't come part of you. He can send you down gifts or give them to you, and if you choose not to accept them or choose not to take them in as part of your life. I think that can happen. But I think once you get them, they become part of you when you accept them and you act on them. I think.

Case 7: Margaret.

Margaret claimed to be more interested than most Catholics in an expanded experience of God. Toward this goal she cites personal qualities as spiritual gifts: being caring, personable, having love for God and others, common sense, and an enhanced awareness of God's activity in her everyday life. Her use of experience and personal development bases for the legitimacy of her Spirit Baptism further supports her stated view that the charismatic gift is not distinguished from the self:

MARGARET: Well a charism - charisms are like individual gifts that God gives you. And all the gifts that God gives you, I believe, are to build up the Church. The Church meaning the world, I think. You know? Or to build – they're always to be used. They're not to just be kept inside yourself. But they're always given to you to be used. You know? To benefit the world or whoever you come in contact with.

INTERVIEWER: What are spiritual gifts?

MARGARET: Well if you go in the, you know, Scripture, there's a whole list of, you know, speaking in tongues and healing and prophecy and interpreting tongues and wisdom and all those ones like that. Like Jenny said, the greatest of these is love. It says right there in the Bible right along with that. So those are the official spiritual gifts, but I think even in the Bible there's like, to me, any gift that you recognize that you have that is God-given, is a spiritual gift. I don't know

– I mean, you know, I don't know if that's right or not. But if you recognize that that's a God-given gift, and that you wouldn't have had that unless God allowed you to, then – then you, you know, so I think any gift that you have is probably spiritual or has the potential of being spiritual.

INTERVIEWER: Is it – is there a difference between a spiritual gift and the person who has it? I mean is the gift part of the person? Is the gift separate from the person?

MARGARET: That was a really hard question for me. Because I think that God gives you a gift and He does not take it away. I think that sometimes we choose not to use the gifts that God gives us and that, you know, like maybe – maybe for a while maybe God gave me the gift of healing. Okay? And I, you know, had the opportunity at hand if somebody is ill or something like that to pray with them. Now I can choose to like say well I'm only going to do it to the people that I feel secure with. You know? It doesn't mean I don't have the gift. But it means that I don't choose to use it. So that I think when God gives you a gift, it should be a part of you, but sometimes we don't – sometimes we choose not to acknowledge the gift. Did that answer the question?

INTERVIEWER: So would you say a spiritual gift is separate from the person who has it? Or is it – is the spiritual gift part of the person?

MARGARET: Well I think it's part of the person. I think it is. Because I don't think God just takes it away. So then it's got to be a part – if God is a part of us and God gives us this gift, then we should make it a part of who we are and use it for God's glory. I don't know. So I guess, in that respect, I don't – I guess I think that the gift is – well except if you don't use it, then how can – I still think – I'm going back to my original answer.

INTERVIEWER: What's the original answer?

MARGARET: It's part of the person because God has gifted us with – God has given it to us, you know, as a part of who we are. And I think God gives you gifts according to who you are. So, in other words, you know, maybe God – maybe there's certain gifts God might say, well you know what, I'm going to give to you, Margaret, because I know who you are and what, you know, and so I'm going to – and that will help Me, you know, you can build up My Church more by – if you have that gift. You know?

Case 8: Emily.

When someone puts another person's hand into that of God, she believes in that instant the person *becomes* a gift. Emily's understanding of Charisma in relation to the

self varies according to gift. While glossolalia is not considered part of her, nor is the gift of healing part of the priest who leads the healing mass, the gift of healing is regarded inseparable from the recipient's renewed being. In this context the gift of healing is understood by Emily to manifest in the transformation of the physical body, and therefore is inseparable from the recipient.

She goes on to describe her own idiosyncratic gifts, including openness, hospitality, warmth, and caring. These are described as aspects of her personality that have been developed through an intimate relationship with Christ. She believes she has the gift of love, and that people are drawn to her acceptance of others. She considers the gift of love integral to who she is as a person. She also describes a "word gift," which she explains is akin to prophecy insofar as it involves divinely inspired speech, but unlike prophecy the agency of the speech is always her own. Although the inspiration to speak comes from God, she considers this gift part of her person:

INTERVIEWER: Okay. Would you – would you talk about some of your spiritual gifts?

EMILY: Well they have been different. I was on the Word Ministry for the Charismatic Renewal. You know? I was part of the prayer teams that use to be.

INTERVIEWER: So what would the spiritual gifts be in those situations?

EMILY: Well I think when I – we were on for the Charismatic Renewal when I was on the Word Ministry, if you pray and then, you know, God gives the Word and you hear it, you know, even with the Charismatic Renewal – team. Part of that team. You know? I was part of the prayer, you know, the prayer team afterwards after they said mass. I think we all have the Word gift. You know sometimes when Jesus speaks to you, you know, I've heard people say profound things. You know? And maybe they don't look at it as a Word, you know, but Jesus speaks to them when everybody is praying, you know, tell My people I love them, you know, sometimes they feel that. That could be said. You know?

INTERVIEWER: So are there any spiritual gifts that people think you have?

EMILY: Oh that, you know, I don't know if people ever tell you that. You know? I would say you have a charisma. Do a lot of people tell you that?

INTERVIEWER: No, not really.

EMILY: Okay.

INTERVIEWER: I don't know what they say behind my back.

EMILY: See but nobody really, you know – I hope I have a gift of openness, you know, to me a gift of hospitality. To me, those are gifts. Of openness, of warmth, of caring. Sometimes, to me, those are the greatest of the gifts that you used every day.

INTERVIEWER: So gifts don't have to be just those ones that are listed in the Bible, right?

EMILY: Right. Well I just think God uses everybody for different things. And I think if we listen to where He calls us to be, then we are using His gifts that He has given. And there will be some that calls a priest to be a priest or He would have called me to be a nun. But, instead, He called me to be married and have a husband who is a deacon.

Case 9: Laura.

Laura supports the legitimacy of her conversion event by experiences of dissociation, changes of perceived locus of control, as well as other forms of emotional and somatic experience. She believes that becoming entwined in a relationship with the divine results in an intermingling of the human self with the divine other that essentializes the nature of charisma. She explicitly states charisma is part of the self that is "brought out" by the Holy Spirit for a certain purpose: "it's always been there."

INTERVIEWER: So what is a spiritual gift? What does it mean when someone talks about a spiritual gift?

LAURA: It's a gift from God. A special gift from God, like talking in tongues. It's a special gift from God. And you can't – you can't acquire it by praying – I don't

know, praying for it, yes, but you can't acquire it by just practicing. Like some people said you have to practice talking in tongues. I don't think you can practice it because it's a gift from God. How do you practice a gift when you don't know what the gift is going to be?

INTERVIEWER: So when someone has a spiritual gift, is the gift part of the person or is the gift separate from the person?

LAURA: It's part of the person.

INTERVIEWER: It's part of the person?

LAURA: Yeah. I think it's always been there. It's always been there. But the Lord, the Holy Spirit brings it out at a certain time when He – when He decides you need it. You always have that gift, you just don't know – you just don't know it until you need it. And then He brings it out for that particular use.

INTERVIEWER: So did – the gift is part of the person that sort of emerges?

LAURA: Yes.

INTERVIEWER: At a certain point God brings it out?

LAURA: Yes.

INTERVIEWER: So where does it come from originally? I mean was it ever put there or it's just – was it always just sort of there?

LAURA: I think it was always there. Because God gives us each all different gifts. We just don't know how to use the until He – until the particular time comes and He shows us how to use them. And they're needed. You know? Like we all have different gifts of – and different talents. God gives us all different talents and gives them – we – we all have special gifts.

Charisma was also described as the means of her own transformed orientation away from “the world” (in the CCR, a profane designation) and toward the desires of God (i.e., the sacred) over the life course.

Case 10: Justin.

Justin describes experience is the primary principle establishing the legitimacy of Catholic doctrine, ritual, and charismatic gifts.

He believes that spiritual gifts, while divine in origin, are also inseparable from an individual's faith, abilities, body, and spirit:

INTERVIEWER: So what are gifts of the Holy Spirit? What does that mean when someone talks about a gift from the Holy Spirit?

JUSTIN: The gift of the Holy Spirit is things that are given you to enable you to do God's work and to believe and to have faith, a strong faith. Because that's what it all boils down to. Because we haven't seen this so we have to believe. And if it isn't for faith, then we would have no part of anything. So I would think it all basically would be faith and love. And this is just the abilities that He enables you to do the things that He wants you to do.

INTERVIEWER: So how does the gift relate to the person who has it? Is it part of the person or is it separate from the person?

JUSTIN: I would have to say that it is part of the body because it is something enabling you to do something. Whether it be your mouth working, your hands working, your brain working. It's like the motivation to control your abilities.

INTERVIEWER: Is it part of the soul?

JUSTIN: I would say yes, through the Spirit. Through the Spirit it's part of the soul.

INTERVIEWER: Through the Holy Spirit you mean?

JUSTIN: Yes, through the Holy Spirit. Yes.

Each of ten informants denied awareness of the discrepancy between their conceptions of charisma within the institutionalized prayer group setting (described as separate from the self) versus beyond that setting (described as inseparable from the self). Their reactions to this observation varied considerably. At first, most didn't believe they said two different things. Upon reminding them of specific instances we had spoken in the prayer group, and then specific statements from the person-centered interviews, they laughed with incredulity at their own answers. "But you ask such difficult

questions!” was the typical protest. They unanimously agreed that conception of charisma with relation to the self was something they don’t ordinarily think about or discuss, nor is it explicitly treated in their teachings. Justin and Laura thanked me for asking this question because it exposed limits in their own understanding of what it is they believe. Even Bernadette, who went to the most painstaking process of researching the answer in Biblical scripture and CCR literature, expressed considerable ambivalence before aligning with the others in her reckoning of charisma’s inseparability from the self.

This investigation was not intended to expose the limits of these participants’ self-understanding. It does, however, point to a most peculiar finding that would have remained unobserved using either the private interviews or ethnographic data: Within the prayer setting that which is recognized as charisma is cleaved from the self, but beyond that setting they are recognized as re-united, and these changes seem to occur without conscious awareness. In the CCR context studied here, it appears that institutionalization has occurred, but not simply as an irreversible transformation of charisma, as Weber theorized. In the observations of this study, *institutionalization occurs to charisma within the institutionalized setting of the prayer group. The effects of institutionalization do not necessarily extend to the recognition of charisma in other contexts, including the more general life-space of the participant.* For these persons, the data suggest that charismatic worship engenders a repetitive cycle of fission and fusion between concepts of self and divine other as the inherently ambiguous charisma is considered within and beyond the institutionalized sacred space.

The perceived relationship between charisma and the self changing upon entering and leaving the prayer setting is a finding that cannot clearly be situated within a Weberian paradigm, nor in itself does it contradict his theory. Weber's theory of charisma accounted for the importance of the *Who* (leaders who mediate transcendent order, followers drawn to it), *What* (personality, mana), *When* (crisis of leadership succession), *Why* (the charismatic leader is personally irreplaceable but functionally critical for the perceived legitimacy of social order aspiring to access divinity through him or her), and *How* (routinization, institutionalization) of the legitimacy of social order through perceived transformation and control over access to sacred power. These findings point to the single most important missing component of his grand theory: the *Where*. Weber believed that charisma was doomed by the process of institutionalization. As the next and final chapter will explain, his theory was in turn based upon that of Rudolf Sohm, whose construct of charisma was fashioned to explain the historical transformation of perceived authority from the person of Christ to the bureaucratic structures of the early Roman Catholic Church (Haley, 1980). These findings challenge Weber's conclusion that institutionalization dooms charismatic power. In the final chapter, the influence of place upon the process of institutionalization will be considered in terms of the observed properties of charisma, which the data of this study suggest is considerably more ambiguous, and therefore more subject to negotiation, contestation, and renewal, than Weber had foreseen.

Chapter 4: Implications for the Development of Max Weber's Theory of Charisma.

Study Overview.

This study began using Max Weber's theory of Charisma to organize the historical data on the origins of the CCR (chapter 1), a global religious movement characterized by the cultivation of an experienced personal relationship with Jesus Christ and the exercise of spiritual gifts (described by adherents as manifestations of charisma). Ethnographic data from the prayer group setting where charismatic gifts are enacted show adherents' understanding of the gift as divinity that is associated with a person (such that it is 'theirs') but as a sacred object is substantively distinct from the self, which is interpreted as inherently oriented toward the profane (chapter 2). Conversely, data from non-prayer contexts of the informants choosing suggested an understanding of the charismatic gift and self as inseparable (chapter 3). While Weber's theory elegantly organizes the data revealing the changing views on the relationship of sacred gift and profane self, it cannot explain why this would occur.

In an attempt to resolve this paradox, this chapter will begin with a detailed description of Weber's theory of Charisma. Notable alternative theories associated with charismatic phenomena will be described, and their applicability to the data of this study will be examined. Finally, Mircea Eliade's theory of religious phenomenology will be introduced, and the key concepts from his system that can reconcile the data will be explained. This will lead to the study's main contribution to the development of either Weber's theory of Charisma or Eliade's religious phenomenology, the

complementariness of each to the other. This proposal is unprecedented in either body of literature.

Charisma as Conceived by Max Weber.

Weber's (1968a; 1968b; 2003) theory of charisma is rooted firmly, although by no means exclusively, in the real or imagined extraordinary qualities of a leader. These qualities are seen by followers as being order-challenging insofar as the leader behaves in ways that challenge the dominant authority structure, yet order-affirming insofar as this behavior is meaningful in terms of the transcendent order from which this power structure claims to derive its own authority. Like any individual the charismatic leader is unique, and irreplaceable. Whether by death, loss of charismatic authority, or some other inability to lead, an inevitable crisis of leadership succession will occur. It is resolved by abstracting the sacred authority of the leader into something distinguished from the leader's person ("charisma") through processes of routinization into rational-legal or traditional manifestations of authority. As this authoritative principle continues to function in service of societal need for legitimate leadership, it becomes preserved through processes of institutionalization it originally opposed. Institutionalization, which strangles spontaneity and the influence of any single individual within the power structure, was considered by Weber the irreversible fate of the leader's charisma. It is the deadening influence of institutionalization, combined with the extraordinary needs of followers (often occasioned by crisis), that constitute ideal circumstances for the emergence of a charismatic leader capable of challenging institutional representation of transcendent order. This figure embodies the once-living power and meaningfulness

that has dissipated from the institution. Through the greatness of this transcendent power the charismatic leader emerges from beyond the institution with the purpose of delivering the followers in their hour of need.

Charisma is Rooted in Persons, Relationships, and Contexts.

With legal authority, obedience is to the legal order. With traditional authority, obedience is to whoever occupies a sanctified position. Only in the case of charismatic authority is obedience given to an individual on the basis of extraordinary merit (1968b: 46-7). Although Weber has outlined no fewer than six ways charisma may become changed and preserved to legitimate systems of social dominance (54-65), these divergent paths begin with what Weber calls 'pure charisma.' As a personified form it is utterly unabstracted, and therefore independent from rational economy (21, 24). Pure charisma is rooted firmly in the leader's unique humanity, including his constitution, identity, and personality, and represents the locus of Weber's theory where a psychological perspective is most needed.

It would be an error to oversimplify Weber's charisma as subsisting entirely within the traits of the leader. His theory situated the charismatic leader within an economic, social, cultural, historical, and cosmological context. Pure charisma accordingly is associated with a certain position in terms of followers, the cosmological order, the predominant social institutions, and historical circumstances likely to involve an immediate crisis precipitating needs on the part of followers. The leader is simultaneously order-affirming and order-challenging insofar as he contends to represent the underlying cosmological order presumed to legitimate the predominant

social institutions (23; 25). Charismatic leaders emerge to fulfill the needs of their followers, which in times of societal distress are likely to be of an 'extraordinary' nature, particularly with regard to the need for meaning (18; 26; 266-277). Charisma must continually be proven in meaningful fashion to retain their recognition, without which it cannot exist (22, 61).

Weber imported the concept of charisma into sociological discourse from the writings of Rudolf Sohm (Weber 1968: 19, 47; Haley, 1980), who treated the topic in early Christian theology. Although more elaborate, Weber's formulation remained true to Sohm's original intention to explain how the institutional church linked its claim of social dominance to the divine authority of Christ. Originally conceived to understand the power structure of the Church, its usefulness in organizing data on the emergence and legitimating processes of the CCR was demonstrated in chapter 1.

Although Weber's charisma has become a cardinal construct in the sociological realm, its evaluation requires the synthesis of other disciplines, including economics, history, divinity, law, science, anthropology, and psychology. Unfortunately, traditional parochial boundaries have discouraged empirically-based research sufficiently interdisciplinary to study Weber's theory as he conceived it. Instead, there are numerous discipline-bound bodies of literature that are conceptually and empirically disconnected from the approaches of other areas. These include the neocharismatic theories spanning social and industrial/organizational psychology, the so-called 'synthetic' theories (Lindholm, 1990) invoking psycho-physiological explanations, Durkheim's sociological theory of collective effervescence, and psychodynamic theories

including those of Freud and Kohut. It will be argued that while each of these approaches has merit, Weber's theory reconciles the data of this study far more effectively. Only the paradoxical flux of self-gift distinction revealed by juxtaposition of chapters 2 and 3 cannot be explained by Weber... or any of the other theories, save one that has never previously been associated with the topic of charisma: that of Mircea Eliade. It will then be argued that these data point to the missing element of Weber's theory, the significance of place in the reckoning of charisma, and the complementariness of this theory with Eliade's findings on the phenomenological significance of sacred space.

Neocharismatic Approaches

Weber's theory has been criticized for conceptual imprecision (Burke & Brinkerhoff, 1981; Riesebrodt, 1999). The body of work known as the neocharismatic paradigm emerged to address this and other social scientific concerns. Notable theories of this type include the 1976 theory of charismatic leadership (House, 1977), transformational leadership (Burns, 1978; Bass, 1985; 1998), the attribution theory of charismatic leadership (Conger & Kanungo, 1987), and the visionary theory of Bennis and Nanus (1985). Some of these, including transformational leadership, have evolved out of Weberian charisma into distinctive concepts (Barbuto, 1997). Others have attempted to further define and operationalize charisma for enhanced accessibility to empirical investigation. Neocharismatic theorists believe they have made it possible to test theoretically derived propositions, and in so doing have made the study of charisma a more scientifically respectable endeavor (for example, see Bass, 1999). These

theories are characterized by similar emphases upon the influence of a leader upon followers. They are intended to explain how leaders can elicit from followers the highest levels of qualities presumed to result in corporate success, including enhanced follower self-esteem, motivation to work, loyalty to the leader (in this research paradigm, often a middle- or upper- level manager), and identification with the leader's values as well as with the company as a whole (House & Aditya, 1997).

The neocharismatic treatment of charisma has its detractors. Beyer (1999), for example, has criticized the approach on multiple points: While overemphasizing psychological factors and the importance of the individual leader, the influence of situational factors are underestimated. In the search for universal laws of social behavior, the idiosyncratic features of charismatic leadership (such as content of a leader's vision) are left at the wayside as the leader is de-contextualized from the socio-cultural environment in which charisma occurs. Perhaps most importantly, the overly defined and operationalized construct is not what Weber had conceptualized. On this question of the relationship between charismatic leadership and the neo-charismatic paradigm even neo-charismatic theorists disagree (see Bass, 1997; House & Shamir, 1993).

Although the neo-charismatic approaches have advanced the study of leadership and offered insights useful within Western corporate culture, it is too leader-focused for application with the historical and follower-based data of this study (where CCR adherents esteem to be followers of Christ). Furthermore, the neocharismatic theories' increasing estrangement from a common conceptual lineage implies a parallel need to

salvage the explanatory power of that lineage, Weber's construct, to conceptualize modern situations clearly involving the legitimization of social structure based on principles of sacred authority, as the previous three chapters have demonstrated is the case with the CCR.

"Synthetic" Theories of Charisma

Another explanatory attempt is represented in what Lindholm (1990) categorized as 'synthetic theories of charisma.' Lifton's (1961) work on Chinese methods of thought reform focused on the disintegration of a sense of self in service of creating a new, politically reformed self. For his informants, this process has been characterized by certain methodology that tends to result in a certain set of experiences. The methods used for 'brainwashing' included alternation between cruel and humiliating behavior (including torture) and gestures of friendship, persistent breaks in routine, demands to confess politically forbidden thoughts and deeds, and re-enforcement of a sense of guilt. Peer pressure would be employed to keep captives' roles active in these processes. The intended results included feelings of hopelessness, disorientation, and a sense of selfhood disintegration. More surprisingly, these feelings often gave way to peak psychological experiences, a heightened orientation to the group, identification with the tormentors, and acceptance of their communistic ideology. While Lifton explained thought reform in psychodynamic terms, other studies by Ludwig (1972), Deikman (1972), and others, have sought to explain the trance-like and hyper-suggestible states in terms of underlying physiological mechanisms. In both cases, the 'follower's' mentality is deemed a product of coercion.

Neither approach is applicable to the data of this thesis; although participation involves changes in experience, involvement in the CCR is completely voluntary and coercive methods to elicit altered states of consciousness are never employed. Although worship intensifies in the prayer group, CCR participants experience the majority of their religious life beyond that setting. The subjects of thought reform, conversely, are captive and the 'conversion' is believed to occur primarily in a setting of the captors' design. The synthetic theories may explain how identity and self can be permanently transformed by coercion, but they cannot explain why the free converts' perceived distinction between self and charismatic gift would change between CCR and other settings.

Emile Durkheim and Collective Effervescence:

After Weber, there is no theorist more closely associated with charismatic phenomena than Emile Durkheim. Ironically, he engaged many of the same issues as did Weber without ever using the term, 'charisma.' Perhaps for Durkheim, the term had become too closely associated with the personal qualities of a leader. The individualistic qualities of leaders and followers were comparatively de-emphasized in his sociological approach.

Durkheim's theory pivots on the particularities of his distinction between the sacred and profane. The profane is associated with the individualistic and solipsistic self, whereas the sacred involves transcendence of that self in "collective effervescence" of communal ecstasy. Inner religious experience is thus conceptualized with something akin to a dual center of gravity, with the sacred and profane in perpetual

tension. As the sacred is naturally assumed pre-eminent over the profane, the social order (providing the prototype for all religious ritual) is accordingly judged above the solipsistic self. For Durkheim, the more substantial course of inquiry, and in fact the legitimate role of sociology, therefore is to develop theories of group life that are necessarily irreconcilable with the principles of individual psychology (1965/1912:140; 1982/1895:312). A leader who would be charismatic according to Weber's approach would, from Durkheim's perspective, be seen as such not because of extraordinary personal traits, but rather, merely through serving as a symbol of group consciousness (Durkheim, 1965/1912: 241). While Weber's construct includes a personological component, Durkheim, in his association of depersonalization with the sacred, acknowledges only the symbolic significance of the leader within a charismatic dynamic driven by the collective consciousness of the followers.

Durkheim makes a number of claims about leadership that cannot be corroborated by data presented here. For example, the data were not gathered with intention to test his theory that a leader (particularly one that would be 'charismatic' in Weber's paradigm) is merely a symbolic object that focuses group consciousness. A satisfactory test for Durkheim's claim as it might apply to the CCR would be impossible, as the mind and personality of Jesus is inaccessible to a modern sociological investigator. To attempt this based upon religious texts might be appropriate in a school of divinity but would be beyond the topical scope of a doctoral dissertation in either Comparative Human Development or Psychology. Similarly, to verify Durkheim's prediction that Christ (as the spiritual leader of this group) is, for all practical purposes,

functioning as a sacred symbol of the group incarnate irregardless of any personal qualities would be a project more appropriate in the Divinity School. The topical parameters of this study limit the ability to speculate about the fit of Durkheim's theory with these data.

Other aspects of the study require a theory that is less situation-specific than Durkheim's, and one that is able to integrate data from disparate methodologies (historical, ethnographic, person-centered interviews). Because the domain of experience inevitably traverses the categorical distinction between social and individual, his theoretical claim that the religious inner life is characterized by a dual-center of gravity (the social sacred versus the personal profane) would be impossible to verify without violating his demarcation of legitimate sociology as separate from the realm of individual psychology. Because his theory cannot recognize the sacred being inseparable from the personal, without the investigator staking a claim upon the objective truth-value of informants' experiences of self in relationship to charismatic gift (a position inappropriate to this project), Durkheim's theory is inapplicable to the individualistic data of chapter 3. Consequently, it is too narrow to reconcile them with the ethnographic data from chapter 2.

Other implications of Durkheim's theory are contradicted by the data. While the CCR worship style is more emotionally intense than that of conventional Catholicism, it does not approach the intensity described by Durkheim, whereby identities utterly disintegrate into collective effervescence, resulting in the temporary abolition of social rules, sexual relations with the spouses of others, and the like. This is nothing like what

happens in a CCR group setting. Nor do charismatic worshippers lose their selves in communal ecstasy. Durkheim's theory would lead us to predict that the bounds of the self would become amorphous within the setting of communal worship, but this is the opposite of what informants report; it is in the prayer group setting that charismatic gift is distinguished as absolutely other from the self, and beyond the prayer group settings where the profane self and sacred other (i.e., gift) coalesce from a phenomenological viewpoint. Because Durkheim's approach is rooted entirely and exclusively in communal experience, it is too narrow to conceptualize self/other boundaries in flux between communal and interpersonal settings, as was done here.

Freud: Libido and the Passion Principle of Group Cohesion.

Weber acknowledged that the psychological sources of charisma were "altogether unconscious and seldom fully conscious" (Weber, 1922: 24), and that "there can be no doubt that Freud's thought can become a very significant source for the interpretation of a whole series of phenomena in cultural history" (Weber, 1926: 376).

In *Group Psychology and the Analysis of the Ego* (1921/1955), Freud examines his contemporaries' theories of group psychology and concludes they are in agreement on a descriptive level, but fail to explain these observations beyond the concept of *suggestion*, which in turn is treated as a penultimate explanation. What is lacking, he argued, is an understanding of the psychological mechanisms involved with suggestion. For this purpose Freud proposed the concept of *libido*, which develops along a continuum ranging from developmentally primitive narcissism, where the libido is directed inward as a sort of self-love, to developmentally mature object love, where it is

directed toward an external person, place, or thing. Within the context of group psychology it constitutes two sorts of emotional ties: that between the leader and the individual group member, and that between the members themselves. Freud defined the psychological group as being held together in a sort of libidinal matrix, with the leader positioned at its hub. Group cohesion depends upon the existence of libidinal ties combined with the illusion that the leader loves the followers equally. For Freud, analysis of a group member's psychology required consideration of this enmeshment in the real and imagined aspects that constitute group cohesion.

The leader of a psychological group is understood by Freud as an adored object that will usurp the function of the ego (resulting in identification) or ego ideal (resulting in fascination/bondage) within the psychodynamic structure of the group member. In either case the leader serves a psychological function of the follower, but particularly in the latter case (where the leader's portrayal of reality is unchallenged) the libidinal ties that bind literally become the reigns of group control.

The need for a well-elaborated psychological component of Weberian charisma has remained an obstacle preventing its maximal utility (Winer, Jobe, & Ferrono, 1984). In Weber's time, Freud's psychoanalysis was the most obvious portal into to the psychological dimension of charisma. The challenge remains to determine the most prudent contemporary application of his theory toward this end. Among the most concise of such formulations has been offered by Camic (1980). Beginning with Weber's observation that charisma is preconditioned by extraordinary needs of followers, Camic uses Freud's tripartite model of the psyche to derive four types of

extraordinary needs and charismatic attributions. Fulfillment of needs associated with the id (involving the expression of aggression and sexuality) results in attributions of ‘the uncanny.’ Superego-related need fulfillment results in attributions of sacredness. Fulfillment of ego needs (involving dependency, security, and meaning) results in attributions of omnipotence. Ego-ideal need fulfillment (involving culturally constrained notions of achievement, attainment, and mastery) result in attributions of excellence. This elegant approach progresses logically from Freud’s conception of leadership in a psychological group, where the leader assumes the position of either the ego or ego-ideal in the psyche of the follower. Unfortunately, it remains strictly within Freud’s classical paradigm, one that has declined significantly over the past half century. A more contemporary alternative approach is that of the Self Psychologists, whose divergence from Freudian thought began with the ideas of Heinz Kohut.

The Divergence of Self-Psychology from Freudian Psychoanalysis.

Kohut’s key theoretical departure from Freud was his re-conceptualization of narcissism and object love from extremes on a single developmental continuum of libido into distinct phenomena with separate developmental trajectories (Kohut, 1966; 1971; 1977; 1978; 1987). Whereas Freud focused upon modification of drives inherent in the biological organism, Kohut focused upon development of a coherent self associated with, but not equivalent to, the organism. He envisioned the infant’s existence as characterized by a phenomenological bliss that must become modified by the reality that as the organism matures, its needs inevitably exceed the abilities of any effective caretaker. The gradual, non-traumatic occurrence of this failure facilitates the self’s

acquisition of functions no longer fulfilled by the external object through a process known as transmuting internalization.

The personality cohesion that results from this process is crucial to developing understanding of the self as separate from the world around it. With the distinction between self and other, the original blissful state becomes spliced and preserved by the creation of two complimentary psychological configurations: the grandiose self and the idealized parental imago. The grandiose self is associated with a feeling of self-perfection. Its healthy establishment results in a lifelong psychological need for acknowledgement of this narcissism. In its most archaic form, this need for mirroring begs the gleam of a mother's eye. With continued development it will be expressed through seeking affirmation in more sophisticated social interactions. When the grandiose self is reactivated it is experienced as a mirroring transference.

The idealized parental imago is associated with desire to merge with a perfect other. The establishment of this configuration results in a healthy need to merge with an idealized other. In its most archaic form this could involve idolizing a caretaker. With more developmental sophistication it may involve desire to identify with a nation or religious tradition. The re-activation of the idealized parental imago is experienced as idealization transference.

Kohut conceived of a bipolar self in terms of the grandiose self and idealized parental imago configurations. If these aspects of self structure are sufficiently developed, a more developmentally mature type of transference, that of the alter-ego

type, may occur. It manifests as a desire to experience essential likeness with another object understood to be separate from the self. (Kohut, 1984; 192-3).

Objects that function in service of these needs are selfobjects. The merging of these words emphasizes that they are experienced in terms of how they serve the ongoing psychological needs of a developing self rather than for their own inherent qualities. To identify someone or something as a selfobject is to identify it in terms of a psychological function for the self, but this does not eliminate the possibility that the very same person or thing is loved in the Freudian sense. Kohut's distinction between narcissism and object love allows for the possibility of an object being loved for its own qualities while serving the needs of the self.

The concept of empathy forms an axis through self-psychological theory and practice. Early in his career, Kohut (1959) argued that its use as an observational method is what demarcates psychological science. It would be the last topic upon which he would write (see Kohut, 1982) and four days prior to his death in 1981 it would be the last topic upon which he would publicly speak (see Kohut, 1981). Empathy denotes the fundamental human capacity to vicariously introspect the psychological state of another while retaining one's own perspective and identity. It informs the developmental progression of the analytic relationship just as it informs social action in relationships beyond the analytic setting. In the effort to account for the curative effects of his approach to analysis and the lesser benefits of classical analysis, Kohut identified two interrelated aspects of empathy: an understanding phase and an explanation phase. The understanding phase is 'experience-near' insofar as it involves the analyst sensing

the immediate state of the patient. As the relationship progresses developmentally, empathy can eventually take on the more experience-distant function of explanation in terms of cognitive understanding. Repeated alternations between these modes of empathy, along with non-traumatic failures on the part of the analyst in the effort to understand and offer explanation to the patient, facilitate the acquisition of self-structure. Healing occurs through self development brought about by processes analogous to non-analytic social interactions that bring about normative psychological development. The real but lesser curative properties of classical psychoanalysis are attributed to a combination of its similar utilization of experience-near empathy with inferior utilization of experience-distant (i.e., epistemological) empathic attunement.

Self-Psychological Conceptions of Leadership.

Kohut approached leadership primarily in terms of the leader's psychological structure. He conceived the charismatic leader as identifying with his own grandiose self, whereas the messianic leader identifies with the idealized parental imago. They attract followers for whom unbridled confidence (of the charismatic leader) or righteousness (of the messianic leader) will serve intensified psychological needs. Kohut recognizes a pathological dimension in these relationships (Kohut, 1985; 200). He describes Adolph Hitler as a charismatic leader whose success was attributable not to his military prowess or oratorical skills, but to his resonance with the diseased German self (Kohut, 1985; 90).

Post (1986) has expanded upon Kohut's approach by positing a symbiotic relationship between the narcissistic needs of charismatic leaders and followers. He

proposes the charismatic leader as having self-structural deficits that leave him mirror-hungry (i.e., having pathologically intense mirroring needs), whereas followers are ideal-hungry. This formulation brings the analysis of charisma from the older dispositional perspective fully into the modern relational paradigm. Even so, this approach seems inappropriate for the informants in this study, who, did not appear mirror-hungry or ideal-hungry to an extent that would warrant a psychopathological diagnosis. Furthermore, this approach is too simplistic to shed light upon the most perplexing finding of the study, the flux between perceived boundaries of profane self and divine other (see chapters 2 and 3).

Mircea Eliade's Phenomenology of Religion.

Mircea Eliade has said that the proper entry into his writings begins with *Myth of the Eternal Return* (Eliade, 1954), the work that refined and helped to establish the dominant position of the Chicago School in the history of religions. To understand Eliade one must recognize his stated task as an historian of religion: to analyze the experience of religious man (Eliade 1959: 162-165; Eliade, 1963; Allen, 1972; Rasmussen, 1968). Even in his analysis of rituals, Eliade strived to establish the phenomenology of such (see Eliade, 1958, 73; 1958b). His position was that only by recognizing the irreducibility of religious experience in its full intentionality, that is, on the religious plane, can religious man be understood. It must be remembered that Eliade's concern is the phenomenology of religious experience, and that he does not make truth claims about the content of religious belief. He writes as if the beliefs of religious man are true because they are experienced as true, not because they are objectively

accurate. His writing style effectively conveys the phenomenology of religious man to an intellectual reader who may or may not be religious *if* that intention is properly understood by the reader. His writing is easily mistaken as theological assertion when interpreted literally and without due regard for his caveats.

In *Myth of the Eternal Return*, Eliade argues that myth is an indispensable tool in service of *homo religiosus*, the religious person, in the effort to bestow meaning upon his world through participation in *illud tempus*, the supposed time of origin of his cosmogony (*illud tempus* is latin for 'that time'). It is from this mythical time that meaning and order are derived. Through application of mythical archetypes believed established at the time of cosmogonic origin, *homo religiosus* is able to transform the incomprehensible and meaningless world (experienced as chaos) into one of order, establishing cosmos. As a world believed shaped by divine order, cosmos is characterized by ultimate centrality and the heterogeneity it implies; right and wrong, good and bad, and so on, derived from the experienced distinction between the archetypal (associated with the cosmic) from the non-archetypal (associated with the chaotic). For *homo religiosus*, archetypes are established through the actions of the Gods, and ritualized repetition of their actions serves to symbolically project *homo religiosus* into contemporaneity with the Gods in *illud tempus*. From a phenomenological standpoint, *homo religiosus* is thus able to remain close to the center of his cosmos, in the celestial realm of *illud tempus*, and in so doing remains able to derive order and meaning for the establishment and continual renewal of his ordered world. *Homo religiosus* experiences himself in a manner antithetical to how we would expect a post-

Hegelian person to experience himself, that is, as an “historical man” who exists insofar as he makes himself within history. For the empirical observer who does not share in the views and experiences of *homo religiosus*, there appears a paradox: the religious man experiences himself as truly real when he imitates the exemplary models of the Gods, that is, when he ceases to behave like himself.

This behavior, Eliade concluded, is driven by a motive universal to *homo religiosus* regardless of tradition: the experienced need for unmitigated reality. This motive to be situated near the center of reality moves him to revolt against historical time in favor of the mythical time of *illud tempus*, which is experienced as the source of power, order, and meaning. Eliade’s theory progresses from a phenomenological distinction between temporal modalities; history is experienced as linear, mythical time as cyclical. Because the past of linear time is unchangeable, irretrievable, and serves as an imperfect reservoir for meaning derived from *illud tempus*, history implies for the religious man a certain existential terror. Mythical time involves cyclical repetition of archetypes believed eternal and unchanging, providing the experience of contemporaneity with the Gods at the moment of cosmogonic creation in a perpetual present. The myth of eternal return is meaningful because *homo religiosus* can repeatedly recover this mythical moment (experientially, at least) to access its power and keep himself near the center of his ordered cosmos, and situated within the cyclical time of the archetypal realm. While the myth of eternal return doesn’t resolve the terror of history, it renders it bearable.

The mythical time of *illud tempus* is sacred, while the linear time of history is profane. The relationship Eliade postulates between the constructs he described as the sacred and the profane serve as a basis for much of the remainder of his writings. The sacred and profane are two qualitatively distinct existential situations in the world. As concepts they also are oppositional. From the phenomenological viewpoint taken by Eliade, however, their relationship is more complex than this dualism would first seem to imply.

Insofar as the experience of *homo religiosus* is concerned, the sacred world requires the profane to become manifest in what Eliade (1959) termed *hierophany*. The hierophanic object manifests the sacred while retaining its profane nature, such that a stone can become holy by manifesting a spirit, god, or a more general sense of numinosity, and yet does not cease to be a stone. As with other traditions, myriad examples abound within Catholicism. Consider, for example, the Eucharist as ‘transubstantiation’ of bread and wine into the ‘body and blood of Christ’; even those who profess belief will readily admit that consecration does not eliminate the physical properties of bread and wine. Eliade has also described Christ as “the supreme hierophanic object” because worshippers believe he was at once fully human and God incarnate, thus manifesting the sacred (divinity) through the profane (humanity). The relationship between the sacred and the profane is therefore paradoxical; as concepts they are opposite, yet from Eliade’s phenomenological perspective, the sacred is manifested within the profane, becoming differentiated from it and at the same time bestowing reality upon it.

Through its paradoxical participation in the dichotomous realms of sacred and profane, the hierophany not only transforms the experienced nature of time from linear to cyclical, it also transforms the experience of space. The hierophany functions as the religious man's fount of reality, bestowing order and meaning in the space around which it occurs. Sacred space thus becomes experienced as qualitatively different from the "fluid and larval modality" that characterizes the profane realm beyond the bounds of consecrated time and space. As *homo religiosus* has situated himself in profane space, so he assimilates to mythical centrality through consecrating that space into a microcosm of his cosmic order (1958a, 373). Profane space is consecrated by exemplification of cosmogonic order through performed ritual, architectural design, and/or terrestrial designation of the site through divine agency. Consecration of the site also includes its demarcation. A truly sacred site is never believed to be chosen by *homo religiosus* himself; it must be chosen for him by processes imbued with power and meaning from the exemplary models of his myths (Eliade, 1958a: 369). Only with the belief that the site has been designated somehow by the actions of the Gods, as opposed to humans, can *homo religiosus* truly experience communion with the sacred in that place.

Conclusion: The Complementariness of Mircea Eliade's Phenomenology of Religion with the Max Weber's Construct of Charisma.

Eliade's findings came from a synopsis of studies on a variety of religions, from the so-called 'primitive' to the 'world religions,' ancient and modern. Charismatic and Pentecostal Christianities are conspicuously missing from the pantheon of traditions cited. Nevertheless, all of his major conclusions are prominently represented in the

historical, ethnographic, and interview data presented in the previous three chapters. The myth of eternal return is clearly evoked in the ritualized displays of charisma that (from the existential standpoint staked by adherents) liken them to the apostles, the immediate followers of Christ who were contemporaneous with the historical leader and his teachings. It is significant that modern charismatics ritually re-enact the behaviors of the apostles at Pentecost, the mythical event recognized in Catholicism as the pneumatic consecration of the Apostles, establishing what has since become called 'Apostolic authority' (see chapter 1), and the establishment of the 'Church' as a unified 'body,' that is, something believed unified through the Holy Spirit and assimilated to the physical body of Christ (and therefore, according to a pre-Cartesian logic of participation, to his own pneumatic consecration). As the first chapter explained, the primary development of the Second Vatican Council was the re-establishment of apostolic authority with the Petrine authority that for all purposes was internally unchecked since the conclusion of the First Vatican Council. In ritually likening themselves to the Apostles, modern Charismatic Catholics attempt to nestle themselves at the centers of their experienced cosmos in several ways at once. They ritually project themselves into contemporaneity with the supposed moment Apostolic authority became superimposed over the authority Jesus bestowed upon Peter, the first Pope. In so doing, they re-affirm the sacred order of the present, post-Vatican II power structure of the Catholic Church. Finally, they attempt to cultivate a personal relationship with Christ, in the same manner that each of the apostles presumably shared with the historical Jesus of Nazareth. Each of these points is predicted by Eliade's conclusions

on the fundamental desire for *homo religiosus* to remain close to the center of his world, and to periodically re-consecrate the world in terms of the understood cosmogony. In so doing, the world becomes charged again with myth, and as Eliade puts it, undergoes “renewal.” Although Catholic Charismatics would take exception to the word ‘myth’ being used to describe their religious feelings, they would not disagree with the true meaning of Eliade’s claim in the phenomenological domain, as they do claim to be centered and, literally, “charged” through ritual participation. Even the name of the religious movement, the Catholic Charismatic Renewal, provides confirmation of the applicability of Eliade’s conclusions to the religiosity from which these data derive.

Eliade’s identification of Christ as “the supreme hierophanic object” (1959: 11) clearly applies to beliefs of the persons studied here. With regard to the sacred, Eliade also stressed the multiplicity of centers corresponding with a multiplicity of hierophanies within any tradition. Charisma, the focus of this study, not only comprises a hierophany in its centrality to the phenomenology of the CCR, but also in every other sense that Eliade specifies the term. In the church-based charismatic prayer setting, charisma (as manifested in the spiritual gifts) is experienced as ego-dystonic, whereby it is associated with a person but perceived as separate from the self. As the data described in chapter 3 demonstrate, charisma is experienced in profane space as ego-syntonic, that is, inseparable from the self. Explanation for the paradox of its changing perception depends upon two components of Eliade’s theory: the inherently paradoxical nature of the hierophany as the sacred manifested in the profane, and his conception of the relationship between the hierophany and sacred space.

In full concordance with Eliade's description of profane space as a "fluid and larval modality" characterized by undifferentiation from the sacred, the data of this study show that the self (believed inherently profane) is undifferentiated from the charismatic gift (believed inherently sacred) beyond the precincts of the prayer setting, i.e., in profane space of a Western liberal democracy that normally regards self as the locus of morality. When the prayer setting is ritually transformed through re-actualization of the charismatic gifts (glossolalia, healing, prophecy, etc.) into a sacred space, the sacred manifestation of gift becomes experientially cleaved from the profane self, reifying the conceptual distinction between sacred other and divine self in precisely the manner Eliade's findings would lead us to predict.

Max Weber's theory of charisma has more utility than any other toward organization of the data presented in this study. His construct accurately identifies *who*, i.e., the primary parties involved (the charismatic leader of Christ, the institutional authorities of the Roman Catholic Church, and the devout but non-ordained followers). It identifies *what* (i.e., charisma, or sacred authority, represented here as a 'spiritual gift'). It identifies *why*, i.e., the purpose of charisma to legitimate social order (such as the power structure re-established by the Second Vatican Council). Similarly, it identifies *when*, i.e., the time charisma becomes manifested (when the legitimacy of leadership structures are uncertain, as was the case with Roman Catholic Church hierarchy following that council). It identifies *how*, (processes of ritualization –described in chapter 2 - and rationalization – described in chapter 1 – that actualize its institutionalization). In sum, Weber's theory elegantly organizes the data in every domain of inquiry that Weber

addressed. However, Weber's theory cannot explain the fundamental change in the experience of that charisma between settings, which also runs contrary to doctrine on charisma that emerged from the Catholic-Pentecostal dialogue (see Chapter 1). The strikingly divergent findings from data presented in chapters two and three reveal Weber's lack of sufficient consideration of *where*, i.e., the role of place with regard to the manifestation of charisma. This absence in Weber's theory can be compensated with further consideration of the data in light of Mircea Eliade's studies into religious phenomenology.

Eliade's insights about the fundamental relationship between the sacred and profane space can fully reconcile the paradoxical findings of the preceding three chapters. Taken together, the data show that Weber's theory of charisma can be elaborated with Eliade's findings on sacred space, which almost fifty years later remain the most elaborate and definitive on the topic. These data demonstrate the potential complementarity of Weber's theory with data on the historical and 'objective' data (including who, what, when, and how), with Eliade's insights into the significance of place from a phenomenological perspective.

There is no conflict or redundancy in the positions taken by Weber and Eliade. Weber did not anchor his theory in the phenomenology of followers, as did Eliade. Through defining charisma as the leader's 'real or perceived' representation of transcendent order, he avoided basing his formulation on either the purely objective or subjective orientation. Eliade's discoveries about the nature of sacred space are fully consistent with Weber's formulation of Charisma in a treatment of Charisma as

hierophany, and expand upon Weber's formulation through his findings on sacred space using data that are, due to their being rooted in the phenomenology of CCR informants, beyond the scope of Weber's theory. In turn, Weber's theory correctly identifies the historical antecedents leading to the appearance of the CCR, predicts hierarchical motives to institutionalize its sacred power, and predicts the methods used by the hierarchy toward these ends. His theory is able to move the frame beyond the phenomenological realm into that of historicity, where Eliade's is not intended for literal application. Therefore, insofar as the data of this study are concerned, these theories are not only complimentary, they elaborate each other. The prospect of interlocking these approaches is utterly absent from the literatures in anthropology, sociology, psychology, and divinity. Stirrat (1984) proposed a complimentary relationship between the theories of Eliade and Durkheim, but his analysis was based on a juxtaposition of their respective models of time that was in turn based on a misinterpretation of Eliade's theory on several points, including cyclical time as a model of time itself, rather than a claim about the *phenomenology* of sacred time. Therefore, that claim, in addition to being flawed by a misreading of Eliade, is different from the one being proposed here between Weber and Eliade.

Evidence of these constructs being complementary and mutually informative would be the most significant contribution of this study to the theoretical development of either approach. This remains tentative until researched in other contexts: Catholic, non-Catholic but Christian, and non-Christian. Islam is among the most important non-Christian traditions in which assessing its validity will require unprecedented

investigation. There are differences between these traditions that warrant hesitation to accept the generalization without empirical evidence based upon Muslim religiosities. Irregardless of how such data would appear, the comparison would not be strait-forward. There are differences in the fundamental nature of spiritual authority in these traditions. The organization of the Catholic Church is partially based upon a principle of absolute centrality of authority leading upward, in a hierarchical fashion, from the laity to the Pope, who is regarded as the vicar of the charismatic figure of Christ. Although there are numerous institutions of Muslim authority, Islam is without a corresponding, undisputably centralized authority structure. Furthermore, while Jesus of Nazareth occupies a prestigious role in Islamic cosmology as a prophet, that tradition does not hold any one figure to be as absolutely central as Christ is regarded in Catholic cosmology. Even the uniquely revered prophet Mohammad, who Muslims regard the 'seal' of divine revelation, is not elevated to such status. Conversely, for Muslims it is the Quran that is more properly described as both as the principle charismatic object in the Weberian sense (as the proximal source of transcendent power and knowledge), and a hierophanic object in the sense described by Eliade (as the manifest word of God unmediated even by the humanity of the prophet). The latter belief, in Eliade's terms, reveals a perceived cleavage of Quran's sacred, hierophanic power from the person of Mohammad in *illud tempus* in corresponds strikingly with the Catholic Charismatics' perceived cleavage between the hierophanic spiritual gift from themselves within the sacred space that in which the Pentecost, their own *illud tempus*, is ritually

commemorated. Further study is needed to evaluate the validity of the proposed complementariness between Weber and Eliade beyond this finding.

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